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vol 9

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STORIES OF THE IRISH PEASANTRY.

BY MRS. S. C. HALL.

"Mind not high things: but condescend to men of low estate."
St. PAUL.

THE CROCK OF GOLD.

In the county of Wexford, and in a nook which, fifty years ago, was completely apart from the ordinary route of travellers, are situated the Seven Castles of Clonmines. An arm of the sea, called "the Scar," separates them from the parish of Bannow. In my childhood they were to me objects of deep interest; I had no playmate, no companion; and when my relatives went on friendly visitings in the neighbourhood, they would take me with them; it being a fixed principle that I was never to be left to the care of servants. One of our best and dearest friends dwelt in a house called Barristown, nearly opposite those fine old ruins; and happy indeed was I, when the carriage was ordered to prepare for a drive thither. It was inhabited at that period by a very aged lady and her youngest son, an old bachelor; her granddaughter also lived with them, a young lady of most amiable mind and manners.

Sally H., though a young woman when I was born, was, nevertheless, my playfellow, my adviser, my friend; and proud was I, as a little girl, to have a tall lady for my companion. She would pet me, and scold me, and reason with me, and tell me stories. She had such mild soft eyes, so gentle a voice, and a certain degree of refinement in her manners—the result, perhaps, of delicate health—that now, through the vista of years, I revert to her as one of the sweetest and fairest of my memories. She used to say I would forget her when I came to England; a prophecy that always made me weep. But she did me injustice; I never did forget her, nor the double violets she used to drop over the pew, on entering church, into my lap; nor the delight I felt when placed on her side-saddle, her long fair arm holding me in my seat, dear kind creature! When the world has been only a little hard with us, how sweetly comes the remembrance of kindness bestowed on our youth! It seems as if there never had been kindness like unto that; and we wonder how the world is changed, grown chill, and cold, and estranged. And we love to shut our eyes upon all things present, and live over again with the dear ones of the olden time, our young and thoughtless years! But this is worse than idle; we are with the present, and of the present.

When last I drove by old Barristown, it looked grim and grey, shut in with its own loneliness—nothing about it telling of existence, except the rooks that cawed above the one tall ivied tower, where the old lady slept and died. It looked grey and sad, and well it might; for those who made it ring again with hospitality, were all—all—in their silent graves. It frowned at the sunshine like a thing that would not be comforted. I was glad to send my thoughts and my gaze across the waters to the ruins of the Seven Castles of Clonmines, and they looked, as they had always done to me, land-marks of mystery, and full of the deepest and most solemn interest. Time, which had destroyed the charm of the more modern structure, had only added a few more ivy wreaths to the old castles. I could hardly discern even if they had crumbled nearer to the earth, for the ivy, with the solicitude of the truest friendship, concealed all defects, and laboured to keep the mouldering stones together. Very, very beautiful, the old castles looked, lying in the Vale of the Scar, covering a considerable extent of the greenest meadow-land it is possible to imagine, and leading the mind back to the olden time when wassail and superstition celebrated their alternate orgies within those walls. A bridge beyond the castles, called "Wellington Bridge," crosses the arm of the sea I have already mentioned, and facilitates communication between the secluded neighbourhood of Bannow and Ross and Waterford. Before the bridge was built, those who wished to get to the opposite side were obliged to wait till the tide was out, and cross at the ford. The country girls proceeding to Ballyhack to sell their eggs, used to take off their shoes and stockings, and wade across, carrying their marketing on their heads; if the tide ran strong, they would link hands, and cross in numbers. And I remember but one or two accidents; though, since they have got the bridge, crossing the ford is spoken of as a barbarism—I should say, since they have got the *road* to the bridge; for be it known to the methodical readers of "Chambers's Journal," that the bridge was finished three years before the road was made. But things are better ordered now.

The morning was fine, and leaving Barristown and its host of memories, I thought I should like a ramble round the Seven Castles, and in a short time I was scrambling among the ruins with little Daniel Muckleroy for my guide—the guide being far more ignorant of the locale than myself, yet *too Irish* to suffer his ignorance to appear.

"Dan, do you know who built these castles?"

Dan (a little perplexed), "Myself can't say *exactly* how ould they are, but some hundred thousand years, any way!"

"But who built them?"

"Oliver Crom'ell, my lady."

"And who destroyed them, Dan?"

"Bedad, ma'am, it was Oliver Crom'ell."

"What! did he build them up and pull them down?"

"Bedad, my lady, I'll go bail he did that same; for ye see, my lady, he had *a bad heart to the country*, and could never let well alone."

This attributing of all things bad to the great Cromwell, is universal throughout Ireland. Dan's mode of reasoning was by no means singular, strange as it must sound to English ears.

"You think he was a bad fellow, Dan?"

"The Lord between us and harrum, my lady! he was the devil himself! My great-grandfather see him onst, and a bad light he was to him, and his, and us, and every foot a' land he could lay his eye, let alone his hoof on. Oh, bedad! he was all out the worst sight ever came across ould Ireland, or *I* need'nt be standing before yer ladyship in *the skin of my feet*."

Dan's winding up of his country's distress by such a picture was quite in keeping, but it was so odd that I turned away to prevent his seeing me smile; and at the moment I perceived one of the most remarkable figures I ever saw. A tall thin man, bent nearly double, but still looking very tall and spectre-like, was creeping round a buttress of the nearest tower; one thin bony hand grasped a massive ivy bough which wound like a huge serpent up the grey wall, and he supported himself on something between the narrow spade they use for digging potatoes, and a pick-axe. The handle was long enough to be used as a leaping pole, and the end furnished with an iron cross, upon which he leant. It appeared to me that without such support he could not walk, and yet he moved, or rather shuffled along, with considerable rapidity. His coat was long and grey, patched with many colours; and a bag, originally made of sacking, was slung across his back by a leathern belt, from which depended more than one string of "holy beads," and a multitude of shreds of different-coloured cloths, several rabbit skins, and one or two skins of birds of prey. He wore no stockings, but his shoes were bound on, sandal-fashion, with knotted cords crossed more than half way up his legs. His hair was thin, and white as snow, receding from a high narrow forehead, which a phrenologist would at once pronounce as proud and dreamy. He wore no hat, but a cowl of grey cloth fell behind, and in bad weather he could protect his head from the pelting of the storm by drawing it forward. Indeed, his head was a model of ancient beauty, rising so nobly above his cowering figure; and the pure white hair was well thrown out by the dark green ivy which formed an appropriate background to the solitary wanderer. He features looked worn and attenuated, but their extreme sharpness proceeded from the thinness of the face. His eyebrows were long and bushy, and his eyes grey, restless, and piercing. He paused and bowed his head—for all of the peasant class are courteous—and manifested no desire either to retreat or advance.

"God save you, Daddy Whelan, sir!" said little Muckleroy; adding, under his breath, "he'll root the ould towers themselves up some of these days."

"God save ye kindly!—who's spaking to me?" answered and inquired the old man.

"A lady from England, and little Dan Muckleroy, anty Muckleroy's grandson," was the reply.

"A lady from England!" repeated the old man, relinquishing his grasp of the ivy bough; and, after a moment, he smoothed down his white hair, drew his cowl a little over his head, and advancing close to where I stood, crossed his hands on the top of his singular staff, and gazing with his glittering eyes in my face, inquired, in a low mysterious tone of voice,

"*Had ye a drame!*"

It is quite impossible to describe the eagerness of the old man's manner; his mouth open, as if panting for intelligence; his eyes—the word I have used is the only one that can convey an idea of their expression—*glittering* with a wildness that almost amounted to insanity; the very grasp in which he held his staff showed how anxious he was for my answer.

"Had I a dream?—yes, many."

"Ay, lady, many; but about—about—*the crock of goold*—about *that*, lady dear? Was it a *drame* about that brought ye here?—what else could bring a laughing-eyed lady among the ruins and dry bones. The crock o' goold, lady, did ye drame of *that*?—if ye did, send little Dan away; he doesn't know the sacret. I do—the witch hazel, and the holy *drop*—I have 'em all—I'll find it."

"Then why have you not found it for yourself?" I asked.

The brightness of his eyes faded, the lids dropped; the very muscles of his hands relaxed; the excitement was over for the moment; he passed his hand across his brow, and repeated, "Why hav'n't I?—why hav'n't I? I hadn't the luck yet; I lie down under

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the light of the new moon, but I don't *drame*; I never dreamt but the onst; but that was enough. I saw it—I had it—the crock in those two hands—the goold rolling like the waves of the sea at my feet—that was a drame!—have you dreamt such, lady, have ye? I know the charrum—the witch hazel, the holy drop. the first tear of the new moon!" and he repeated again and again the same words, his eyes glittering, his excitement increasing.

"Daddy Whelan," said my attendant imp, "have ye tried under the flat grey stone down by the water? Granny dreamt onst that there was a crock of goold there."

"I don't know—I forget—maybe I did—maybe I didn't—I find *my marks* in many a green hillock, and under many an ould tower; but I have not found the *crock of goold yet*. You'll never find it by yerself lady. So, if ye *had a drame*, tell me; we'll find it together, we'll divide it together."

It was in vain I assured Daddy Whelan I had not dreamed a dream. Had it not been that little Dan hit upon a new spot where to direct his attention, the old treasure-seeker would have still insisted that I too must have dreamed of a *crock of gold*.

I watched him stealing away amid the ruins, and then sat down on a bench of soft green moss to recall the story my old friend Sally had told me, in my childish days, about the old man I had seen so unexpectedly for the first time, but of whom I had so often heard.

"Never," she said "build your hopes of future well-doing upon chance, but rather upon industry, whether of the head or of the hands; both have it in their power to win independence, though they do it in a different way. My uncle knew two young men in the gentleman's county—the county Kilkenny—of the name of Whelan, Roger and Michael. They were left a large tract of land by their father, which was divided equally between them. It was in parts wild and uncultivated, but it was all he had to give, except his blessing; and the blessing of a parent gladdens a good child's heart. Roger, the eldest, was a wild, dreamy fellow; and instead of setting steadily to work to mend matters and improve his farm, he was always talking of the 'luck' some people had, and how hard it was to be obliged to labour on bad land. It was in vain that Michael told him it was worse to have no land to labour on; he idled and complained. His brother, worked night and day, at first with little success, but time helps industry; and what was really owing to industry, Roger said was owing to luck. 'If,' said Roger to Michael, one sunny Sunday evening, when, after walking round and round and through and about the old ruins of Jerpoint Abbey, 'if I could only find a crock of goold, I'd be a made man. I'd have as fine a hunter as Squire Nixon, and such lashings of whisky and fresh cod and oysters for every Friday in and out of Lent. Abel Ryan found one, and why shouldn't I?" While he spoke, he kept poking, poking with his stick among the stones of the mouldering archway, beneath which they, the brothers, stood; and as he did so, it chanced that he dislodged a stone, and in a crevice, a sort of hole between the stones, he discovered several old silver coins. This astonished one brother, and elated the other, whose wish that he *might* find a crock of gold was fast strengthening into the idea that he *should* find one. It was in vain that Michael reasoned with Roger, and urged him to take the new-found treasure to the landlord, whose property, according to the law of the land, it most undoubtedly was. Roger laughed at his scruples, and kept the coin; but though he had the money, he did not exactly know how to dispose of it. The sum was far too small to take him abroad, and he feared to show it at home, for the news would have flown like wildfire, and the castle be either rooted up or thrown down by those who would have expected to be as fortunate as Roger Whelan. Soon after this occurred, the time arrived for planting seed potatoes. Michael had got his ready, and hinted to his brother that the season was passing, and his ground remained unoccupied.

'How do you think,' was the treasure-seeker's reply, 'that I can be able to spend my time digging thick clay, when I am, as you, and you only, know, night after night, through and through the ruins of ould Jerpoint. Don't I know the red goold is in it? And how do you think I can give my mind to such work as *that*, when *I know* what's before me?' It was no use talking to the infatuated man. 'Give me,' he continued, 'the bit and the sup, and a good coat to my back, a new spade and pick-axe; suffer me to go and to come, and I'll give you my share of the land, the dirty barren soil that it is; stockings and croppings, just as it is, take it, and welcome.'

'Well,' answered Michael, 'I will manage it, Roger, till you come to your senses; and then I'm thinking you'll be glad enough to get it back.'

Roger Whelan," continued my friend, "was a fine handsome fellow, tall and comely, and was at that time very much in love with a very pretty girl, who had a good deal of money; but her parents found out that Roger was always out at nights. The country was, as it generally is, in an unquiet state; and despite Michael's assurances to the contrary, Mary Morgan's 'people' believed that Roger was in some way connected with the disturbers of the public peace, at the very time when, to do him justice, he disturbed nought but the wild rabbits, the bats, owls, rooks, and wild birds, that sheltered amid the ruins of Jerpoint. Neither Roger nor Michael would tell why Roger was from home at nights; and after some hesitation, and a few tears, Mary relinquished her handsome lover for a short, steady, little husband, who lived to be a rich citizen of the city of Waterford. 'Never mind,' said the discarded lover; 'she'll be sorry for it yet, when she hears Mister Roger Whelan, Esq., talked of, and hears the bay of my hounds on the hills, and sees my carriage overrunning all the pigs on the quay of Waterford; then, maybe, she'll be sorry for changing her mind.' The forgetfulness of his fair one, however, preyed upon his spirits; and having gone into Kilkenny, he was tempted to change one or two of his precious coins; and after having drunk the worth of his money in whisky, he was imprudent enough to boast that he had many more of the same 'curiosities' at home. The landlord, seeing that the coins were unlike any he had ever seen before, took them to a 'knowing man,' a little crabbed body who lived near the church gate of Saint Xanis, and was as near an approach to a dealer of curiosities as could be supposed to exist in an Irish country town, where the great of those days spent *more* than their spare money in show and claret, and the small had never any money to spare. Still the old man existed; and when *he* purchased the coins from the whisky dealer; something seemed to occur to him, which he did not communicate to any one; but finding that it was still early in the day, he set out to walk to a gentleman who resided about five miles from Kilkenny, on the Ross road. To him he showed the coins; and much to poor Michael's horror, Roger Whelan was arrested at the end of the week, on the accusation of having stolen these coins from that very gentleman's house. About a fortnight before the unfortunate treasure-seeker found them among the stones of Jerpoint Abbey, the house had been beset by some Whitefeet, or Peep-of-day boys, or whatever they chose to call themselves, seeking for arms, and professing to take nothing else—a profession they generally adhered to. But one of them had doubtless been tempted by the glitter of a drawer of coins and medals in a bureau, which they had broken open to get at some curious Spanish pistols the gentleman was known to possess. After having obtained possession thereof, he doubtless did not know how to dispose of them, and secreted them in the ruin, where Roger unfortunately discovered them.

I confess my opinion is, that the law in those days was administered in a very one-sided manner; but I must at the same time admit, that circumstantial evidence was strongly against poor Roger; he had acquired for himself the character of an idle wandering fellow, and the only one to support his story was Michael; but the counsel for the crown said, 'What brother was there who would not say as much for another brother?'

'Plaze yer honor,' answered Michael, 'he is my brother, poor boy; and though he's forenint me, where I never thought he'd be, and the first of his family that ever *stud* in sich disgrace, and though I'd sell the coat off my back, and *the flesh after* it, if that would save him, still I'd not tell a lie, and by so doing sell my soul to the devil. Gintlemen counsellors, you're *used to it*, but *I'm not:* he has tould the blessed truth. Treasure-seeking he was, that's sartin, whin, with a bit of a stick—the very one that stud his friend many a turn, yet like many friends, betrayed him at the last—poked out the unnatural pieces of money, bad luck to them; and if he had taken my advice, and just carried them to the landlord, there would have been no more about it, only maybe the right made out. Look, gintlemen, I can say no more than this; look round at me, Roger, *avick*, the born picture of our blessed father, the boy that lay with myself many and many a night and day upon the bosom of our own mother; look at me, my own heart-brother, and hear me pray on my knees that curses by day and night may fall hot, heavy, black, and bitter on yer head, if you knew any thing about the dirty money until that blessed minute when, unknowst to yerself, you let the light of day shine on the treasure, and thought yer fortune made!' To this his brother replied with a deep and sincere AMEN! many in the court wept, for all who knew respected Michael, and considered Roger as an 'innocent boy, who would never do any harm to any one *but himself*.' Poor Roger, however, was sentenced to seven years' transportation, to which was added the information, that the law showed great mercy in not sentencing him to death.

'God bless you, Michael,' said Roger, when he embraced his brother for the last time; 'all the counthry knows I'm innocent; and who can tell but I may find *the crock of goold yet*, when all's said and done! The money *was* hid there, any way.'

'If ever,' said Michael to his wife, when he returned home, 'if ever poor Roger comes back to ould Ireland, it will be to go treasure-hunting; his brain is struck with it, as indeed every brain is when it takes a foolish notion that reason can't conquer.'

Five years had passed, and the only matter connected with the brothers worth recording, was, that the man who *really* took the old money from the gentleman's bureau, having wound up his misdeeds by the crime of murder, was discovered; and when about to suffer, confessed his sorrow that a 'dacent boy's son, Roger Whelan by name, should have been turned out of the country for his fault.' This was a joyful hearing to all Michael Whelan's friends, and they were many; his conduct had won him the approbation of rich and poor; and it had long been evident, that if Roger failed to *find a crock of gold*, it was equally certain that Michael would soon *make* one, as every thing prospered that he undertook. The ignorant said, *he had great luck*—the wise, that he *had great industry*.

The news of Roger's pardon, and consequent permission to return home, spread through the country; but long before there was a possibility of a ship reaching Botany Bay, a tall, worn, spectral-looking man presented himself beneath Michael's roof, and was soon pressed to the arms of the whole family.

'My own dear brother!' said the true-hearted Michael, 'you are indeed returned; and now *your* farm is worth the having; it is stocked, and cropped, and thriving; we will work together, and live together. But how is it you are so quickly returned?"

'Don't laugh at me, Michael,' was the reply; 'but I had *one drame*, which I never shall rest till I work out; it kept up my heart for three long years of slavery, and I'd often pray to drame it again, but I never did. I dreamt I was in Ireland, standing by cross roads that divided some ould ruins into four halves, and milk came pouring down one road, and water down another, and a swarm of bees flying down another, and a herd of cattle driving down the last; and as I stood, a voice said, "Seek, and have;" and I thought I made with my hands a trough like, where the milk and water mixed like whisky and water, and the bees hung over it, and the cattle drank of it; and I could tell the place, if I saw it. And behould, I worked, worked at the hollow; and, all of a sudden, I raised up a crock of goold between these hand; and as I did so, the red, red goold fell at my feet, like the waters of the wide ocean, for plenty; and through all manner of dangers, I made my way back to Ireland, on the sly; and for the last three months I've been disguised like a bocher, or a natural, seeking through the ruins of ould Ireland for the *crock of goold*—but *I hav'n't found it yet*.'

'Nor never will," said Michael. 'Let me read the dream for you. Didn't your hands make the trough, and did not milk and water rest there, and cattle rest there, and honey rest there! and are not the they fruits of labour! And out of that trough came the crock of goold; and so it will, out of the labour of your hands. That is the only *crock of goold* the Whelans will ever find, depend upon it.'

This interpretation did not, however, suit the treasure-seeker; on all other subjects he was sane enough; but nothing could change his desire to *find*, instead of labour for, wealth. And yet his brother told my uncle, he *does* labour, and labour hard. He risked much in venturing to Ireland before he knew that his innocence had been declared. But he did not care: his whole ideas were in the *crock of goold*. There is not a part of Ireland that he will not travel, to spend night after night burrowing in the earth like a wild animal, no matter what the weather is, or what the season; and the first question he asks of every stranger he meets is, '*Had ye a drame?*'"

This was one of the tales my gentle friend told me with a desire to correct my fondness for castle-building; which is indeed even now one of my faults. She enlarged upon the utility of Michael's course of life, and pointed out how totally lost to himself and to society poor Roger was. "He comes here sometimes, and asks my grandmother's leave to inspect our castle; a permission we never refuse, upon condition that he does not meddle with the foundation. He makes his appearance once every three years, spending some time at Dunbrody Abbey, some time at Clonmines, a night here, another at Danes Castle, another at Coolhull, at Duncormuck; and so getting into the barony of Forth, which is full of old castles, he travels by day, and digs by night; but he has not yet found his crock of gold."

How well I remembered the evening when, sitting on my friend's knee in the great bow-window of the drawing-room at Barristown, she told me that story! The Castles of Clonmines, had flung their shadows on the water, and the evening was as calm and silent as the grave. I remember asking her to send me word when next the old treasure-seeker came to the neighbourhood, that I might see him, only at a little distance; and I also remember her saying, that, "he might never come again, for that exposure to all weathers had brought on premature old age, and he seemed ill and worn the last time he was there."

Alas! dear Sally had departed long, long ago to a better world; and I, after residing many years in another land, had, by one of those curiously turned romances of real life that laugh at fiction, encountered the treasure-seeker upon the very spot where, years ago, I knew he loved to linger and explore—the very old man whom my poor friend had supposed too worn and ill to return again! Indeed, I had been so certain of his death, that I had never thought of inquiring about him. I know not how long I might have remained among the ruins, musing over the story I have recorded, and recalling the looks and voice of her who

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told me many such tales, had not my little busy companion, Daniel Muckleroy, begged "my honour's" pardon, but "would I be plazed to tell him which I liked best—travelling by night or by day, or in rain or sunshine!" This recalled me to a sense of the rapidity with which time had passed, and I became aware that the evening approached. I had hoped the sun would have set over the castles with the red, red glory I had so often witnessed, bestowing his radiant benediction with all his brightness; but no; the clouds were grey and heavy, the whistle of the plover was more frequent than usual, and a moaning came from the not far off ocean—a sound perfectly distinct from the roaring that accompanies the progress of the storm-king, or the loud ripple that beats music to the breeze; it was a *moaning*—those who know the sea will understand what I mean—a heaving, as if the mighty waters groaned *inwardly* at the approach of a tempest.

"The clouds have *gathered* above our heads, ma'am, and ye havn't noticed them; and there was a *broch* about the moon last night; and early as it is, sorra a crow, the craythur, that hasn't come home; and since ye seemed so *struck*, my lady, with Daddy Whelan, if ye'll just be plazed to step here, you'll see him in his *eliment* intirely."

I walked on to where the boy stood, and I was pleased, when, looking earnestly in my face, he added, "Daddy's of *dacant* people ma'am; and *sure you wouldn't laugh at him!* He's as innocent as a baby, only *touched* in the head with the throuble he had onst, and the fancy of a crock o' goold." There was warm feeling round the heart of that wild Irish boy, *though he was standing in the skin of his feet.*

Roger Whelan was preparing for a stormy night, and the prospect seemed to have imbued the old man with new life; he had fastened his cowl more closely round his head, and was seated on the grey stone my guide had pointed out; his curious staff placed upon his knees, his elbows resting upon it, and his attention divided between the arrangement of a piece of candle in an old lantern, which I had not before perceived, and the course of the clouds, that were, without any apparent wind, careering above our heads. I advanced nearer, but he did not heed me.

"My lady," whispered little Daniel, "he's dug round and round that stone a thousand times, but the neighbours fill up the marks; his brother, Misther Michael, has come to live in this county, and likes to keep the Daddy, as we call him, near at hand. He wouldn't stay in the place if he found his own marks, but go to break fresh ground: granny says he's more easily desaved than he used to be."

Suddenly a shivering flash of lightning ran amid the clouds, and a few drops of rain warned me to take shelter under a ruined arch close to the grey stone, upon which the treasure-seeker was seated.

"Daddy, sir," said Dan, "come in the shelter; it's bad for ould bones to get could."

The old man turned his face suddenly towards the smiling child, and holding forth a long arm-bone, which was fastened beneath the shreds to his singular belt, and was polished as ivory, he exclaimed, "*This* doesn't feel the could; it's been stript these hundred years and more. I had dug the whole night, and the thunder howling, and the lightning, not laughing like the weeny flash that passed us now, but dancing mad with divilment through the heavens and over the earth. It was in Adair I was rooting—rooting—for *the crock of goold*, inside the proud lord's walls, and he thinking none like me could get at his hid treasure And I saw the handle, the handle of the crock, *forenint* me, in the hole, and I made a plunge and seized it. I knew it *was* the handle, and I was so wild wid joy, that I forgot myself and shouted, and heard the shout repeated, as loud again by some of the *achoes*, and muttered over by others according to their fancy. And I knew I had done wrong to spake, but held fast; and, ah! ah! I pulled, and he pulled; but I held fast, and tore this up—*this!* Do ye understand it!—the spirit that had owned the goold, *had power* afther I shouted. So he *kept* his *crock of goold*, but *I* got his arm-bone! That was my best chance; I never can have such a chance except when they," and he pointed downwards, "and spoke in a lower tone, "when *they* get *tarryfied* with the thunder; than's my best chance, and I shall have it to-night; if I had but *a drame*. Are you sure you had not a drame, lady?" he added, peering at me as he had done before.

I asked him if he rememberd his friends at Barristown, for I was anxious to ascertain if his mind wandered on all subjects.

"Ay, well!" he replied, and his voice changed again; "God be good them!—the warm welcome, the open house, the ould Lady Queen of the Castle! *she* often dramed for me: and her son—the flower of the gentry—and the fair young lady, I brought a white rose-tree from Woodstock, and set it on her grave, though *she* would never try to drame for me! Poor thing, she did not believe in drames; *but she knows the truth of them now!* It's a quare world, and every thing in it. What is it from first to last but a drame, leading by visions to eternity! Sure, in our own short time, the people are gone from Barristown like a drame! and yet they *war* in it onst, and so with the money in my *crock of goold!* Sure, afther *that*, what can ye say agin' the drames! Isn't all life a drame? There's another flash o' lightning! *I love to read my drame-book by flashes o' lightning!* and I love it at sea, the fire and the wather sporting wild sport together! Ah, thin, if ye hadn't a drame, lady, whin will ye go out of this, for ye're *troubling* the earth! Don't ye hear how the thunder growls?"

"May I not wait till the storm is over, Daddy?" I inquired, not without some apprehension, for the old man's features were assuming a troubled aspect, though my little guide did not seem alarmed.

"Oh, *agra?* yes; a lady and a stranger; only the sooner the better, unless you could sleep, *and tell me yer drame.* God help me," he added, shiveringly, for the wind had risen, and was rattling amid the ruins and the ivy; "God help me! *I shall soon be little more than a drame myself.*"

It is impossible to convey an idea of the sadness of the tone with which he uttered this prophecy. They were the last words he spoke to me. The storm was short-lived; and though I bade him good-day, he would not answer me; the boy said he was vexed the "*tunder*" was over. Be that as it may, I heard the click-click of his sharpening the end of his axe, as if determined on his singular purpose.

Poor Roger Whelan! one of my last received letters from Ireland contained this passage: "I have just left the prosperous and contented dwelling of Michael Whelan; he is a very old man, full to the brim of the happy years of an industrious life, though just now much grieved by the death of his wandering brother, 'the Treasurer-Seeker;' for despite his eccentric obstinacy, which, as he advanced in years, deepened in my opinion into positive madness, he loved him tenderly. Roger's end was as remarkable as his life. He had been occupied, as usual, one stormy night in the old churchyard of K——l; and the storm he so delighted in, but too faithfully assisted the excavation he had made. A portion of the north wall gave way, and buried the picturesque old man beneath its ruin."

Poor dreamer! he had left his brother's house under the strong excitement of a new vision, and his end was in keeping with his life. The prosperity arising from the industry of the one brother, and the comfortless life and tragical end of the other, form the best commentary upon the most feasible means of obtaining a *crock of gold.*

SUPPOSED CHANGES IN THE WEATHER OF LATE YEARS.

One can scarcely meet with a single old or even middle-aged person now-a-days, who does not affirm and believe, that, within his own experience, the temperature of the weather, and indeed the general character of the seasons, have sustained some remarkable changes in our island. The warmth of our summers, and, still more particularly, the severity and duration of our winters, are represented by such individuals as having undergone most striking modifications. The same extremes, they say, either of heat or cold, of placidity or storm, are now unknown. It is not unusual, for instance, to hear aged country persons, both form their own recollections and the traditions handed to them by their fathers, allege that in times fifty to eighty years ago, the heat was so intense in summer that the labours of the field could not possibly be carried on at mid-day, and that for at least two hours daily, all out-of-door operations had to be suspended. They also tell similar stories respecting the intensity and length of the winters; so that, if they are to be believed, the weather is altogether a different thing in these degenerate days. In order to investigate the correctness of these reminiscences and traditions, we have thought it worth while to examine the Meteorological Records of our island during the past century, in order to see what the barometer and thermometer have to say on the point. Fortunately, we find the necessary materials for our purpose in the good old magazine files, which, though displaying nothing like the literary merit of the present monthly periodicals, contain a mass of useful matter of all kinds, for which posterity will look in vain in similar modern works.

The Scots Magazine presents regular, and, we have no doubt, pretty accurate monthly observations of the weather, as indicated by the barometer and thermometer, for a succession of years. We here give a table, showing the weather for the *first* twelve months on which continued and complete observations were made in the work alluded to. The choice, being made from this cause, is of course as impartial as may be. The first barometrical column shows the highest point, and the second the lowest, which the mercury attained at any time during each month; and the same with the thermometrical columns. The two columns of *variations* indicate the greatest change in the instruments during any *twenty-four hours* of the month. The observations in the table commence with April, 1751, and end with March, 1752. They were made in Edinburgh or its vicinity, but we are not told how often, or at what precise hours, the instruments were looked at.

	Barometer (in inches and 10ths).			Thermometer (degrees).		
	Highest.	Lowest.	Variation.	Highest.	Lowest.	Variation.
April	30·0	29 1	0·3	57·0	43·0	4·0
May	30·4	29·2	0·3	58·0	47 0	5.0
June	30·3	29·6	0·5	68·0	53·0	5·0
July	30 1	29·4	0·6	65·0	59·0	3·0
Aug.	30 3	29 4	0·3	64·0	57·0	3·0
Sept.	30 3	29·3	0 6	62·0	50·0	6·0
Oct.	30 4	29·4	0·3	56 0	46.0	5·0
Nov.	30·5	29 0	0·4	54·0	42·0	8 0
Dec.	30·4	29·5	0·3	51·0	37 0	6·0
Jan.	30 4	29·0	0 2	51 0	42·0	4 0
Feb.	30·2	29 4	0 3	51·0	38 0	5·0
Mar.	30 6½	29 3	0·4½	35.0	39 0	6·0

The writer of the table calls the reader's attention to the fact that the "barometer, according to these monthly calculations, never rose during the year above 30 inches 6½ tenths, and never subsided lower than 29 degrees; while the utmost ascent of the thermometer was 68 degrees, and its greatest descent 37 degrees, so that it only traversed, in the several changes from spring to spring, about 32 degrees in all." The severest cold of the year seems to have been in December, and yet the lowest point of that month was only 37 degrees, or 5 above freezing. November and January were 42 degrees, about the same as April. "The greatest variation in the temperature during any twenty-four hours of the whole year was but 8 degrees.

The next year to which we shall refer, and the results of which may be compared with the preceding, is the twelvemonth beginning April, 1818, which we again select from an accidental, and of course impartial, cause, it being the *first* year in which suitable observations were made in the new series of the Scots Magazine. The meteorological tables given in this work, and from which we extract the following calculations, were drawn up from a register kept near Perth, in latitude 56 degrees 25 minutes, and at the elevation of 185 feet above the level of the German Ocean. We arrange the table precisely in the form of the preceding one, to render the comparison easy and plain. The observations were made several times a-day.

	Barometer (inches and 10ths).			Thermometer (degrees).		
	Highest.	Lowest.	Variation.	Highest.	Lowest.	Variation.
April	30 5	28 9	0·5	58 0	26 0	26 0
May	30 3½	29 3	0 2½	71 0	38 0	23·0
June	30·4	29 2	0·5	79 0	45 0	25 0
July	30·2½	29·6	0·4	80 0	38·0	27·0
Aug.	30 2	29 3	0 4½	75·0	43·0	22·0
Sept.	30 1	29·1	0·5	68 0	36.0	20.0
Oct.	30·2	28·9½	0 6½	62·0	36·0	17·0
Nov.	30 0½	29·0	0 6½	56·0	33 0	16·0
Dec.	30·5	29·1	0 5½	50 0	24 0	20·0
Jan.	30 3½	28·7	1·1	52·0	21·0	17·0
Feb.	29·9	28·7½	0·7½	49·0	21·0	16.0
Mar.	30·1½	28·9	1·1½	55 0	26 0	18·0

The years to which these two tables (both made up from observations in the open air) refer, have been selected accidentally, it is to be remembered. The points given in each table are precisely the same, namely, the highest and lowest points of the two instruments, with greatest variations in any twenty-four hours, in the course of every month. And what result do we find from comparing the two tables? One widely inconsistent, most certainly, with the notion that summers were warmer and winters colder many years back than they have been of late. As for the barometer, the mercury rose, during 1818, only to the same point or nearly so as in 1751 (the first being 30 5, and the other 30 6½ tenths); but during 1818, the barometer fell considerably lower than in 1751, 29 being the lowest point during the latter year, while in five months of the former twelvemonths, it fell below 29, and in January reached 28·7. What is of chief consequence, however, is the greater extent and rapidity of the variations in the barometer during 1818. The greatest variation in any twenty-four hours in 1751 was 6-tenths of an inch; in two months of 1818, the range extended to a degree and 1-tenth Taking these single monthly variations as an indication of the general barometrical variations in both years, we arrive at the conclusion that the weather must have been less equable, or, in other words, must have shifted more rapidly from one *extreme* to another, in 1818, than in 1751.

The thermometrical tables present a much more remarkable contrast. While in 1751 the thermometer never rose above 63, and never fell below 37, we find it as high as 80 and as low as 21 in 1818. In three other months of the latter year, we find it as high as 71, 75, and 79, and in *seven* other months we have it so low as 36, 36, 33, 26, 26, 24, and 21 (a second time). All these months, therefore, exhibited extremes of temperature that, on the whole, render the year 1818 a striking contrast, both as regards heat and cold, to the year 1751. The winter and summer of the latter are remarkably mild in comparison. As respects the *variations* of temperature in any twenty-four hours of each month, the tables display a difference which proves the same point still more forcibly. While 8 degrees was the greatest change in twenty-four hours of 1751, the

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least change in any month of 1818 was 16 degrees, and more often it ranged between 20 and 27, which last was the greatest variation.

Though taken at random, we are inclined to think from recollection, that 1818 was considered a year somewhat warmer than common during the summer months. We therefore take the preceding year, 1817, the observations for which were made at the same spot, on the banks of the Tay. The barometrical fractions in the following table are in a different form, and the variations are not given, but these points are not very important here.

	Barometer (inches).		Thermometer (degrees).	
	Highest.	Lowest.	Highest.	Lowest.
January	30·360	28·340	56·0	25·0
February	30·450	28·900	54·0	29·0
March	30·250	28·465	52·0	22 0
April	30·580	29·560	63·0	27.0
May	30·180	29·070	57·0	33·0
June	30·160	29·110	76 0	41.0
July	29·950	29·185	66 0	44·0
August	29·990	28·905	65·0	42·0
September	30·090	28·490	69·0	35·0
October	30·350	28·555	51·0	29·0
November	30 250	28 890	56·0	30 0
December	29.956	28·293	48·0	15·0

It will be apparent to every one that this table confirms the deductions made from the preceding ones. The winter cold of 1817 presents a great contrast, as far as these tables go, to that of 1751–2, and the thermometer rose higher, too, in the summer months. We cannot tell what were the greatest variations in any twenty-four hours of the months of 1817, but we may conclude from the differences between the highest and lowest points of the same months that the daily variations much exceeded those of 1751–2.

This comparison would lead one to think that the equability of the weather in 1751 must have been, on the whole, somewhat uncommon. The way to discover the truth of the matter is, of course, to turn to other years. In the Scots Magazine for 1755, we find tables of the weather copied from the Gentleman's Magazine, and which must have been made up in England, probably at London. In January, February, November, and December, of 1755, the highest and lowest points of temperature are stated, respectively, at 50 and 27, 44 and 31, 55 and 28, and 50 and 34. For May, June, July, and August, of the same year, we find the highest points of the thermometer to be, respectively, 65, 77, 70, and 66.

The highest and lowest points of the thermometer in the two first and two last months of 1785, as observed at Edinburgh, were respectively 48 and 27, 39 and 21, 50 and 29, 45 and 23. The highest and lowest points of the thermometer during the three summer months of the same year were respectively 89 and 43, 83 and 46, 67 and 40. The highest and lowest points in January, February, November, and December, of 1788, were respectively 50 and 25, 47 and 20, 55 and 29, 44 and 18. The highest and lowest points during the three summer months of the same year, were respectively 78 and 43, 72 and 45, 76 and 43. In the year 1787, we find the greatest heat of any day in July to have been 77.

We thus see, by irrefragable evidence, that in these years, selected at random from the last century, there was the same mixed hot and cold weather as we now experience—the summers abounding in cold disagreeable days, and the winter's cold interrupted by occasional mild weather. The conclusion to which every candid mind will arrive is, that it is in a great measure an erroneous conception, that the winters were so much colder and the summers so much warmer, in past years than they are now. The reason, it seems to us, why the belief alluded to is entertained by people of advanced years, is simply, that the very hot years and very cold years, which they have seen in the course of their lives, have left a strong impression on their minds, while all the others have been forgotten. Thus, on calling up their weather recollections, they find only a number of these remarkable years engraven on their memories, and as the intervals are blank, they not unnaturally fill up the picture with tints of the same kind as those remembered.

THE SILK-WOOL OF THE ALPACA.

At one of the meetings of the British Association at Birmingham, "Some remarks were made on the introduction of a species of Auchenia into Britain, for the purpose of obtaining wool, by Mr. W. Danson. Samples and manufactured specimens of Alpaca wool, in imitation of silk (and without dye), as black as jet, were exhibited; and Mr. Danson stated, that the animals producing it ought to be propagated in England, Ireland, Scotland, and Wales; and to the two latter places the Alpaca is well suited, being an inhabitant of the Cordilleras, or mountainous district in Peru. Importations have already taken place to the extent of one million of pounds, and are likely to increase. There are five species of Llamas, of which the Alpaca has fine wool, six to twelve inches long, as shown by the specimens exhibited, the Llamas, the hair of which is very coarse, and the 'Vicuna,' which has a very short fine wool, more of the beaver cast. The Earl of Derby has propagated the Alpaca in his private menagerie at Knowsley, and Mr. Danson, understood that Mr. Stephenson, at Oban, in Scotland, has a few of these animals. The wool of these animals would not enter into competition with the wool of the sheep, but rather with silk. It is capable of the finest manufacture, and is specially suited to the fine shawl trade of Paisly, Glasgow, &c. The yarns spun from it are already sent to France in large quantities, at from 6s. to 12s. 6d. per pound, the price of the raw Alpaca wool being now 2s. and 2s. 6d. per pound. Mr. Vigors stated, that one of the objects of the Zoological Society of London was to introduce animals which might be made available for draught, food, or clothing. Amongst others, this animal had been kept in the Society's gardens. They bred and looked well, but were subject to disease, which was the case with most foreign animals at first. Animals were generally found adapted to the districts in which they lived, as the camel, &c., but animals which afforded food and clothing are usually capable of universal dispersion, as the horse, sheep, &c. He believed that in the course of time the Llamas referred to would be acclimated amongst us. These animals also brought forth their young at an unseasonable period, Christmas; but in general animals changed their season of bringing forth, in order to adapt it to the climate they lived in."—*Athenæum.* [We should like to hear of some further investigations into the subject; it is one of public importance.]

PICTURE OF A GERMAN STUDENT.

The German gentleman is well known to be upon the whole a dull and phlegmatic being. His character, has, however, one short period of fermentation, during which it takes sufficiently fantastic forms. This is the university-attending period. The singular peculiarities which then shine forth in him have attracted much attention among other nations, and many sketches of the *burschen*, as the students are called, have been presented in our own literature. We remember none that have given us more amusement than the following, which occurs in a clever novel recently published under the title of "Morton of Morton's Hope: an Autobiography;"—

"The next morning I lounged up the Weender Strasse The day was fine, and the streets were thronged with more than the usual number of Students and Philistines. As I got near the end of the street, I saw one or two small boys, and half-a-dozen house-maids, looking with wonder at a strange figure, preceded by a strange dog, that was passing along the side-walk. On looking at him at first, at a short distance, I took him for a maniac escaped from a lunatic asylum. He wore a cap, embroidered in crimson and gold, shaped like a shaving basin, and of the sort usually denominated beer-caps, a dressing-gown of many colours, strapped tightly about his loins with a leather girdle, in which were thrust two horse-pistols, and a long basket-hilted 'schlager,' or duelling-sword, and on his feet a pair of red Turkish slippers. His neck was open, and his legs bare from the ankle to the knees. In one hand he brandished an oaken cudgel, and in the other he held a small memorandum-book. He was preceded by a small dog of the comical breed called 'Deckel,' a kind of terrier, which considerably resembles the English turnspit. The individual one which now presented itself, was, like all its class, as ugly as a dog can well be. His body was very long, and his legs very short; his colour was a mixture of black and a dirty red: his tail curled itself as gracefully as a pig's, his knees were bowed outwards, so as to form a perfect parenthesis, and he turned out his toes like a country dancing-master. In order to heighten the effect of these personal charms, his master had tied a wreath of artificial flowers round his neck, and decorated his tail with fancy-coloured ribbons. Attired in this guise, the dog and his master proceeded gravely down the street, apparently without heeding the laughter of the admiring spectators. There seemed to be no students in the immediate vicinity, and the Philistines were beneath his notice. As I approached him, I observed something familiar in his countenance, and, immediately afterwards, the singular individual caught me by the hand, and kissed me affectionately on both cheeks. It was Rabenmark, my Leipzig acquaintance. He invited me to accompany him to his rooms, and smoke a pipe. I complied, and turned about with him, and we continued our walk down the street.

A few minutes' walk brought us to his lodgings. We ascended two flights of stairs, and entered his apartment. The sitting-room was tolerably large, and in its furniture and arrangements, a perfect specimen of a regular 'kneipe.' The floor was without carpet, and sanded; and the household furniture consisted of a table, a sofa, and half-a-dozen chairs of the most unpretending kind. The great expense had been, however, evidently made in providing the pipes, pictures, and other student luxuries. A large and well-executed engraving of a celebrated duel, which, from the notoriety of the combatants, and its tragical issue, had become historical, hung on the right side as you entered. On the left, the wall was covered with a large collection of 'silhouettes;' these are a peculiar and invariable characteristic of a German student's room. * * The third side of the room was decorated with a couple of 'schlagers,' or duelling-swords, which were fastened crosswise against the wall. * * On the fourth side of the room were ranged a collection of pipes, which were the pride of his heart. They were about twenty, ranged in a systematic row. The bowls were of porcelain, exquisitely painted; some with portraits of pretty women, some with copies from Ostade and Gerard Dow, and some with the arms of his intimate friends. The stem of each was about three feet in length, and of the fragrant polished cherry. The tassels were large and rich, and of every combination of Landsmanschaft colour. Besides these were half-a-dozen meerschaums of all the different kinds: there was the 'milk meerschaum' from Vienna, exquisitely carved, and delicate as sugar work; the 'oil-meerschaum' from Hanover, carefully polished, and scientifically embrowned towards the bottom by its own smoke; besides the 'wax meerschaum,' the 'raw meerschaum,' and various others. Besides these articles, there were some half-dozen engravings in frames, a fowling-piece, a sabre, and two or three different species of caps hanging in different parts of the room. 'There,' said Rabenmark, entering the room, unbuckling his belt, and throwing the pistols and schlager on the floor; 'I can leave my buffoonery for a while and be reasonable; it's rather tiresome work, this renommising.' 'Have the kindness to tell me,' said I, 'what particular reason you have for arraying yourself and your dog in such particularly elegant costumes, and for making such an exquisite exhibition of yourself during your promenade?' 'No particular reason,' he answered: 'but it is about the most simple way of arranging matters on the whole. I am a fox. When I came to the university three months ago, I had not a single acquaintance. I wished to introduce myself into the best Landsmanschaft, but I saw little chance of succeeding. I have already, however, become an influential member. What course do you suppose I adopted to gain my admission?' 'I suppose you made friends of the president or senior, as you call him, and the other magnates of the club,' said I. 'No. I insulted them all publicly, and in the grossest manner. Look here,' he continued, taking down one of the schlagers from the wall, and showing me the list of the duels he had already perpetrated, written, according to an universal custom, on the white leather lining of the hilt. The number of entries were already about fourteen. 'See,' said he, 'these first half-dozen are the senior, con-senior, and some other members of the Pommerania; they were my first six duels.' 'I suppose you got well peppered by such old stagers,' said I; but I hardly see how that was to expedite your admission.' 'Oh, that was a very simple matter,' replied Rabenmark; 'for in the first place you are wrong in your flattering supposition. Instead of being peppered I was very successful; and after I had cut off the senior's nose, sliced off the con-senior's upper lip, moustachios and all, besides bestowing less severe marks of affection on the others, the whole club, in admiration of my prowess, and desirous to secure the services of so valorous a combatant, voted me in by acclamation.' 'Do you find any particular satisfaction,' said I, 'in your club, and the university life!' 'Oh, it is boy's play,' said he; 'but then I am a boy, in years at least. I have a certain quantity of time on my hands. I wish to take the university as a school for action. I intend to lead my companions here as I intend to lead them in after-life. You see I am a very rational sort of person now, and you would hardly take me for the same crazy mountebank you met in the street half an hour ago. But, then, I see this is the way to obtain superiority. I determined at once, on arriving at the university, that, to obtain the mastery over my competitors, who were all extravagant, savage, eccentric, was to be ten times as extravagant and savage as any one else. You do not suppose I derived any particular satisfaction from tying up Fritz's tail with ribbons; but then it is as good a way of bullying as any other; and, besides, these student duels are capital exercise.' 'Suppose, however, that Mr. Weissbier had happened to have been a less tractable person than he proved to be?' 'Why, I should have been obliged to shoot him.' 'You forget the less agreeable alternative. He might have done you the same favour.' 'Oh, no—impossible. I shall not die till I am nineteen years and nine months old. If I pass that period, I shall live some twelve or thirteen years longer; I forget the exact number; but I have it written down in my common-place book some where.' This I found afterwards to be a settled conviction. Nothing could induce Rabenmark to admit the possibility of his death till that age. It was a prediction in his family by some gipsy, I suppose, for he was, as I have said, a Bohemian. His age was, at the time of which I am writing, exactly eighteen and a half. 'Perhaps,' said he, politely, 'you would like to see a duel or two, they are very pretty gladiatorial exhibitions. There are always plenty going on every day, and they are quite as amusing as the *combats des animaux* at Paris.' 'I should have no objection,' said I, 'as it seems customary to admit spectators.' Here Rabenmark threw open the window, and called to a passing acquaintance. 'Katt! do you go "los" to-morrow afternoon?' (To go los, or loose literally, is the cant expression for fighting.) 'Yes; with Poppendorf,' was the answer. "Very well. Oh! by the way, have the kindness to step to a certain Pott of the Bremen club, and to Kopp and Fizzleberg of the Brunswick, and challenge them each for me, on twenty-four gangs, small caps.' 'Very well. I shall see you at Kneipe to-night?' 'Yes. Adieu.' 'Adieu.' 'There, Mr. Morton,' continued Rabenmark, 'you see in five minutes a student's whole life. A young man usually spends three years at the university. As most of the German universities are in coalition, whatever time he spends at one, is counted for him at the next, and he consequently usually passes a whole year at one, the next term at another, and so on. The first two years of the three, a student generally employs in fighting duels, and getting drunk. After he has fought his fifty or a hundred duels, and drunk as much beer as he is capable of, he usually, at the end of his second year, leaves his club, and spends his third and last year in diligent study. His examination—and a very strict one it is—succeeds; and if he can pass it, he receives his doctor's degree, whether of theology, philosophy, law, or medicine, and retires into private life.' 'But I suppose he remains a long time a troublesome and ferocious individual?' 'On the contrary. Nobody ever hears of him. It is a singular anomaly—the whole German student existence. The German students are no more Germans than they are Sandwich Islanders. They have, in fact, less similarity with Germans than with any other nation. You see in them a distinct and strongly characterised nation moving in a definite though irregular orbit of its own, and totally independent of the laws which regulate the rest of the social system of Germany. It presents the singular phenomenon of a rude though regularly organised republic, existing in the heart of a despotism. In fact, every one of the main points of the German character is

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directly the opposite of those of the German student. The German is phlegmatic—the student fiery. The German is orderly and obedient to the authorities—the student ferocious and intractable. The German is peaceable—the student for ever brawling and fighting. The German is eminently conservative in his politics—the student always a revolutionist. The government of all the German States is despotic—the student's whole existence is republican. The German is particularly deferent to rank and title. In the student's republic, and there alone, the omnipotent "Von" sinks before the dexterous schlager, or the capacious "beer bummel." Lastly, the German is habitually sober, and the student invariably drunk.'"

BIOGRAPHIC SKETCHES.

ISAAC WATTS.

Isaac Watts was born at Southampton, in Hants, on the 17th of July, 1674. His father kept a boarding-school in that town, and was a man of sense and education, besides being distinguished for the zeal and sincerity of his religious opinions. On the latter account, he is said to have suffered much inconvenience during the prosecutions inflicted in the reign of Charles II. on the Protestant dissenters, to which class he belonged. It is not to be wondered at, under these circumstances, that young Watts should have been early imbued with a deep sense of religion. At the same time, he was noted, from his very childhood, for the sprightliness and vivacity of his wit, as well as for his ardour and success in the acquirement of the ordinary learning of the schools. Under the care of his father, and of the Rev. John Pinhorne, master of the free academy of Southampton, he made such proficiency in the Latin, Greek, and Hebrew tongues, that a subscription for his support at the university was proposed by those friends who witnessed this part of his career; but this aid was declined by the youth, as his acceptance of it might have been construed into a desertion of the dissenting body, to which he had already resolved firmly to adhere. In accordance with this determination, he was sent to London in 1690, to study the higher branches of knowledge at the academy of Mr. Rowe, a dissenting clergyman of eminence. His progress here amply sustained the high promise of his preceding years.

In 1694, Isaac Watts returned to Southampton, and spent the ensuing four years partly in the house of his father, and partly at Stoke Newington, in the capacity of tutor to the family of Sir John Hartopp. On his twenty-fourth birth-day he preached his first sermon, having previously prepared himself, by the most earnest study, for the assumption of the pastoral office, which he viewed as the great end and business of his life. He was soon afterwards chosen assistant to Dr. Chauncy, and became that gentleman's successor in the year 1702. He had but a short time entered on his charge, however, when he was attacked by a severe and dangerous illness, which withdrew him for a long time from his public labours, and rendered the appointment of a helper necessary. After his recovery, Mr. Watts continued to perform his duties without further intermission till the year 1712, winning the esteem of all around him by his learning, abilities, and piety.

Before the period mentioned, he had also earned the applause of the world in the character of a Sacred Poet. From the age of fifteen, according to his own statement, he had been addicted to versifying, and the natural bias of his mind gave a devotional cast to all the exertions of his muse. Between 1706 and 1712, he appears to have published his "Lyrical Hours, or Poems chiefly of the Lyric kind;" a second collection entitled "Hymns and Spiritual Songs;" and an "Essay towards the Improvement of Psalmody." His principal subsequent efforts in poetry were his "Divine Songs and Hymns for Children;" the "Psalms of David, imitated in the language of the New Testament;" and a "Collection of Juvenile and Miscellaneous Pieces in Verse." The first of these works appeared in 1715, the second in 1718, and the last in 1734. A few poetical pieces were also found among his manuscripts, and published after his decease.

In his preface to one of the earliest of these works, the author enters into an animated defence of sacred poesy, and points out the extraordinary beauty of those portions of the Scriptural writings which bear this character. He closes his prefatory remarks with this modest avowal: "Let minds that are better furnished for such performances pursue these studies, if they are convinced that poesy can be made serviceable to religion and virtue. As for myself, I almost blush to think that I have read so little and written so much. I cannot court the world to purchase this book for their pleasure or entertainments, by telling them that any one piece entirely pleases myself. The best of them sinks below the idea which I form of a divine or moral ode. He that deals in the mysteries of heaven, or of the muses, should be a genius of no vulgar mould." The world, fortunately for the fame of Isaac Watts, saw more beauty in his productions than had been apparent to his own severely critical eye. We shall give to those not well acquainted with his writings an opportunity, to a certain extent at least, of reviewing this judgment, though at the risk of quoting what many are already familiar with. The following piece, after some consideration, has been fixed upon as calculated to afford a fair idea of the style of the poems in the "Lyrical Hours." We give it nearly entire:—

HAPPY FRAILTY.

"How meanly dwells the immortal mind!
How vile these bodies are!
Why was a clod of earth designed
To enclose a heavenly star!

Weak cottage where our souls reside!
This flesh a tottering wall—
With frightful breaches gaping wide,
The building bends to fall!

All round it storms of trouble blow,
And waves of sorrow roll;
Cold winds and winter storms beat through,
And pain the tenant-soul.

Alas, how frail our state!" said I,
And thus went mourning on,
Till sudden from the cleaving-sky
A gleam of glory shone.

My soul felt all the glory come,
And breathed her native air;
Then she remembered heaven her home,
And she a prisoner here.

Straight she began to change her key,
And joyful in her pains,
She sang the frailty of her clay
In pleasurable strains.

"How weak the prison where I dwell!
Flesh but a tottering wall—
The breaches cheerfully foretell
The house must shortly fall.

No more, my friends, shall I complain,
Though all my heart-strings ache;
Welcome disease, and every pain;
That makes the cottage shake!

Now let the tempest blow all round,
Now swell the surges high,
And beat this house of bondage down,
And let the stranger fly.

I have a mansion built above
By the Eternal Hand,
And should the earth's old basis move,
My Heavenly House must stand."

Another piece, much better known than the preceding, and certainly of higher merit, is that entitled the Day of Judgment—remarkable also as being one of the few compositions in which the peculiar structure of Latin verse has been successfully imitated in English.

When the fierce north-wind, with his airy forces,
Rears up the Baltic to a foaming fury,
And the red lightning with a storm of hail comes
Rushing amain down.

How the poor sailors stand amazed and tremble!
While the hoarse thunder, like a *bloody trumpet*,
Roars a loud onset to the gaping waters
Quick to devour them.

Such shall the noise be, and the wild disorder,
(If things eternal may be like these earthly)
Such the dire terror when the great Archangel
Shakes the creation;

Tears the strong pillars of the vault of heaven,
Breaks up *old marble, the repose of princes*;
Sets the grave open, and the bones arising,
Flames all around them.

Hark the shrill outcries of the guilty wretches!
Lively bright horror, and amazing anguish,
Stare through their eyelids, while the living worm lies
Gnawing within them

Thoughts, like *old vultures*, prey upon their heartstrings—&c.

We have been unable to refrain here from marking in italics some particular expressions, which, for force and intensity, have scarcely any parallels in poetry. The remainder of the poem is equally impressive, but we prefer to leave space for some pictures of a milder kind from the pages of Watts. It is a curious proof (and many similar ones might be adduced) of the incalculable value of simplicity in literary composition, that those pieces which our author professedly "attempted in easy language for the use of *children*," are in reality the most admired of all his poetical efforts, with readers of every age and every degree of intellectual advancement. Unfortunately, he wrote but few poems of this kind, intending those which he did produce as merely "a slight specimen of moral songs, such as he wished some happy and condescending genius would undertake for the use of children, and perform them much better." It might have been difficult, however, to fulfil the latter point of this request, for few poets have ever produced any thing so perfect in its way as

THE ROSE.

How fair is the rose! what a beautiful flower.
The glory of April and May!
But the leaves are beginning to fade in an hour,
And they wither and die in a day.

Yet the rose has one powerful virtue to boast
Above all the flowers of the field;
When its leaves are all dead, and fine colours are lost,
Still how sweet a perfume will it yield!

So frail is the youth and the beauty of men;
They bloom and look gay like the rose,
But all our fond care to preserve them is vain;
Time kills them as fast as he goes.

Then I'll not be proud of my youth or my beauty,
Since both of them wither and fade,
But gain a good name by well doing my duty;
This will scent like a rose when I'm dead.

The following is equally fine, and contains a moral which young and old may alike profit by.

THE ANT OR EMMET.

Those Emmets—how little they are in our eyes!
We tread them to dust, and a troop of them dies
Without our regard or concern:
Yet, as wise as we are, if we went to their school,
There's many a sluggard, and many a fool,
Some lessons of wisdom might learn.

They don't wear out their time in sleeping or play,
But gather up corn on a sun-shiny day,
And for winter they lay up their stores:
They manage their work in such regular forms,
One would think they foresaw all the frosts and the storms,
And so brought their food within doors.

But I have less sense than a poor creeping ant,
If I take not due care for the things I shall want,
Nor provide against dangers in time;
When death or old age shall stare in my face,
What a wretch I shall be in the end of my days,
If I trifle away all their prime.

Now, now, while my strength and my youth are in bloom,
Let me think what will serve me when sickness shall come,
And pray that my sins be forgiven;
Let me read in good books, and believe, and obey,
That when death turns me out of this cottage of clay,
I may dwell in a palace in heaven.

It is from these and others of his minor pieces that we receive the most favourable idea of Watts as a poet. His larger odes and epistles are correctly and pleasingly written, and contain here and there fine thoughts and expressions, but they for the most part display too much of that quality of mediocrity which, according to the old critical canon, is tolerable in all things but verse.

In the year 1712, the ministerial labours of Mr. Watts were a second time interrupted by a severe and lasting illness, which did not permit him again to officiate in public for four years, and left effects upon his constitution that were visible to the close of his days. It was at this period that he was invited to reside in the house of Sir Thomas Abney, of which he continued an inmate for the succeeding thirty-six years of his life. In this family "he enjoyed (says his biographer Dr. Gibbons) the uninterrupted demonstrations of the truest friendship. Here, without any care of his own, he had every thing which could contribute to the enjoyment of life, and favour the unwearied pursuits of his studies. Here he had the privilege of a country recess, the fragrant bower, the spreading lawn, the flowery garden, and other advantages, to soothe his mind, and aid his restoration to health; to yield him, whenever he chose them, most grateful intervals from his labourious studies, and enable him to return to them with redoubled vigour and delight." The bulk of his prose works, both religious and philosophical, were composed during his residence with this truly friendly family; among these works, the Treatise entitled "Logic or the Right Use of Reason in the Inquiry after Truth," attained to particular and merited celebrity. Generally speaking, these productions are marked by great ability, good sense, and research. It might have been better, however, had he been able to throw off more completely the shackles of the schools, and given more liberal play to the workings of his own unbiassed intellect upon philosophical questions, as he declares his wish to do so, in the following lines upon "True Philosophy," as he titles it:—

Custom, that tyranness of fools,
That leads the learned round the schools,
In magic chains of forms and rules,
My genius storms her throne!
No more, ye slaves, with awe profound
Beat the dull track, nor dance the round;
Loose hands, and quit the enchanted ground;
Knowledge invites us each alone.

I hate these shackles of the mind,
Forged by the haughty wise:
Souls were not born to be confined,
And led, like Samson, blind and bound;
But, when his native strength he found,
He well avenged his eyes.

Thoughts should be free as fire or wind;
The pinions of a single mind,
Will through all nature fly:
But who can drag up to the poles
Long fettered ranks of leaden souls!

It was difficult for a philosophical inquirer in his day, however, to act up to these just and vigorous aspirings. The scholastic fetters were not yet rusted enough, or rather were still too firmly fastened on in youth, to be easily shaken off.

In 1728, the Universities of Edinburgh and Aberdeen did themselves honour by conferring on Watts, without his knowledge, the degree of Doctor in Divinity. On the 25th of November, 1748, he died in the dwelling of which he had been so long a venerated inmate, at the age of seventy-four, and leaving behind him a reputation, from the moral beauty of which no detraction has ever been made.

ACCIDENTAL DISCOVERY OF THE STEAM-ENGINE.

The discovery of the method of making a vacuum by the condensation of steam, was reproduced, before 1698, by Captain Thomas Savery. His discovery of the condensing principle arose from the following circumstance:—Having drunk a flask of wine at a tavern, and flung the empty flask in the fire, he called for a basin of water to wash his hands. A small quantity which remained in the flask began to boil, and steam issued from its mouth. It occurred to him to try what effect would be produced

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by inverting the flask and plunging its mouth in the cold water. Putting on a thick glove to defend his hand from the heat, he seized the flask, and the moment he plunged its mouth in the water, the liquid immediately rushed up into the flask and filled it. Savery stated that this circumstance immediately suggested to him the possibility of giving effect to the atmospheric pressure, by creating a vacuum in this manner. He thought that if, instead of exhausting the barrel of a pump by the usual laborious method of a piston and sucker, it was exhausted by first filling it with steam, and then condensing the same steam, the atmospheric pressure would force the water from the well into the pump-barrel, and into any vessel connected with it, provided that vessel were not more than about thirty-four feet above the elevation of the water in the well. He perceived also, that, having lifted the water to this height, he might use the elastic force of steam in the manner described by the Marquis of Worcester to raise the same water to a still greater elevation, and that the same steam which accomplished this mechanical effect would serve, by its subsequent condensation, to reproduce the vacuum, and draw up more water. It was on this principle that Savery constructed the first engine in which steam was ever brought into practical operation. —*Lardner's new work on the Steam Engine.*

THE SCOTCH COSTUMES OF LONDON ARTISTS.

It has long appeared to us a very curious thing, that English landscape painters, both professional and non-professional, both those who stay at home and those who travel to see nature and art as they actually exist, should continue, in spite of all representations to the contrary, to depict the people of the Lowlands of Scotland as dressed either in tartans or kilts. It seems to be of no use to tell our English friends that garments of that fabric or fashion are practically unknown in this portion of Scotland, and in fact never had an existence within it. Tartans and kilts they insist upon giving us, reason or no reason, to the end of the chapter. A sort of stupid ignorance is at the bottom of these gentlemen's conceit for the kilts. If they had read the history of our common country, or made the slightest inquiry, they would have learned that the Lowlands, consisting of the entire south, and a large tract of the east, of Scotland, are Anglo-Saxon, and have no more to do with the Highlands than the county of Middlesex has with Wales. Within this Lowland or Anglo-Saxon territory, which comprehends the cities of Edinburgh and Glasgow, and, with one or two exceptions, all the large towns in the country, the English language has been spoken, and the English dress worn, from a period coeval with their use in England. Making, however, no inquiry on the point, and guided only by the consideration that Highland regiments, and the equally conspicuous representations of Scotsmen at the doors of tobacconists' shops, are dressed in kilts, our English artists determine that all Scotsmen are kilted, and kilted they must be in all pictures accordingly. Thus, views of Edinburgh, executed in London, show the men on the streets dressed in kilts, the women dressed in tartan gowns and tartan boots, and carrying tartan parasols, the children wearing tartan bonnets, and the girls on the Calton Hill dressed in tartan petticoats, and spreading out washings of tartan shirts. People may laugh, but all this is true. We lately saw a picture of the pretty south-country town of Dumfries, executed in London, and in which every figure in the market-place was in kilts or tartans, or had something else Highland about them. One figure was particularly amusing. Over a respectable pair of trousers and frock coat, the draughtsman had hung a shaggy tasselled purse or sporan, such as is usually worn by a Highland soldier in full dress. Beyond this, ignorance and absurdity could scarcely be expected to go.

The travelling artists who execute these draughts of Lowland scenery, as we are told, are not the persons properly chargeable with the offence to which we allude. It seems that in most instances they leave the figures in their drawings to be filled in by a different class of persons in London, whose knowledge of Scottish costume is gained entirely from the aforesaid Highland regiments, the figures which decorate the shops of tobacconists, or the actors and actresses in the theatres. Be this, however, as it may, the offence against good taste and truth is the same.

It may appear somewhat farcical that we should trouble ourselves to notice these petty errors of taste in English landscape painters. To speak quite honestly, we might have allowed the matter to pass as it has hitherto done, if it had not afforded the material of a little mirth. But it has also its serious side. It is, we apprehend, a fixed principle in pictorial delineation, that the painter shall truly, and with all the judgment he can command, represent nature as she really is, not as she is arbitrarily supposed to be. To be faithful to nature, each country ought to be represented only with its own proper costumes, not those of another. But it may be answered, the English generally do not comprehend the difference between the Highlands and Lowlands of Scotland. Exactly so: they are ignorant, and studiously remain in ignorance, of certain historical facts with which they should be made acquainted in youth. The history of Greece and Rome are made the subjects of regular study at schools in England, but the history of Scotland, an integral portion of the United Kingdom, is rarely seen either in or out of school. One of the results of this kind of ignorance we now point out. There is an universal confusion of ideas as to Highlands and Lowlands in the English mind. In almost every pictorial representation of Scotland we see this confusion strongly pourtrayed. We see it marked with equal strength in the acting drama. In the Italian Opera-House in London, in the piece called the Bride of Lammermoor (Lammermoor is a district of Scotland close to the English border) all the male characters, Mr. Bidethebent excepted, are dressed in tartans and kilts. Bucklaw, a south-country laird, is in kilts, and young Ashton is dressed with a red coat and kilt, like an officer in a Highland regiment, while Lucy Ashton is garnished with a Highland bonnet and a tartan scarf. As for the Rev. Mr. Bidethebent, who, being a clergyman, could hardly be put in a kilt with any show of decency, he is favoured so far as to figure in the black serge gown of a monk, and the long scoop-like hat of a Spanish priest. These things, we say, mark the little knowledge of the English on a very simple matter of national dress and manners. Perhaps the remarks we have made may attract the attention of professed critics in the fine arts, and be the means of curing an absurdity not very creditable to the taste of our southern neighbours.

WHAT CONSTITUTES A PATENT.

The following explanations of what peculiarities in an invention are necessary in order that the inventor may obtain a patent, are from a newly published work of accuracy and research, and calculated to be of great use to both professional and unprofessional persons, entitled "A Manual of the Law of Scotland, by John Hill Burton, Advocate."* It may be proper to state, that, in the original work, authorities are quoted for every fact stated.

"It is requisite of any invention for which a patent may be obtained, that it be complete of its kind, constituting when embodied a vendible article. It is held that the discovery of a mere principle cannot be protected—a practical result in the form of an article of commerce must be shown; and so if one make a discovery in mechanics or chemistry, from which he expects great practical results to be attainable, while in the mean time he is unable to produce any, he cannot obtain a patent. The *invention* must have been made by the claimant of the patent, and not suggested by another person. It must not have been used before, either by the petitioner or any other person. By 'using' appears to be meant the employment of some article for trade. There are few cases in which one can avoid, in the literal sense, 'using' an invention before it can be pronounced successful. So, in the case of the refracting glasses, Dolland, who obtained a patent, was entitled to retain it, though Dr. Hall had invented the same commodity, as the latter had not 'used it' by communicating the commodity to the public; the result would have been different had he used it as a vendible commodity, though he had concealed the method of construction. 'In a late instance,' says Mr. Carpmael, 'at a trial of a patent cause, several witnesses spoke of having seen the invention at the workshop of the plaintiff's workmen some months before the sealing of the patent: this was not considered such a publication as to injure the validity of the grant.' It follows, that if several persons are in common aware of the same invention, no one of them can obtain a patent; but that, if several persons simultaneously make the same invention without communicating it to each other, or using it, he who first applies is entitled to a patent, to the exclusion of the others. It has to be observed, too, that *use* in one part of the United Kingdom will not invalidate a patent for any other part, if obtained by the original inventor or importer from abroad.

The law on this subject is now to a certain extent modified by statute. If it be found by verdict of a jury that a patentee is not the first inventor of part or the whole of the subject of his patent, some other person having previously invented or used it, or if the patentee himself discover this to be the case, he may petition the queen in council to confirm his patent, or grant a new one. The petition and objections are heard before the judicial committee, who, if they are satisfied that the patentee believed himself to be the first inventor, and that the invention had not been publicly used before the date of his patent, may recommend that the petition be acceded to. When a patent comes under judicial discussion, and the decision is in favour of the patentee, the judge can give a certificate of the fact, the effect of which is, that if the validity be again questioned, the certificate may be produced; and if the decision be in favour of the patentee, he is to receive treble costs, unless the judge specially certify that he should not.

It is specially provided in the English statute of James I., and would probably be held law in Scotland, that a patent may be obtained by the first user of a foreign invention. The above principles apply to such a case, and so a patent for a foreign machine was protected, though a model of the machine had been previously sent to England, the model not having been used.

The invention must be useful and beneficial; it would appear at first sight that there is little danger of a patent being disputed, unless the invention proves its utility by its vendibility, but a patent being held for a useless invention, may be the means of preventing another person from applying that invention to some useful purpose. The invention must be completely new as to all material parts. It does not follow, however, that it must form a new article or commodity not previously known; it may be a new arrangement of things already known, or simply an addition to, or an improvement of, something already in use. 'An improvement on any known machine, whereby such machine is rendered capable of performing more beneficially,' is a fit subject for a patent; and so is any skilful arrangement of common materials, so as to make them productive of some beneficial effect not previously occasioned by them, as in the case of Mr. Hartley's method of arranging iron plates in buildings as a protection from fire. In such cases, however, the patent must be taken out only for the addition or improvement. It would appear that no person can obtain a patent for a mere improvement on a commodity for which another person is in possession of a patent—at least to the prejudice of the patentee; and it is held that where an improvement to a patent is made after the enrollment of the specification, it becomes the property of the patentee, provided that the improvement cannot be used of itself, but, to be useful, must be superadded to the patented invention.' Though the applicant must be the sole inventor, it is not necessary that he must have gone through the process connected with the first construction with his own hands. 'The rule of law respecting the assistance from servants may be thus stated. If the servant make a new discovery by himself, such invention becomes his property; but if the master plans, and the servant only executes, with alterations of his own, then the master is the true inventor of the machine.'

A patent may be taken out for a combination of previously known machines or commodities, if the invention of the new combinations be all that is claimed, or for an addition to any existing combination, if no more than the addition be taken credit for.

'The application of a known substance or material to a new purpose, when there requires art to adapt it, is the subject of a patent.' This is well illustrated by the case of the patent for percussion locks. The detonating powder used for the purpose was well known before, but the patentee having first applied it as a priming for fire-arms, and used a lock adapted to the purpose, the application of locks of a different construction was held an infringement. It is observed that the use of the lock by the patentee, in this case, was necessary to convert his discovery into a vendible commodity, and that he could not have supported a patent for the mere application of certain well-known explosive mixtures as priming for fire-arms, without going into a detailed account of how that was to be done.'

The title under which the patent is petitioned for is an object of great importance, as it is by the applicability of the title to the thing said to be invented that the lodger of a caveat knows whether the application will interfere with himself or not. It must convey an idea of what has been invented, but of nothing more. Thus, Lord Cochrane's patent for naptha-lamps was found void, because it was called 'a method or methods of more completely lighting cities, towns, and villages,' whereas, though it was only for such a perpose that his invention could apparently be used; from the noxious nature of the materials, the invention was after all but a lamp suitable for the purpose of burning naphtha, and should, it was said, be called so. Where Mr. Wheeler invented a method of colouring porter by a small quantity of deep coloured malt mixed with pale malt, instead of the old practice of preparing the whole malt of a certain depth of colour, and calling the invention 'a new and improved method of drying and preparing malt,' it was said that there was no new method of drying and preparing malt in the invention, but merely a new way of colouring porter, and that it should have been called 'a new method of preparing malt for the purpose of colouring beer or porter.'

The title must not contain more uses for the commodity than those which it is adapted to: so Felton's patent in 1827, for 'a machine for an expeditious and correct mode of giving a fine edge to knives, razors, scissors, and other cutting instruments,' was held bad, because the machine described would not sharpen scissors."

* Edinburgh, Oliver and Boyd. 12mo. pp. 715.

WELEES AND DERVISHES.

One of the most amusing chapters in Mr. Lane's work on the Manners of the Modern Egyptians, is that upon the Mahomeddan saints who are seen in Cairo and other parts of Egypt. These men, who are called *welees*, and who are under the direction of a superior termed the *kooth*, lay claim to a miraculous knowledge of things concealed from the senses of ordinary mortals, and for this, and their excessive devotional spirit, are held in extreme veneration by the people. "If a person (says Mr. Lane) were to express a doubt as to the existence of true welees, he would be branded with infidelity, and the following passages of the Koran would be adduced to condemn him: 'Are not the favourites of God those upon whom no fear shall come, and who shall not be grieved.' This is considered as sufficient to prove that there is a class of persons distinguished above ordinary human beings." And the welees take care to impress the belief that they are the persons meant.

Commissioned by the kooth, the welees perform the office of religious watchmen in certain districts of Cairo, and in the performance of which office they have opportunities of showing their supernatural acquirements. Mr. Lane tells the following story of a devout tradesman, who, being exceedingly desirous of being made a welee, applied to the kooth, and he was appointed accordingly. "His prayer was granted; the kooth said, 'Take charge of the district which consists of the Durbel hamar and its immediate neighbourhood;' and immediately the person thus addressed found himself a welee, and perceived that he was acquainted with things concealed from ordinary mortals. As soon as he had entered upon his office, he walked through his district, and seeing a man at a shop, with a jar full of boiled beans before him, from which he was about to serve his customers as usual, took up a large piece of stone, and, with it, broke the jar. The bean-seller immediately jumped up, seized hold of a palm-stick that lay by his side, and gave the welee a severe beating; but the holy man complained not, nor did he utter a cry; as soon as he was allowed, he walked away. When he was gone, the bean-seller began to try if he could gather up some of the scattered contents of the jar. A portion of the jar remained in its place; and on looking into this, he saw a venemous serpent in it, coiled round, and dead. In horror at what he had done, he exclaimed, 'There is no strength nor power but in God! I implore forgiveness of God, the Great! What have I done! This man is a welee, and has prevented my selling what would have poisoned my customers.' He looked at every passenger all that day, in the hope of seeing again the saint whom he had thus injured, that he might implore his forgiveness; but he saw him not, for he was too much bruised to be able to walk. On the following day, however, with his limbs still swollen from the blows he had received, the welee limped through his district, and broke a great jar of milk at a shop not far

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from that of the bean-seller, and its owner treated him as the bean-seller had done the day before; but while he was beating him, some persons ran up, and stopped his hand, informing him that the person whom he was thus punishing was a welee, and relating to him the affair of the serpent that was found in the jar of beans. 'Go and look,' said they, 'in your jar of milk, and you will find at the bottom of it something either poisonous or unclean.' He looked, and found in the remains of the jar a dead dog. On the third day, the welee, with the help of a staff, hobbled painfully up the Durb-el-Ahmar, and saw a servant carrying upon his head a supper-tray covered with dishes of meat, vegetables, and fruit, for a party who were going to take a repast in the country. He put his staff between the servant's legs, and overthrew him, and the contents of the dishes were scattered in the street. With a mouthful of curses, the servant immediately began to give the saint as severe a thrashing as he himself expected to receive from his disappointed master for this accident; but several persons soon collected around him, and one of these bystanders observed a dog eat part of the contents of one of the dishes, and a moment after fall down dead; he instantly seized the hand of the servant, and informed him of this circumstance, which proved that the man whom he had been beating was a welee. Every apology was made to the injured saint, with many prayers for his forgiveness; but he was so disgusted with his new office, that he implored God and the kootb to release him from it, and, in answer to his solicitations, his supernatural powers were withdrawn, and he returned to his shop more contented than before. This story is received as true by the people of Cairo, and therefore I have inserted it; for in treating of superstitions, we have more to do with opinions than with facts. I am not sure, indeed, that it is altogether false: the supposed saint might have employed persons to introduce the dead serpent and dog into the vessels which he broke. I am told that many a person has obtained the reputation of being a welee by artifices of the kind just mentioned."

Mr. Lane afterwards mentions that there are many instances of welees afflicting themselves by austerities similar to those practised by the fanatical devotees in India. "At present (he continues) there is living in Cairo, a welee who has placed an iron collar round his neck, and chained himself to a wall of his chamber, and it is said that he has been in this state more than thirty years: but some persons assert that he has often been seen to cover himself over with a blanket, as if to sleep, and that the blanket has been removed immediately after, and nobody found beneath it! Stories of this kind are related and believed by persons who in many respects are endowed with good sense; and to laugh, or express discredit, on hearing them, would give great offence. I was lately told, that a certain welee being beheaded, for a crime of which he was not guilty, his head spoke after it was cut off; and, of another decapitated under similar circumstances, that his blood traced upon the ground, in Arabic characters, the following declaration of his innocence: 'I am a welee of God, and have died a martyr.'"

Dervishes, or Durweeshes, are a different class of holy men among the Mahommedans; they seldom aspire to the character of welees. Dervishes are of various orders, and seem to be united in fraternities, very much like freemasons in this country. Some are agriculturists or tradesmen, who only assist at particular rites and ceremonies; others are entirely devoted to religious exercises; and a few lead a wandering life, and subsist on alms, which they often demand with great effrontery. The religious exercises of dervishes consist, for the most part, of the repetition of certain pious exclamations in a chanting tone for hours together, or of dancing in a circle in a truly maniacal manner to tunes played upon a flute and drum. One order of dervishes follow the occupation of charming away serpents from houses, and another order pursues a new profession, namely, that of bringing a blessing into dwellings by introducing calves, which are trained to perform certain tricks, and are called after particular saints deceased. "A venerated saint (says Mr. Lane) called El Azab, who lived at Tefahineh, a village in Lower Egypt, had a calf which always attended him, brought him water, &c. Since his death, some Rifaee dervishes have been in the habit of rearing a number of calves at his native place, or burial place, above named; teaching them to walk up stairs, to lie down at command, &c., and then going about the country, each with his calf, to obtain alms. The calf is called 'Egl El-Azab,' the calf of El-Azab. I once called into my house one of these dervishes with his calf, the only one I have seen. It was a buffalo calf, and had two bells suspended to it, one attached to a collar round its neck, and the other to a girth round its body. It walked up the stairs very well, but showed that it had not been very well trained in every respect. The Egl El-Azab is vulgarly believed to bring into the house a blessing from the saint after whom it is called."

THE DAGUERREOTYPE.

In consequence of an agreement with the French government, by the terms of which M. Daguerre and his partner M. Niepce receive a divided annuity of ten thousand francs (L.416, 13s. 4d.), the true and perfect method of Photogenic Drawing, upon the principles of the Daguerréotype, has now been made public by the inventor. The pamphlet in which the stipulated disclosures appear, has been excellently translated by Dr. J. S. Memes, and of his version we avail ourselves in laying before our readers a summary of the facts now brought to light on this interesting subject.

M. Arago, in reporting on the matter to the Chamber of Deputies, traced the history of the invention in a clear and eloquent way. After describing the discovery and gradual perfecting of the *camera*, he says, in allusion to that instrument, "No person has ever witnessed the neatness of outline, precision of form, the truth of colouring, and the sweet gradations of tint, without regretting that an imagery so exquisite and so faithful to nature could not be made to fix itself permanently on the tablet of the machine—who has not put up his aspiration that some means might be discovered by which to give reality to shadows so exquisitely lovely? Yet, in the estimation of all, such a wish seemed destined to take its place among other dreams of beautiful things—among the glorious but impractical conceptions in which men of science and ardent temperament have sometimes indulged. This dream, notwithstanding, has just been realised." M. Arago then adverts to the property possessed by nitrate or chloride of silver, of becoming black by the action of light. This property was early known to chemists, but no one seems to have thought of turning it practically to account in the production or reproduction of drawings, till Mr. Wedgewood, in 1802, proposed a mode of copying window-paintings by means of paper washed with chloride of silver. Subsequently, many persons were in the habit, for mere amusement, of making experiments on the same principle. Betwixt the sun and prepared paper they placed an engraving, which was quickly reproduced on the paper beneath, but with the lights and shadows *reversed*. This arose from the dark parts of the engraving intercepting the light, while it passed more or less freely through the other portions. But the fruits of these experiments were totally valueless, as they could not even be looked at for a few minutes without becoming one entire black blank, through the continued action of the light. M. Niepce, a country gentleman living near Chalons, on the Saone, engaged, so early as 1814, in a train of experiments for the *fixation* of the photogenic images, both as they were obtained through the camera and by other means. He had made some remarkable discoveries on the subject previously to 1826, when he accidentally learnt that M. Daguerre, a Parisian artist of high reputation, was deeply occupied with similar studies. This led to a partnership between these gentlemen, for the further prosecution of the subject to their mutual advantage; and at the death of M. Niepce in 1833, the connection was kept up by his son. The complete and admirable process ultimately discovered, was in a great measure, however, the result of the single and unaided labours of M. Daguerre. What the process is, we have now to display from the inventor's own description of the Daguerréotype and its operations—or, in other words, of the apparatus for photogenic painting, and its mode of use.

"The designs (says M. Daguerre) are executed upon thin plates of silver, plated on copper. Although the copper serves principally to support the silver foil, the combination of the two metals tends to the perfection of the effect. The silver must be the purest that can be procured. As to the copper, its thickness ought to be sufficient to maintain the perfect smoothness and flatness of the plate, so that the images may not be distorted by the warping of the tablet; but unnecessary thickness beyond this is to be avoided on account of the weight. The thickness of the two metals united ought not to exceed that of a stout card.

The process is divided into five operations."

The First Operation is that of *preparing the plate*, which is commonly from six to eight inches long, by four or six in breadth. In the original pamphlet, as well as the translation by Dr. Memes, engravings are given of the various articles and instruments required in the different processes. The materials for the first operation are, olive oil, fine cotton, finely ground and dried pumice-stone, a phial of nitric acid diluted with sixteen parts of distilled water, and a wire frame for placing the plate upon, while heat is applied to it by a spirit lamp. With these articles the plate is thus prepared. "The size of the plate will depend of course on the dimensions of the camera. We must begin by polishing it carefully. To accomplish this, the surface of the silver is powdered all over with the pumice, by shaking the bag without touching the plate.

Next, with some cotton dipped in a little olive oil, the operator rubs the plate gently, rounding his strokes. During this operation, the plate must be laid flat upon several folds of paper, care being taken to renew these from time to time, that the tablet be not twisted from any inequality in the support. The pumice must be renewed and the cotton changed several times. It will be readily apprehended of what importance it is to attend to these directions, since upon the high polish of the silver depends in a great measure the beauty of the future design. When the plate is well polished, it must next be cleaned by powdering it all over once more with pumice, and rubbing with dry cotton, always rounding and crossing the strokes, for it is impossible to obtain a true surface by any other motion of the hand. A little pledget of cotton is now rolled up and moistened with the diluted acid already mentioned, by applying the cotton to the mouth of the phial and inverting it, pressing gently, so that the centre only of the cotton may be wetted and but slightly, care being taken not to allow any acid to touch the fingers. The surface of the plate is now rubbed *equally* all over with the acid applied by the pledget of cotton. Change the cotton repeatedly, and keep rubbing, rounding as before, that the acid may be equally spread, yet in so small a quantity as just to skim the surface, so to speak. It will be seen when the acid has been properly diffused, from the appearance of a thin veil spread regularly over the whole surface of the plate. Once more powder over pumice, and clean it with fresh cotton, rubbing as before, but very slightly.

The plate is now to be subjected to a strong heat. It is placed upon the wire frame, the silver upwards. The spirit-lamp is applied below the hand, moving it round, the flame touching and playing upon the copper. This operation being continued at least five minutes, a white strong coating is formed all over the surface of the silver, if the lamp has been made to traverse with proper regularity; the lamp is now withdrawn. A fire of charcoal may be used instead of the lamp, and is perhaps preferable, the operation being sooner completed. In this latter case the wire frame is unnecessary, because the plate may be held by one corner with pincers, and so held over the fire, moving it at the same time till all is equally heated, and the veil appear as before described. The plate is now to be cooled *suddenly*, by placing it on a cold substance, such as a mass of metal or stone, or, best of all, a marble table. When perfectly cold, it is to be again polished; an operation speedily performed, since the gummy appearance merely has to be removed, which is done by the dry pumice and cotton repeated several times, changing the cotton frequently. The polishing being thus completed, the operation of the acid is to be repeated three different times, dry pumice being powdered over the plate each time, and polished off very gently with the cotton, which must be very clean, care being taken not to breathe upon the plate, or to touch it with the fingers, or even with the cotton upon which the fingers have rested, for the slightest stain upon the surface will be a defect in the drawing. Lastly, every particle of dust is removed by gently cleaning the whole edges and back also with cotton."

The Second Operation consists in *coating the plate*. M. Daguerre's great merit undoubtedly lies in his discovery of the use of iodine, in producing a sensitive coating to receive the images photogenically The coating operation, it need only be mentioned, requires a small quantity of broken iodine, and a small square box. In the middle or upper part of this box, the plate is fixed horizontally, with its face downwards, having been previously fixed on a board by means of side catches and bands of the same metal as the plate. At the bottom, is placed a quantity of the iodine in a small saucer, and the exhalation rising from it, at a natural temperature, gives a decided *gold tinge* to the plate. The time required for this varies from five minutes to half an hour, and the plate must be taken out on the instant of its reaching the pure gold tinge, as the plate is useless, if it passes that hue. An examination, therefore, must be made now and then by lifting the plate, but this must be performed quickly, that the light may not act on the surface. The whole of these operations, indeed, must be performed in a darkened apartment. By using a taper, there is least chance of injury to the plate from the light. A piece of gauze, stretched across the box between the iodine and the plate, is used to regulate the evaporation.

The Third Operation consists in placing the plate, now of a gold tint, in the camera, to receive the required image or images. The camera must be previously fixed in the proper position, and the focus adjusted and tested by a piece of white paper, as in ordinary cases. Avoiding light and contact, the plate is then quickly placed in the camera, along with the board on which it was fixed, as already mentioned, with plated bands and tacks holding it down by the edges. When the aperture of the camera is opened, the operator has nothing to do but to take up his watch, and stand by till the proper time for removal. Unfortunately, that time is difficult to ascertain. When the external objects are brilliantly illuminated by the sun, three minutes will complete the operation. When there is little light reflected from external objects, from three to twenty minutes will be required. The operator must make the best guess he can upon the principle now stated. There is nothing visible on the plate when taken from the camera, so that he has no guide in this respect. In northern latitudes, more time will always be necessary than in more southerly climes, where the intensity of the sun-light is greater.

When the plate is removed from the camera, it is

YANKEE PEDLAR.

A clever trick was played by a Yankee pedlar upon one of the captains of the steam-boats running from New York to Albany, on the Hudson river. The Yankee was fully aware of the custom of putting people on shore who attempted to gain a passage for nothing, and his destination was to a place called Poughkeepsie, about half way between New York and Albany. He therefore waited very quietly until he was within a mile or two of Poughkeepsie, and then went up to the captain. "Well, now, captain, I like to do things on the square, that's a fact; I might have said nothing to you, and run up all the way to Albany—and to Albany I must go on particular business—that's a fact; but I thought it more honourable like to tell you at once. I haven't got a cent in my pocket: I have been unfortunate; but by the 'tarnal I'll pay you my passage-money as soon as I get it. You see I tell you now, that you mayn't say that I cheat you; for pay you I will, as soon as I can, that's a fact." The captain, indignant, as usual, at being tricked, called him certain names, swore a small quantity, and as soon as he arrived at Poughkeepsie, as a punishment put him ashore at the very place the keen Yankee wished to be landed at.—*Captain Marryat's Diary in America.*

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subjected to the Fourth or Mercurial Operation, by means of which the images are *disengaged*, or developed. The chief apparatus here required consists of a tall square-sided box, fully the breadth of the plate, and more than twice as high, reckoning the limbs on which it stands. Daguerre seems to have this box in whole or in part, made of *black iron*, but does not assign any reason for preferring such a material to wood. The box, however made, should have a hinged top, and a small glass window in the upper part of one of its sides, and should be open below in such a way that a spirit-lamp may be applied to the under part of a cup, placed in the bottom of the box, and containing three ounces of mercury. In this mercury the bulb of a thermometer must be placed, and the upper part of this instrument must be visible. In a box made of wood, the upper part of the thermometer may be passed through a hole in one of the sides, the instrument lying angularly. Such is the arrangement in the under part of this apparatus. The upper portion must be so arranged that the plate, with the board on which it is placed, can be fixed across the interior of the box at an angle of 45 degrees, the face of the plate downwards, in order to receive the fumes of the mercury. The top or door of the apparatus is then gently shut. "When all things are thus disposed, the spirit-lamp is lighted, and placed under the cup containing mercury. The operation of the lamp is allowed to continue till the thermometer, the bulb of which is covered by the mercury, indicates a temperature of 60 degrees centigrade. The lamp is then immediately withdrawn; if the thermometer has risen rapidly, it will continue to rise without the aid of the lamp, but this elevation ought not to exceed 75 degrees centigrade.

The impress of the image of nature exists upon the plate, but it is invisible. It is not till after the lapse of several minutes that the faint tracery of objects begins to appear, of which the operator assures himself by looking through the glass, by the light of a taper using it cautiously, that its rays may not fall upon and injure the nascent images of the sketch. The operation is continued till the thermometer sinks to 45 degrees centigrade; the plate is then withdrawn, and this operation completed."

The Fifth Operation consists in the fixing of the impression or image, by removing the coating of iodine, on which the light would still act. A saturated solution of common salt, filtered and warmed, or, what is better, a weak solution of hyposulphite of soda, not heated, some cold distilled water, and some warmed distilled water, with two (sheet copper) troughs, are the chief materials required in this process. The plate, when removed from the mercurial box, is freed from the board attached to it, and plunged into one of the troughs, containing cold distilled water, care being taken not to touch the centre of the plate. It is again *immediately* removed, and plunged into the saline solution in the other trough, and, being laid there, face upwards, is stirred about by means of a little copper-wire hook. The yellow tinge now leaves the plate; and when this is seen to have taken place, the plate is placed on an inclined plane (of japanned white iron), and distilled water, hot, but not boiling, poured freely over it. All these operations are but the work of a minute or two; and when the last is finished, the plate must be dried rapidly by blowing on it, and moving it in the air, else stains will be left on the drawing. After this, the drawing cannot be washed out; but rubbing, or the continued action of vapours, would destroy it. "To preserve these sketches, then, place them in squares of strong pasteboard, with a glass over them, and frame the whole in wood. They are thenceforth unalterable even by the sun's light."

These are the whole photogenic operations of M. Daguerre, detailed in as simple a manner as possible. Regarding the apparatus, it may be observed that the more closely the directions of the inventor are followed, the better, though, as in the case of the copper troughs for example, there is perhaps no great necessity for using precisely the materials specified. Earthenware dishes, or ashets, as they are called, may do well enough. In some other respects, and particularly in the cleaning and preparing of the plates, the most minute attention must be paid to the directions given. The exclusion of light, also, and the avoidance of contact with the plates, must be pointedly attended to, and all the apparatus cleaned carefully after use.

When finished in a perfect way, the design on the plate is exquisitely beautiful, and though impressions of it cannot be multiplied as from a graven plate, it is in a perfect state for the engraver to copy, and he can do this with far more ease and correctness than in the case of ordinary drawings. We have seen one brought from Paris, and now in the possession of a gentleman in Edinburgh, which gives a representation of a portion of the streets of the French capital, and in a manner so minute, so delicate, and so wonderfully perfect in shading, as to give one a striking idea of what this invention will yet do for the fine arts. The plate seems to be about eight inches by six, and is set in pasteboard, glazed, and framed. The windows of the houses, blinds, sign-boards, stones of the pavement, and other points in the view, are brought out with great force. At the time we write, this specimen is the only one, we believe, yet brought from Paris; but, ere long, multiplied specimens will doubtless be in the hands of our countrymen, and these not the production of Parisian, but of native men of science. We have had the gratification of seeing M. Daguerre's processes practically worked out by one of our ablest chemists and experimenters, Dr. Fyfe of Edinburgh. Though operating on plated copper not prepared for the purpose, and comparatively very imperfect in level and finish, Dr. Fyfe has succeeded in making several very successful representations.

In England, a French artist of the name of Ste. Croix is at present exhibiting the wonders of the Daguerréotype. We find in a London paper the following remarks from a spectator of this gentleman's operations:—"The picture produced on the polished silver surface by these means is one of the most curious and beautiful objects of art that we have ever beheld. It is seen with all the truth and beauty of nature, as in a mirror, with the additional charm of brilliant concentration similar to that which is furnished by an opera glass, and (still more wonderful) with a soft tint of blue in the sky. M. de Ste. Croix assures us that the extent and distance of the landscape does not present any impediment to the success of his operations, and that the prospect of Paris taken from the Pont Neuf by M. Daguerre is quite as perfect as that taken across the street or across the table. The capacity of the Daguerréotype for doing justice to an 'interior' was pleasingly illustrated by a mirrored sketch of the artist's own table, with basin, ewer, towel, &c., of which the early sunshine had just completed a faithful picture as his visitors entered."

Although it is mentioned here that a "soft tint of blue" existed in the sky, we believe this to be a visual deception, arising from the admirable minuteness of the shading. M. Daguerre has nowhere alluded to the production of natural tints in his designs. At the same time, some doubt certainly appears to exist on this point. M. Arago, in his Report, speaks of the *couleur locale* of the plates, which expression Dr. Memes professes himself unable to understand, "as photographic designs have *no local colour*." There are, indeed, many improvements yet to make in this art. The process is at present difficult, and the materials expensive. The rationale, moreover, of several of the processes, is not understood by the inventor himself, and operators are left without any determinate rules of guidance. But the matter is now handed over to the whole world of science, and we may confidently anticipate rapid improvements. No invention ever reached perfection in the very infancy of its course.

What we may yet expect from the Daguerréotype is finely shown by the philosophic Arago. "To copy the millions and millions of hieroglyphics which entirely cover to the very exterior the great monuments at Thebes, Memphis, Carnac, &c., would require scores of years and legions of artists. With the Daguerréotype, a single man would suffice to bring to a happy conclusion this vast labour. Arm the Egyptian Institute with two or three of Daguerre's instruments, and on several of the large engravings in that celebrated work, the fruit of our immortal expedition, vast assemblages of real hieroglyphics would replace fictitious or purely conventional characters. At the same time, these designs shall incomparably surpass in fidelity, in truth of local colour, the works of the ablest artists. Again, those photographic delineations having been subjected, during their formation, to the rules of geometry, shall enable us, with the aid of a few simple data, to ascertain the exact dimensions of the most elevated parts, and of the most inaccessible edifices. The prepartion employed by M. Daguerre is a re-agent much more sensible to the action of light than any other hitherto in use. Never have the rays of the moon, we do not say in a natural state, but even when concentrated by the most powerful lens, or in the focus of the largest reflector, been capable of producing any perceptible physical effect. The plated discs prepared by M. Daguerre, on the contrary, receive impressions from the action of the lunar rays and the succeeding operations to such an extent as permits the hope that we shall be in a situation to make photographic charts of our satellite. In other words, in a few minutes we shall be able to execute one of the longest, most tedious, and most delicate operations of astronomy.

Let us not hesitate, then, to announce the fact: the re-agents discovered by M. Daguerre will speed onwards the progress of those sciences which confer the highest honour on the human mind. By their aid the philosopher will be enabled henceforth to proceed on the principle of absolute intensities; he will compare lights by their effects. If he find it useful, the same tablet will present him with the impression of the dazzling beams of the sun, and with the pencillings of rays three hundred thousand times fainter than those of the moon—the rays of the stars. In short, when observers apply a new instrument to the study of nature, what they expected from it has always proved little indeed compared with the series of discoveries which the instrument originated. In this instance it is upon the *unforeseen* that we are especially to reckon."

These deductions are not less just than sublime.

MARIANA.

"Mariana in the moated grange."—*Measure for Measure.*

With blackest moss the flower-plots
Were thickly crusted, one and all,
The rusted nails fell from the knots
That held the peach to the garden wall.
The broken sheds look'd sad and strange,
Uplifted was the clinking latch,
Weeded and worn the ancient thatch,
Upon the lonely moated grange.
She only said, "My life is dreary,
He cometh not," she said:
She said, "I am aweary, aweary;
I would that I were dead!"

Her tears fell with the dews at even,
Her tears fell ere the dews were dried.
She could not look on the sweet heaven,
Either at morn or eventide.
After the flitting of the bats,
When thickest dark did trance the sky,
She drew her casement curtain by,
And glanced athwart the glooming flats.
She only said, "The night is dreary,
He cometh not," she said:
She said, "I am aweary, aweary,
I would that I were dead!"

Upon the middle of the night,
Waking she heard the night fowl crow:
The cock sang out an hour ere light:
From the dark fen the oxen's low
Came to her: without hope of change,
In sleep she seemed to walk forlorn,
Till cold winds woke the grey-eyed morn
About the lonely moated grange.
She only said, "The day is dreary,
He cometh not," she said:
She said, "I am aweary, aweary,
I would that I were dead!"

About a stonecast from the wall,
A sluice with blacken'd waters slept,
And o'er it many, round and small,
The clustered marishmosses crept.
Hard by a poplar shook alway,
All silver green, with gnarled bark,
For leagues no other tree did dark
The level waste, the rounding grey.
She only said, "My life is dreary,
He cometh not," she said:
She said, "I am aweary, aweary,
I would that I were dead!"

And even when the moon was low,
And the shrill winds were up an' away,
In the white curtain, to and fro,
She saw the gusty shadow sway.
But when the moon was very low,
And wild winds bound within their cell,
The shadow of the poplar fell
Upon her bed, across her brow.
She only said, "The night is dreary,
He cometh not," she said:
She said, "I am aweary aweary,
I would that I were dead!"

All day within the dreamy house,
The doors upon the hinges creak'd,
The blue fly sang i' the pane; the mouse
Behind the mouldering wainscot shriek'd,
Or from the crevice peer'd about.
Old faces glimmered through the doors,
Old footsteps trode the upper floors,
Old voices called her from without.
She only said, "My life is dreary,
He cometh not," she said:
She said, "I am aweary, aweary,
I would that I were dead!"

The sparrow's chirrup on the roof,
The slow clock ticking, and the sound
Which to the wooing wind aloof
The poplar made, did all confound
Her sense; but most she loath'd the hour
When the thickmoted sunbeam lay
Athwart the chambers, and the day
Downsloped was westering in his bower.
Then, said she, "I am very dreary,
He will not come," she said:
She wept, "I am aweary, aweary,
Oh God, that I were dead!"

—*Tennyson's Poems.*

NOTICE.

THE Publisher of the American Edition of this popular periodical avails himself of the commencement of a New Volume to express his acknowledgments to the Subscribers who have thus far patronised his undertaking. This work has now been reprinted during two years and, from the facilities afforded by Steam Navigation, is kept very close to the English dates, thus the first Number of the present year is printed during the month of January. The circulation of CHAMBERS'S EDINBURGH JOURNAL, in Great Britain has been steadily advancing with a rapidity unequalled in the history of periodical publication; in the United States, where such an ample field might fairly be supposed to exist, it has scarcely attained a sufficient growth to keep it in existence; but from the favourable manner in which it has been spoken of by those who have subscribed to it, and by the PRESS, without an exception, the publisher is induced to continue the experiment another year. The amount of Subscription is so very low that it will not admit of any expense in collecting; and as a multiplicity of such small accounts would be very perplexing, the Subscribers are earnestly requested to forward their Subscriptions, without which no papers can be sent. Any person forwarding TEN DOLLARS will receive SIX COPIES of the Journal weekly, mailed to the addresses of the parties. Complete Copies of the Work for the Years 1838 and 1839, can be had, either in Numbers, or neatly half bound, at the Office.

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VISITS TO THE SCHOOLS IN DUBLIN.

Having long felt an interest in the condition and progress of elementary education in Ireland, I took the opportunity, during a late visit to Dublin, to make some personal inquiries on the subject, the result of which may not be uninteresting to the public. I knew no one connected with any of the existing systems of instruction, but it is impossible to be long in Dublin without gaining kind friends and acquaintances, who are willing to give all the explanations in their power, and to show what can be seen in the public institutions; and accordingly I had no difficulty in procuring the information which I required. A perambulation of the streets of Dublin for a few days, opens up to the stranger a new world of philanthropy. I was not prepared for the exhibition of so much benevolence on a large scale. Hospitals for the sick; institutions for the relief of poor householders, locally termed room-keepers; asylums for blind, and deaf and dumb; asylums for female domestic servants when out of place; orphan-supporting societies; missionary and other religious associations to a large amount; Sunday schools: a poor-house, supported by voluntary contributions, giving food daily to upwards of 2000 individuals;* and, lastly, certain large schools for the children of the humble classes—all served, to show that benevolence, whether well or ill directed, was a conspicuous element in the social organisation. Conducted by a gentleman belonging to the town, I visited a house in Sackville Street (the great central thoroughfare of Dublin), consisting of two large mansions thrown into one, and which contained the office of a different benevolent institution in each apartment—a great cluster of offices forming the head-quarters of societies whose labours are extended all over Ireland. It would almost seem as if the religious differences of the country had stirred up an emulative spirit of philanthropy. I found gentlemen, for instance, devoting not a little of their leisure to the conducting of Sunday schools, who, if in this country, would most likely take no interest, and certainly no personal trouble, in such things. The "gentlemen of England, who live at home at ease," have no sort of notion how much time is frequently given up by their friends in Ireland, to projects for the melioration and enlightenment of the poorer order of people.

My design, however, is not to notice these efforts, but to give a general idea of what is doing in the way of educating the mass of the juvenile population of Ireland. I may begin by stating, that no people in the world are more alive to the value of education, or more capable of receiving instruction, than the Irish; with all their faults of an over-hasty inconsiderate temperament, and so forth, they are a remarkably shrewd and active-minded race, and possess a rare faculty for "uptake." Long before any of the new educational schemes were projected, there were many schools in which poor children were taught at the most insignificant cost, by a primitive order of teachers; the school-house being, perhaps, a mud-built hovel, perhaps a shed under a hedge, perhaps the lee side of a wall, and not unfrequently the only primers were the lettered grave-stones in the open churchyard; the same tablets serving, with a piece of chalk, as the only copy-books by which to give a knowledge of writing and arithmetic. I mention this to show what an innate taste for learning has prevailed among even the very poorest Irish. And, unassisted by any species of endowment, or any patronage or countenance, they could not otherwise have preserved amongst them the elements of instruction. In one instance, as has been mentioned to me, such was the enthusiasm and philanthropy of a humble and poverty-struck teacher of youth, that he wandered over the country, offering to any one the boon of being taught to read, provided he would in return engage to teach other ten; the gratification of disseminating the blessings of a humble kind of education among his countrymen was his sole reward.

That a people who have shown such aptitude for literary instruction, should have been left so long utterly destitute of the means of regular education, is a fact not very creditable to those on whom the responsibility of such matters is supposed to fall. But that condition of things is past, so no more may be said about it. Thanks to the energy of the "Society for Promoting the Education of the Poor in Ireland," or Kildare Place Society, as it is usually termed, which first organised a pretty extensive system of school instruction throughout the country, and thanks to the more recent establishment of the National System of Education, the Irish are now in the fair way of receiving a proper share of moral, religious, and intellectual culture.

My first visit was to the establishment of the Kildare Place Society, which occupies two very large brick buildings, in a small square off Kildare Place, which is a street in the division of Dublin lying on the west side of the Liffey. Its situation, therefore, near the dense cluster of streets inhabited by the poor in this quarter of the town, is perfectly appropriate. At one time, as is perhaps well known, this society, which consists of a large body of influential individuals, received an annual grant of money from Parliament to carry on its operations, but that grant is now withdrawn, and the association conducts its educational schemes entirely by voluntary contributions. Notwithstanding this limitation of the means of support, which prevents it from any longer affording salaries to country teachers, the number of schools in connection with, and partly dependent on, the society, was in May last 1097. In 1816, it had only 8 schools; 1820, it had 381; in 1824, it had 1490; in 1830, it had 1634, which was the highest number on its books; in 1834, the number was down to 1000, and is now, as stated, 1097. According to the best estimate which has been obtained, these 1097 schools contained 81,178 scholars. The annual revenue of the society is, I believe, between four and five thousand pounds, and last year the disbursements amounted to L.4917, 8s. 2½d. The nature of the society's operations will be understood by a glance at a few of the payments which were made—as for example, L.227 for conducting the model schools in Kildare Place, L.170 on training of teachers, L.825 on grants of books and school requisites to country schools, L.1611 on the preparation of books and other requisites, the remainder being disbursements for inspection, and matters of a miscellaneous kind. The income is aided by school fees in the model school, and the sale of books and work. The preparation and dissemination of books suitable for school libraries, has always been a leading feature in the society's procedure. The volumes, of a small 18mo. size, are about eighty in number, embracing a variety of entertaining subjects for youth. The society has since its commencement distributed 1364 libraries, comprising 127,390 volumes, and amounting in value, at reduced prices, to L.3189, 10s. 2½d. There is a depositary of books in one of the edifices in Kildare Place, very much resembling a bookseller's shop, and from this the number of cheap books issued in the past year was 18,234, making a total since its opening of 1,636,026 volumes. Of the delight which this vast issue of innocently entertaining books must have produced among the young people of Ireland, during the last three or four and twenty years, who can give any estimate!

With these preliminary explanations in remembrance, we enter the large building which contains the model schools. These schools are contained in two very extensive and lofty apartments, that on the ground floor being for boys, and that which is above it for girls. Both seemed in a state of great efficiency, with pupils to the number of about 900—fee of each 1d. per week. Some of the classes were examined in our presence, according to the usual intellectual plan of teaching; that is, by a process of searching cross questions on the subjects of the lessons. The teachers were young men evidently skilled in this mode of tuition. I was particularly struck with the activity which was displayed in mental arithmetic. For example, the whole boys in the class were asked by us such questions as these—If a yard and three-quarters of cloth cost 7s. 6d., what will 7-8ths of a yard cost? What is the interest on L.475 for a year and a half at the rate of L.5 per cent. per annum? A dozen such queries were put and answered with amazing rapidity, the boy who first called out being asked to prove the accuracy of his answer, and he was generally successful. The Irish have an extraordinary faculty for both mental arithmetic and mathematical analysis. Their fondness for geometry as a branch of study is quite remarkable; and in some instances it has been carried to such a length as to exclude almost every other branch of knowledge. Hitherto the great dearth of works on geometry has been a matter of sore complaint to the poor Irish, but I was glad to learn that this has been removed by the publication of the cheap treatises with which I happen to be connected. Taking up one of these from a desk (Euclid's Elements of Plane Geometry), the master of the model school assured me—and I hope to be pardoned for feeling proud of the compliment—that the work had completely removed the difficulty which had been formerly experienced, and that the Irish were no longer debarred from pursuing their favourite branch of study.*

From the boys' school I was conducted upon stairs to that of the girls, where a similar efficiency and order

* At the period of my visit, this useful institution, which is the means of keeping the streets in a great measure clear of beggars, was in serious difficulties for lack of funds, as it depends entirely on voluntary contributions, or in other words, the philanthropic are alone taxed for its support. The new poor-law, which will come shortly into operation, will put an end to this absurdity, by taxing all alike for the support of the necessitous.

* I allude to this as simply a statistical fact, and it may serve to throw some light on the subject, when I mention, that of the cheap edition of Euclid, published by W. and R. Chambers in their Educational Course, about as many copies are sold in Ireland as in all Great Britain. It was not till I visited Dublin that I could account for the large demand for this book among the Irish.

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appeared to prevail. Under the direction of a mistress the girls were receiving lessons in the various branches of needlework, straw-plaiting, and knitting. They are taught to make and mend their own clothes, to shape and sew shirts, jackets, and other parts of male attire, also to knit and darn stockings, and patch holes in clothes in as neat a manner as possible. These exercises are conducted on a strictly methodic plan, there being a series of patterns of a small size to copy from. The book of patterns of gowns, shirts, frocks, jackets, stockings, petticoats, caps, &c , all made by the pupils, is a great curiosity in its way, each of the articles being about the length of a finger, and the whole looking like the wardrobe of a Lilliputian ; copies are sent to all the schools in connection with the society, so that the girls in every district are taught to use their needle on an uniform plan. We have nothing of this kind in Scotland ; where the parochial system makes no provision for the instruction of girls in these useful arts. I could not help remarking in this female model school of the Kildare Place Society, that there were many girls of a rank of life far above that of paupers or persons in moderately poor circumstances, and I was informed that it is no unusual thing for respectable shopkeepers to send their daughters here for education, although the charity (if I may call it such) is designed for the accommodation of the very humblest classes of society.

Having satisfied myself with respect to the Kildare Place model schools, I proceeded to make similar inquiries regarding those under the auspices of the National Board. It may be premised, that, as the Kildare Place Society from the outset insisted on the Protestant version of the Bible without note or comment being used in the schools under their superintendence, their labours, as might have been expected, proved useful almost exclusively to one portion of the people, comparatively few Catholics taking advantage of their liberality.* This gave rise, in 1831, to the establishment by the government of what has been called the National System of Education, the main feature of which is an arrangement by which the children are separated at certain times, and taught religion by their respective pastors — the necessary funds being provided by the state. By this means it was hoped that the great body of the people, and more particularly the children of the poorer class of Catholics, would at length be brought within the pale of education. I need not say how differently the plan has been regarded by various parties, both in Ireland and in Britain.

The National Board consists of nine commissioners chosen from both the Roman Catholic and Protestant bodies — the Roman Catholic and Protestant archbishops of Dublin being among the number. The commissioners receive from the public purse, and expend annually, the sum of L.50.000 ; their estimate for the year ending March 31, 1840, is L.50,357, which they propose to lay out as follows :—On training of teachers, L.2,220 ; model schools, L.390 ; grants towards building and establishing new schools, L.12,000 ; salaries and gratuities to teachers, L23.000 ; infant schools, L.220 ; agricultural schools, L 150 ; inspection, L.4975 ; books and school requisites, L.4250 ; and general expenditure, L 3152. The fee paid by each scholar is 1d. per week, the same as in the Kildare Place schools. In granting aid towards the erection of country schools, one-third at least of the expenditure upon each building must be locally provided for, and the local trustees must engage to keep the house in repair A stock of books and school requisites is supplied gratuitously every four years to each school, and these articles are at other times sold to the schools at from a third to a half of the common selling price. The appointment of teachers rests with the local patrons and committees, but subject to the approval of the board. By the provision for training teachers in the normal school, there will in time be a due supply of these functionaries, both male and fame. The commissioners have divided Ireland into twenty-five school districts, and have appointed a superintendant for each. In March, 1838 (the date of the Report before me), the number of national schools was 1384, attended by 169,548 children, but 195 new schools were soon to be opened, and it was expected that they would be attended by 40,106 pupils, making a total of 209.654. Reckoning, however, the schools said to be in actual operation in March, 1838, there were then, as we perceive, upwards of 169,000 children receiving a regular elementary education, at an annual cost to the state of L 50.000. The commissioners, in their Report, congratulate the public on this marked success of their labours. It seems that, in 1826, the number of children attending schools in Ireland to which the state granted aid, was 69,638, while the grants amounted in the year preceding to L.68,718.

The reader, I trust, will now have no difficulty in comprehending the nature or extent of this great national institution, to which I am about to introduce him. The head-quarters of the board are in Marlborough Street (a rather narrow thoroughfare behind Sackville Street), in the midst of the division of Dublin which lies on the east side of the Liffey. My first visit to the institution need not be specially described. In order to have as comprehensive an idea as possible of the nature of the system, I visited the schools several times, dropping in now and then to the different class-rooms, as I happened to have time to spare, during my residence at a hotel in the neighbourhood. The several edifices belonging to the institution are detached from each other, and stand within a square enclosure fronting to the street. Passing a large edifice on the right, devoted to the official business of the board, and a similar structure on the left, fitted up with an upper and lower hall for normal instruction, and lectures to candidate teachers on philosophical subjects, we proceed to an inner group of three edifices— one on the left being the model school for boys, that on the right the model school for girls, and that in the centre being occupied as a model infant-school. The normal institution has three professors, one master, and one assistant ; the boys' school one master, one assistant, and three monitors advanced to sub-teachers ; the girls' school has one mistress, and one assistant ; and the infant-school one master, one mistress, and one assistant. Belonging also to the head establishment is a farm for instruction in agriculture, a few miles from Dublin, possessing one agriculturist, one gardener, and one ploughman. The candidate teachers attend the farm for practical instruction in agriculture one day in the week.

There are at present upwards of 1100 children at the model schools in Marlborough Street,* The boys' school, to which I paid most attention, appeared to be conducted by some exceedingly active and intelligent individuals, though certainly not more so than those of the similar school belonging to the Kildare Place Society ; and I was in no small degree surprised and pleased to find that the instruction embraced various branches of physical science—such as the Laws of Matter and Motion, Mechanics, &c , while Geometry, as a matter of course, was a special object of study. A class of ragged urchins was at my request examined on some of the theorems in the first six books of Euclid, and the result was extremely satisfactory ; I question, indeed, if our more advanced students in the best academies could have acquitted themselves better. Yet these Irish boys are children of a humble order of individuals, and pay no more than a penny a-week for their education. I likewise heard a class examined on Bible history or Scriptural knowledge, and on this subject the answers were as readily delivered as those which I had heard a few weeks before at the Norwood institution in England, when elicited by a clergyman of the established church. I was a little surprised at this exhibition, because I had always understood that no species of religious instruction was given at the National Schools. Since this, I have learned that although the Bible, in its entire form, is not used as a class-book, there is much Scriptural knowledge contained in the books sanctioned by the institution, and which it seems possess the merit of being acceptable to all classes of Christians, at least to all except the more strict and unyielding of the two leading sects. I find it stated in the regulations of the National Schools, that "one day in each week, or part of a day (independent of Sunday), is to be set apart for the religious instruction of the children, on which day such pastors, or other persons as are approved of by the parents or guardians of the children, shall have access to them for that purpose." By this provision, which is exactly conformable to the plan pursued in Holland, and by the scrupulous care which is taken to avoid the very semblance of proselytism, the National Schools have gained the good-will of nearly the whole Catholic population. But while the greater proportion of the children attending the schools are Roman Catholic, there are more Protestant children in attendance than were at the Kildare Place Schools in 1826.† This, I should think, is an important fact, and would seem to imply that the National Schools are not so exclusively patronised by one party as has been represented. I found the boys' model school to comprehend pupils of both the Roman Catholic and Protestant churches. The general success of this school is such, that there is not sufficient space to accommodate the daily applications for admission, and certain apartments in the sunk story have recently been opened for classes, although never designed to be put to such a purpose.

In the girls' school, I had the satisfaction of seeing the same kind of instruction in needlework, as had pleased me so much at the Kildare Place schools, and here also are made up books of miniature specimens of male and female attire, to be sent to the female schools in the country. The infant-school, which was begun by Mr. Wilderspin, has been sustained in the best state of efficiency by a young teacher and his wife. The contemplation of the rows of happy little creatures, all under a correct system of moral training, afforded a most gratifying spectacle ; and in turning away from the scene, I felt impressed with the conviction that I had now seen, in practical operation, the true plan of improving, if not the whole Irish people, at least that portion whose numbers and general condition make it of the most importance to the public at large that they should be so improved.

By the united exertions of the National Board and the Kildare Place Society, it may be fairly estimated that at present nearly 300,000 children are receiving daily instruction. After making every allowance for those who may be taught privately and at other schools, there still remains an ample field for the establishment of new, and an extension of the existing seminaries. This field, it is gratifying to reflect, is now in course of a more extended culture. National Schools are getting up in many parts of the country ; the Schools of the Kildare Place Society are in active operation ; Sunday schools, in spite of all obstacles, are increasing in number and usefulness ; and the established church is organising a widespread system of education, strictly in connection with Scriptural knowledge. With all these aids, it will be hard if Ireland is not in time one of the best educated portions of the United Kingdom.

"ADVENTURES OF ROBIN DAY."

Such is the title of an amusing, though somewhat coarsely written novel, by Dr. Bird, an American author rapidly becoming known to English readers. The hero, Robin Day, is a dreadful scape-grace, a young Flibbertigibbet, who gets into all sorts of mischief—at least it is called mischief, and furnishes an excuse for giving him many a sound beating and no small measure of abuse. Robin, in short, is what is usually termed a very bad boy, though, as in forty-nine out of every fifty such cases, his bad conduct is clearly traceable to the mismanagement, if not petty tyranny, of his superiors. The history of Robin's early career is worth abridging for the sake of its humour.

When an infant of only a year old, he was wrecked on the coast of New Jersey ; his parents were drowned ; by a lucky chance he was saved, and fell to the share of Mother Moll, a female wrecker of eminence in that part of the world. Mother Moll, who had an eye to bringing him up to her own infamous profession, which consisted of decoying vessels ashore by holding out false signals, took care to initiate him in its mysteries as he grew in stature. When he was able to run along the beach, he was sent out on dark stormy nights to regulate the performance of an old horse, whose legs were tied to cause a stumbling motion in a lantern which it carried, and thereby convey to the unhappy mariner an idea of a light in a vessel in the offing. What with cold, hunger, and blows, young Robin felt this to be a most uncomfortable employment, so that at seven years of age he was glad to be bought from his adopted mother by a character of the name of Day, whose name he subsequently took.

Robin's master or proprietor was the skipper and owner of a shallop called the Jumping Jenny, and to this he added the profession of a wrecker and smuggler. His ships company consisted of himself and another, and when Robin was stowed on board, he was installed in the office of cook. In one respect the situation was more comfortable than that at Mother Moll's, for he now got plenty of food ; but to compensate this advantage, he received a greater share of kicks ; and for five years, during which he served in the Jumping Jenny, his life was a round of hopeless, cheerless misery. At length a period of relief to his troubles arrived. As he sat one day engaged in the delightful occupation of picking a gander, upon the bowsprit of the little craft, which lay at anchor, and in which he had been left alone, to make preparation for his patron's dinner, a party of youth, in a boat near by, employed themselves in pelting him with stones and oyster-shells. One of the missiles inflicted a severe wound, and, at the same time, the graceless urchin who had launched it, lost his balance and fell into the water, which was deep, with a strong current running

"The hero of the scene (such are Robin's own words), whose disaster I regarded with sentiments of complacency and approbation, as being nothing more than he deserved for the unprovoked injury he had done me, sank to the bottom, whence in a moment he came whirling and gasping to the surface, and was swept by the tide against the sloop's cable, which he attempted to seize, but without success ; for though he had hold of it for an instant, he was not able to maintain his grasp. In this state of the adventure, the little fellow was immediately under me, where I sat on the bowsprit ; and as the tide swept him from the cable, he looked up to me with a countenance of such terror, and agony, and despair, mingled with imploring entreaty — though being on the point of strangling, he was neither able to speak nor to cry out—that I was suddenly struck

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* The following is part of the evidence before the House of Lords, given by the Hon. and Rev. B. W. Noel, on this question—"As a proof how little such a system can prevail, I find that, when the Kildare Place Society came to Parliament annually for the money which they wanted, after ten years of exertions, they only got 29,812 children in their schools out of half a million that ought to have been instructed ; and this was at a fearful sacrifice, much greater than the board is called to make, for the religious education was often merely nominal, and the Bible was not often read. The Commissioners of Education Inquiry state that they found the reading of the Scriptures to be frequently mere form, and, in the second place, no exposition was allowed ; and, notwithstanding these fatal concessions, after all, in ten years they could only get, out of 500,000 Roman Catholic children, 29,812."—*Lords*, p. 872.

*I give this number from memory. I cannot find any number stated in the Fifth Report of the Board, lately published.

† Digest of Evidence before the Houses of Lords and Commons, 1838, p. 213.

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with feelings of compassion. They were the first human emotions, I believe, that had entered my bosom for years; and such was the strength of them, that before I knew what I was doing, I dropped into the river—gander and all—to save the poor little rascal from drowning.

Such a feat did not appear to me either very difficult or dangerous, for I could swim like a duck, and had had extraordinary experience in the art of saving life in the water; not, indeed, that I had ever performed such service for any body but myself; but, in my own case, I had almost daily occasion; for nothing was more common than for Skipper Day to take me by the nape of the neck and toss me overboard, even when on the open sea; though the mate always threw me a rope to help me on board again, except when we were becalmed or at anchor; in which cases he left me to take care of myself. In the present instance, however, as it proved, the exploit was not destined to be performed without difficulty; for, droping down with more hurry than forecast, right before the stem, and with a force that carried me pretty deep into the water, I was swept under the shallop's bottom, which, in the effort to rise to the surface, I managed to strike with my head, with a violence that would undoubtedly have finished me, had not that noble excrescence been, in those days, of unusual thickness. The shock was, however, sufficient to stun and confound the small quantity of wits I possessed, and to such a degree that I lost my hold of the gander, which up to this moment I had clutched with instinctive care, besides which, I was swept, before I had time to recover myself, along the whole of the sloop's bottom; and this being pretty well studded with barnacles, young oysters, and the heads of old nails, I had the satisfaction of enjoying as complete and thorough a keelhauling as was ever administered to any vagabond whatever, my jacket, shirt, and back, being scratched all to pieces. Of this, however, as well as of the loss of the gander, I was for a time quite unconscious, being confused by the shock my head had suffered; and the moment I succeeded in passing the rudder, and reaching the surface, I had all my thoughts engaged in rescuing the boy, who had now sunk two or three times, and was, I doubted not, sinking for the last time; for he was quite insensible when it was my good fortune to reach and seize him by the collar.

The batteau had by this time been borne by the tide against a projecting wharf, whither I easily swam with my charge, and then giving him up to his companions, who had now, by dint of yelling, brought several men to their assistance, I took to my heels, hoping to regain the sloop before Captain Day, who had gone ashore, should return and discover my absence. My only way of getting on board was that in which I had departed, namely, by swimming; and to this I betook me, by running a little up the stream, and then leaping again into the river.

My haste, however, was vain, the worthy skipper reaching the vessel an instant before myself: and when, having clambered by the hawser and bobstay, I succeeded in jumping on deck, I—who was in such a pickle, what with my clothes torn to shreds, and dripping with water, and the blood trickling down my face, as the reader cannot conceive—found myself confronted with my tyrant face to face. He gave me a horrible stare of surprise, took one step forward, so as to bring me within reach of his arm, and exclaimed, 'You draggle-tailed tadpole! where have you been?' which question he accompanied with a cuff on the right cheek, that tossed me a full fathom to the larboard.

'Please, sir,' said I, in as much terror as my stupidity was capable of, 'overboard, sir.'

'Overboard,' cried my master, giving me a cuff with the other hand, that sent me just as far starboard; 'what have you been doing overboard?'

'Please, sir, saving a boy's life, sir,' returned unhappy I, beginning to be conscious of the enormity of my offence.

'Saving a boy's life!' ejaculated Skipper Day, knocking me again to larboard; and here I may as well observe, that this was his usual way of conversing with me, or rather of pointing his conversation; his stops being usually but three, a cuff to the right, and a cuff to the left which he alternated with extreme regularity, at every other speech; and a full period, used at the close, by which I was laid as flat as a flagstone. 'Saving a boys life!' cried the skipper, boxing me as aforesaid; 'I wish all the boys were in Old Nick's side-pocket, roasting! Where's the gander?'

The gander? ay, *where* was the gander? The question froze my blood. I remembered the loss. By this time the gander was a mile down stream, if not already lodged, in divided morsels, in the capacious jaws of a hundred catfish.

The skipper noticed my confusion, and his face of a sudden became small, being puckered by a universal frown, that began at forehead and chin and the two ears, and tended to the centre, carrying there several parts before it, till all were blended in a knot of wrinkles scarce bigger than his nose. He stretched forth his hand, and took me by the hair, of which I had a mop half as big as my whole body; and giving his arm a slow motion to and from him, like the crank-rod, or whatever they call it, of a locomotive, just as it is getting under way, and making my head, of course, follow in the same line of traverse, thundered in my ears, 'The gander! you twin-born of a horse-mackerel! where's the gander?'

'Please, sir,' I spluttered out, in a confusion of intellects that was with me extremely customary, 'boy was overboard—jumped overboard to save him.'

'But the gander!' quoth my honest master; 'where's the gander?'

'Please sir, jumped overboard,' I repeated; 'got under the keel; knocked head—senses out, and—and—lost it.'

The chastisement which Robin received for this mishap was the last to which he was destined from the same quarter. The father of the child whom he had rescued, a worthy and opulent physician, received him into his family, and undertook to provide for, and, if possible, humanise him; Captain Day, meanwhile, having been subjected, by the intelligent indignation of the town's people, to an infliction of keelhauling, shaving, tarring, feathering, and banishment, all in pursuance of a sentence of Lynch Law.

Dr. Howard, Robin's patron, placed him at school, with the intention of introducing him honourably into life. All things might now seem to be going merry as a marriage-bell. But care, which follows all men to the fleet, follows our hero from it, and he has a dismal story to tell—though no worse, we suppose, than most others who were brought up at the same time—of the treatment he received at the hands of the ingenuous youth, his school-fellows, who were not only very pugnacious, but very speculative withal, and ready to go to death for their theories. Richard Dare, son of a soldier of the revolution, and leader of one of the parties in the school, introduced to his mates, in a good stump harangue, the doctrine of schoolboys' rights, and illustrated it so happily by analogies drawn from the movements of 1776, as to carry all before him. No sooner said than done. Mr. Burley, bear-keeper to these young hopefuls, having occasion, before long, to chastise their leader, finds, to his cost, that the revolutionary train has been but too well laid.

"'I wont be trounced,' said Dickey Dare, 'except by a vote of the boys; for I goes on the popular principle, and ——' But Dickey had not time to finish his sentence; for Burley immediately rushed forward to seize him, which Dickey was fain to avoid by leaping over his desk to the floor, where, being closely followed, he let fly his inkstand, by which he did great damage to the head of one of his schoolmates, without, however, hurting the master, and then dropping like a log on the floor, whereby the autocrat, whose legs he dexterously seized upon, was suddenly overturned, with a shock that left him for a moment quite helpless. 'Now, fellers!—them that aint cowards, fall on!' cried the hero to his fellow-conspirators, who, having been somewhat horrified by the sudden rally of the enemy, now recovered courage, and rushed upon him pell-mell; so that when he recovered from the shock, of his fall not Gulliver himself, waking from his first nap in Lilliput, was more multitudinously overrun by the bodies, or more hopelessly secured in the toils of his pigmy foes.

Horrible were the din and confusion that now prevailed; and horrible also, for a moment were the struggles of the downfallen monarch, who, however, being somewhat troubled with an asthma, became, after a time, completely exhausted, and incapable of further resistance; upon which Master Dare demanded handkerchiefs to bind him securely, which being effected, this incomparable putter-down of tyrants snatched up a birch-en twig, and dispensed, with uncommon coolness, a dozen thwacks upon the victim's shoulders. Nor did he rest here, but passing the rod from hand to hand, compelled every member of the new-born republic to administer, in like manner the same number of blows, which were, in general, laid on with exceeding good will. This being accomplished, he called for three cheers; after which we all took to our heels, leaving the deposed ruler to his meditations."

The success of the insurgents was altogether beyond their hopes. It set the town people to discussing the merits of the flogging system of education, which, being now brought under consideration for the first time, was pronounced by the majority entirely unsuited to the character and genius of a republican people, whose children, it was demonstrated, ought to be brought up with the highest ideas of personal independence and honour, of freedom and equality, which the tyranny of the rod must inevitably beat out of their tender spirits. It was agreed that the academy should thenceforth be governed on republican principles—that is, that there should be no more flogging."

The scheme, however, did not work so well in practice, as it looked in principle. The first master was discouraged, and took leave in a fortnight's time. A second, who was more persevering, discovered that it was not a question of liberty, but of who should be master, and, because he might not use force, he had to terminate his sway. The third, says Robin, "met the views of all concerned, being a very amiable, indolent personage, who agreed the more readily to adopt the republican system, as he had just brains enough to perceive it would save him a vast deal of trouble. He seemed very well content we should do as we pleased, get our lessons when we liked, and as we liked, come in and go out, laugh, talk, play, fight, or do any thing else, just as we thought proper; a degree of forbearance that won our entire love and respect, which we were accustomed to show by peppering him, whenever he was in a brown study, with potato popguns and showers of ripe elder-berries; by emptying the ink-bottle on his chair, when he appeared in white trousers, and strewing it with pin caltrops when in brown; and by sundry other innocent tricks, wherewith tender juveniles delight to show their affection. These little freedoms, it is true, sometimes drove him into a passion, when he scolded at us with great energy and emphasis; but they gave him no disgust at the school, in which he might have perhaps remained the president to this day, had it not been for a discovery made by some busy bodies, which brought his administration to a close, after six months' sway, and wrought somewhat of a change in public opinion on the subject of the new system.

The discovery was, that, under the said system, learning was at a stand-still, the boys, having actually advanced in nothing but mischief during all that period. The system was again brought under discussion; the minority, who had originally opposed it, repeated their denunciations; and, after another squabble, which at the time bade fair to shake even the national government (so hot, furious, political, and patriotic, were the passions it excited), our enemies prevailed, and schoolboy right and schoolboy glory fell for ever.

It was now urged, that the best way to bring up the boys of a republic in detestation of tyrants, was to put tyrants over them during their school-days, and thwack them into a thorough appreciation of the horrors and inconveniences of oppression. In short, it was agreed that the *ancien regime* should be restored, and the birch used as before; or, at least, so far as was necessary to help us along with our books, and keep us on our best behaviour."

But it is not easy to bend those to the yoke, who have once tasted the sweets of freedom. One teacher after another was made to know, by woful experience, what doom he merits, who would shackle the movements of the free-born soul. At length the exigency became extreme; and the trustees adopted, as usual, the policy of seeking refuge from the intolerable tyranny of many to the more tolerable tyranny of one. They committed their charge to the dominion of a Mr. M'Goggin, a disciplinarian who knew neither fear nor favour, and by whom peace was once more restored to the establishment. For an account of Mr. M'Goggin's mode of reform, we must refer to the work itself, which will furnish many other matters for mirth to the reader.

LABOUR SONGS.

SECOND ARTICLE.

SINGING to labour is we presume, more common on the continent than in our own grave and most reflecting country. In Germany, we should suppose that such things as labour songs must be numerous, for we find two modern poets of that country writing lyrics with reference to work, namely, Burger and Schiller. The girl's song to her spinning-wheel, by the former, is very happy. A translation of it, by Professor Tennant, has already appeared in our pages. The composition by Schiller is his "Song of the Bell"—a most extraordinary poem, all things considered, and one which has never yet been made known in this country to a degree comparable to its merits. To use the words of a work entitled "An Autumn near the Rhine"—"The casting of a bell is in Germany an event of solemnity and rejoicing. In the neighbourhood of the Hartz, and other mine districts, you read formal announcements in the newspapers from bell-founders, that at a given time and spot a casting is to take place, to which they invite all their friends. An entertainment out of doors is prepared, and held with much festivity. Schiller, in a few short stanzas, forming a sort of chorus, describes the whole process of the melting, the casting, and the cooling of the bell, with a technical truth and felicity of expression, in which the sound of the sharp sonorous rhymes and expressive epithets constantly forms an echo to the sense. Between these technical processes he breaks forth into the most beautiful episodiac pictures of the various scenes of life, with which the sounds of the bell are connected." We are tempted, from its connection with the present subject, to present a few passages from a very well executed translation of this celebrated song, which appeared a few years ago in a volume of poems edited by Joanna Baillie. Such parts of the episodes as we can afford room for are put within brackets, that they may be more readily distinguished from the rest:—

Fast immured within the earth,
Fixt by fire the clay mould stands,
This day the bell expects its birth:
Courage, comrades! ply your hands!
Hotly from the brow
Must the sweat-drop flow:
If by his work the master known,
Yet—Heaven must send the blessing down.
* * * *
Billets of the fir-wood take,
Every billet dry and sound;
That flame on gather'd flame awake,
And vault with fire the furnace round.
Cast the copper in,
Quick due weight of tin,
That the bell's tenacious food,
Rightly flow in ordered mood.

[What now within the earth's deep womb
Our hands by help of fire prepare,
Shall on yon turret mark our doom,
And loudly to the world declare?
There its earial station keeping,
Touch many an ear to latest time;
Shall mingle with the mourner's weeping,
And tune to holy choirs its chime.
All that to earth-born sons below
The changeful turns of fortune bring,
The Bell from its metallic brow
In warning sounds shall widely ring.]

Lo! I see white bubbles spring:—
Well!—the molten masses flow.
Haste, ashes of the salt wort fling,
Quickening the fusion deep below.
Yet, from scoriæ free
Must the mixture be,
That from the metal, clean and clear,
Its sound swell tuneful on the ear.

[Hark! 'tis the birth-day's festive ringing!
It welcomes the beloved child,
Who now life's earliest way beginning,
In sleep's soft arm lies meek and mild.

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As yet in time's dark lap repose,
Life's sunshine lot, and shadowy woes,
While tenderest cares of mothers born
Watch o'er her infant's golden morn.
The years like winged arrows fly:
The stripling from the female hand
Bursts into life all wild to roam;
And wandering far o'er sea and land,
Return's a stranger home.
There, in her bloom divinely fair,
An image beaming from the sky,
With blushing cheek and modest air
A virgin charms his eye,
A nameless longing melts his heart,
Far from his comrades revels rude,
While tears involuntary start,
He strays in pathless solitude—
There, blushing, seeks alone her trace;
And if a smile his suit approve,
He seeks the prime of all the place,
The fairest flower to deck his love.]

* * *

Sweet, 'mid the tresses of the bride,
Blooms the virgin coronal,
When merry bells ring far and wide
Kind welcome to the festival.
Ah, that life's fairest festive day
Fades with the blossom of our May!
[Forth the husband must wend
To the combat of life;
Plunge in turmoil and strife.
Must plant and must plan;
Gain get as he can.
Hazard all, all importune,
To woo and win fortune.
Then streams like a spring flood, his wealth without measure,
And his granaries groan with the weight of their treasure;
And his farm-yards increase, and his mansion expands.
Now the house-wife within
Her course must begin;
Nurse, mother, and wife,
Share the troubles of life;
Discreetly severe
Rule all in her sphere;
Give each maiden employ,
Watch each troublesome boy.
With orderly care,
Keep all in repair;
And store without ceasing
Her riches increasing;
Fill her sweet-scented coffers; and, restlessly twirling,
Set each spindle a-spinning, each wheel ever whirling;
And in smooth-polish'd wardrobes range row above row,
Her woollen all radiant, her linen all snow;
And trim them, and pranck them, and fashion them ever,
And rest—never
The father now, with deep delight,
From his proud seat's wide-seeing roof,
Sums up the wealth that feasts his sight;
The branching columns that support
The loaded barns ranged round the court;
Granaries that with corn o'erflow,
And harvests billowing to and fro:
And deems, fond man! that, propt on gain,
Like pillars that the globe sustain,
His house in glory shall withstand
Misfortune's rough and ruthless hand.
But—none—no mortal can detain
Fate in adamantine chain.
Mischance with hurried foot advances.]

'Tis time.—Now, now begin the fusion:
The crevice now yields promise fair.
Yet, pause—nor hasten the conclusion,
Till Heav'n has heard our pious pray'r.
Push the stopper out.
Saints! watch the house about.
Smoking in the handle's bow,
Shoot the waves that darkly glow.

[A city conflagration is now described—after which:]

All prosp'rous seems beneath the earth,
Full and kindly fill'd the mould:
But will the day that views its birth,
What crowns our toil and art behold?
If the fusion fail!—
If the mould prove frail!—
Ah! haply while Hope's sunbeams glow,
Fate has already wrought the woe!
[From the dome,
Sad and slow,
Tolls the Bell,
The song of woe;
Its sad, its solemn strokes attend
A wand'rer to his journey's end.
Ah! 'tis the dear one—'tis the wife!
'Tis the belov'd, the loving mother!
Who by the prince of darkness borne,
From her fond husband's arms is torn—
Torn from each tender child away
She bore him in her bloom of day—
Those who had grown upon her breast,
By love—a mother's love—carest.
Ah! the household's gentle band
Is loos'd for ever—ever more;
She dwells within the shadowy land
Whose fondness hung that household o'er.
Now ceased her zealous occupation,
None her kindness more shall prove;
O'er that wide waste, that orphan station,
A stranger rules devoid of love.]
While the Bell is cooling, rest,
Rest from toil and trouble free;
Each, as fits his fancy best,
Sport like bird at liberty.

* * *

Break me the mould: its due employment
Now done, no more its aid we need.
Let heart and eye in full enjoyment,
On the well form'd image feed.
Swing, the hammer swing,
Till the cover spring.
When the earth the bell releases,
The mould may split a thousand pieces.

* * *

Joy! joy to me, kind Heav'n has giv'n:
Lo! like a star of golden birth,
The metal polish'd, smooth, and even,
Comes from its coverture of earth.
Lo! round its beauteous crown
Sunlike radiance thrown;
And the coat of arms' gay burnish
Shall to my skill new honour furnish.
Come all! come all!
Close your ranks, in order settle;

Baptise we now the hallow'd metal.
"Concordia!"—Such her name we call.
To harmony, to heartfelt union,
It gathers in the blest communion.
Be this henceforward its vocation;
For this I watch'd o'er its creation.
That while our life goes lowly under,
The Bell 'mid yon blue heav'n's expansion,
Should soar, the neighbour of the thunder,
And border on the starry mansion.
Its voice from yon aërial height
Shall seem the music of the sphere,
That rolling lauds its Maker's might,
And leads along the crowned year:
To solemn and eternal things
Alone shall consecrate its chime,
And hourly, as it swiftly swings,
O'ertake the flying wing of time:
Shall lend to Fate its iron tongue,
Heartless itself, nor form'd to feel,
Shall follow life's mix'd scenes among,
Each turn of Fortune's fickle wheel—
And, as its echo on the gale
Dies off, though long and loud the tone,
Shall teach that all on earth shall fail,
All pass away—save God alone.
Now, with the rope's unwearied might,
From its dark womb weigh up the Bell,
That it may gain th' aërial height,
And in the realm of Echo dwell.
Draw! draw!—it swings:
Hark! hark! it rings
Joy to this town, be heard around!
Peace unto all, the Bell's first sound!

Amongst ourselves, while songs strictly for labour scarcely exist, we are not without a few relating to trades and occupations, and to some of these we may now advert. One, of very especial merit, bears reference to the business of the fisherman, but it is a great favourite amongst all other classes, on account of its genuine natural sentiment. The turn of the last stanza is affecting beyond nine-tenths of the most pathetic poetry of scholarly workmanship!

O weel may the boatie row,
And better may she speed!
And weel may the boatie row,
That wins the bairns's bread!
The boatie rows, the boatie rows,
The boatie rows indeed;
And happy be the lot of a'
That wishes her to speed!

I cuist my line in Largo Bay,
And fishes I caught nine:
There's three to boil, and three to fry,
And three to bait the line.
The boatie rows, the boatie rows,
The boatie rows indeed;
And happy be the lot of a'
That wishes her to speed!

O weel may the boatie row,
That fills a heavy creel,
And cleads us a' frae head to feet,
And buys our parritch meal.
The boatie rows, the boatie rows,
The boatie rows indeed;
And happy be the lot of a'
That wish the boatie speed.

* *

When Sawnie, Jock, and Janetie,
Are up, and gotten lear,
They'll help to gar the boatie row,
And lighten a' our care.
The boatie rows, the boatie rows,
The boatie rows fu' weel;
And lightsome be her heart that bears
The muirlain and the creel!

And when wi' age we're worn down,
And hirpling round the door,
They'll row to keep us hale and warm,
As we did them before:
Then, weel may the boatie row,
That wins the bairns's bread;
And happy be the lot of a'
That wish the boat to speed!

If any one, struck by the simple beauty of this strain wish to know from whom it proceeded, the only answer that we are aware can be given to the inquiry, is, that Burns somewhere reports it to have been the composition of a Mr. Ewen, of Aberdeen.

"Tarry woo," another old Scottish song, is, as might be supposed, sacred to the generation of shepherds. It is popular all over the pastoral districts of Peebles, Selkirk, and Roxburgh shires, and is somewhat remarkable for one extrinsic circumstance—namely, that it is the only song which Sir Walter Scott, with his unmusical voice and no ear, ever attempted to sing before company. He regularly sang it, about the third bowl, at an annual meeting of farmers in his neighbourhood.

Tarry woo, tarry woo,
Tarry woo is ill to spin;
Card it weel, card it weel,
Card it weel, ere ye begin.
When it's cardit, row'd, and spun,
Then the wark is haflins done;
But, when woven, dress'd, and clean,
It may be cleadin' for a queen.

* * *

How happy is the shepherd's life,
Far frae courts and free of strife!
While the gimmers bleat and bae,
And the lambkins answer mae;
No such music to his ear!
Of thief or fox he has no fear:
Sturdy kent, and collie true,
We'll defend the tarry woo.

He lives content, and envies none:
Not even a monarch on his throne,
Though he the royal sceptre sways,
Has such pleasant holidays.
Who'd be king, can ony tell,
When a shepherd sings sae well!
Sings sae well, and pays his due
With honest heart and tarry woo.

Next, we think, to having a song relative to labour, and calculated by its sentiments to make that labour appear light, is to have a song which thus gives the charm of poetical grace and feeling to a particular trade or occupation. We wish that every trade had such: it would tend to support in the professors of each that harmless pride in their own craft which seems to be one of the things which give them a liking to their labours. Unfortunately, very few trades have been so far favoured by the muses. We are aware of none relative to the joys and sorrows of the tailor's lot; though nothing, we should suppose, could be more delightful than to hear some eighteen of these tradesmen on one board singing a duet descriptive of all that they do and suffer. Neither have the shoemakers, or the bakers, or the butchers, or the grocers, any appropriate ditties. The poets have here shown a most intolerable partiality, for they have given us songs without number respecting the shepherds, the ploughmen, and the millers. As to millers in particular, have we not the gentleman who lived on the Dee, and was quite indifferent to all the world, since all the world was indifferent to him? also the fine description of a miller's domestic system, written by Sir John Clerk of Penny-cuik, of which we cannot refrain from presenting at least one verse—

Behind the door stand bags o' meal,
And in the ark is plenty,
And gude hard cakes his mother bakes,
And mony a sweeter dainty;
A gude fat sow, a sleeky cow,
Are standing in the byre,
And winking puss, wi' mealy mou',
Is playing round the fire.

This is part of the speech of a mother to a daughter, whom she wishes to marry a miller. In the song which ensues, we have one of the trade himself giving an account of the happiness of his condition: it is said to have been written by a Mr. Charles Highmore, for Robert Dodsley, in whose play of the Miller of Mansfield it occurs:—

How happy a state does the miller possess!
Who would be no greater, nor fears be no less;
On his mill and himself he depends for support,
Which is better than servilely cringing at court.

What though he all dusty and whitened does go,
The more he's bepowdered, the more like a beau;
A clown in his dress may be honester far
Than a courtier who struts in his garter and star.

Though his hands are so daubed they're not fit to be seen,
The hands of his betters are not very clean;
A palm more polite may as dirtily deal;
Gold, in handling, will stick to the fingers like meal.

* * *

And should he endeavour to keep an estate,
In this he would mimic the tools of the state;
Whose aim is alone their own coffers to fill,
As all his concern's to bring grist to his mill.

He eats when he's hungry, he drinks when he's dry,
And down when he's wearied contented does lie;
Then rises up cheerful to work and to sing:
If so happy as a miller, then who'd be a king?

To conclude, we would once more recommend to the consideration of gentlemen of poetical endowment, and at the same time philanthropic views, the possibility of their doing a good turn to their fellow-creatures by composing songs appropriate to various branches of labour, and others calculated to raise in working people a feeling of pride and pleasure in their respective crafts.

SNATCHES OF CONTINENTAL RECOLLECTIONS.

HOW THEY CURE NE'ERDOWEELS.

THE story of Jerry Guttridge, which was presented a few weeks ago in the Journal, furnished on the whole not a bad plan for "pulling up" that numerous class of beings usually known among us under the names of ne'erdoweels," "victims," and "downdraughts." I do not certainly recommend whipping as a means for curing either habitual drunkenness or idleness, for, independently of the cruelty of such a mode of punishment, it has generally the effect of hardening instead of mollifying the evil dispositions of offenders. Ne'erdoweels must be treated very much like persons who labour under mental alienation. Their faculties and tastes are diseased. They are, in some respects, not accountable for their behaviour any more than an idiot or lunatic. As things go with us, ne'erdoweels are subject to no species of judicial control. Their friends and relatives have no power whatever to place them legally in confinement. An honest and worthy man may be worried to death with a drunken wife or a vicious good-for-nothing son, but the law offers no means of relief. We hear daily of the most distressing cases of wives and families being in a state of destitution, in consequence of husbands and fathers spending their earnings in reckless intemperance, but neither magistrates nor correctional police have any thing to say in the matter. A man may allow his family to become a burden on society, but society can only complain of the injustice. With the greatest respect for civil liberty, we cannot help thinking that there is something wrong here; and it becomes a very grave question, whether, in maintaining the principle of personal freedom, we do not, in this instance at least, go a little too far, and incur evils on the other side.

In Holland, and some of the German states (perhaps in all), it is competent for the public authorities to deprive any man of his liberty, and send him to the house of correction, on a due representation of his being guilty of habitual idleness, drunkenness, or general bad behaviour. Cases of ne'erdoweelism and victimisation are consequently rare in Holland, and assuredly are not observable on the common thoroughfares, as we see them in this country. In Prussia, when a man addicts himself to habits of intemperance, and regularly misspends the earnings which should go to the maintenance of his family, the public authorities take cognisance of his conduct. He is pulled up. On being brought before a magistrate, we may suppose him to be addressed in the following terms:—"You are here, sir, on the very serious charge of being an habitual drunkard. The wages

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which you earn, when it pleases your fancy to work, you regularly spend upon liquor; your wife and family are at the point of starvation; they have neither food nor fuel, and their clothing is insufficient for their necessities. This conduct is infamous, for you are a good workman, and could earn six thalers per week, on which yourself and family might live in great comfort and respectability. I say your behaviour is intolerable; you are a public nuisance, for your example may seduce others to enter on the same career of wickedness; and in the meanwhile you are leaving your family to be a burthen on honest and industrious men. But this shall continue no longer. I consign you to the house of correction, where you will be removed from all temptations to vice, and have an opportunity of working for your family, and of forming resolutions to amend your life for the future." Thus lectured on his delinquency, the ne'erdoweel is handed to prison. He is then set to work, as far as it can be done, in the kind of employment he has been accustomed to, and a certain portion of his weekly earnings is given to his family. What may be the length of his confinement, I am not aware; most likely it varies according to the circumstances of the case, and the appearance of amendment. The object being to reclaim, not to punish, no undue harshness is employed.

During my stay in Holland, I heard of the practice of incarcerating and reclaiming ne'erdoweels. At Rotterdam there are several apartments within the precincts of the Dol Huis, or lunatic asylum, which are employed for this purpose. On the representation of parents, guardians, or other relatives or friends, or by complaint for the public interest, all dissolute and abandoned characters, confirmed drunkards, whether male or female, are consigned for correction to the Dol Huis, where all houseless vagrants, youths who haunt the public thoroughfares, and can show no honest means of subsistence, and others in a deserted miserable condition, are taken hold of by the police, and sent off to one or other of the great industrial penitentiaries, called "home colonies," in a distant part of the country. In Amsterdam, there is a similar asylum or prison. (Maison de Travail) for the incarceration of ne'erdoweels of both sexes, and which is also useful as a house of refuge, or place in which work and subsistence may be had for a short period by persons in destitute circumstances.

These continental practices might not be strictly suitable in this country, but they afford a hint for something of the kind; and the subject is of such importance as to be well worthy of consideration.

POPULAR INFORMATION ON SCIENCE.

RED-COLOURED RAIN.

The following curious and important narrative, which is extracted from 'Gassendi's Life of Peiresc,' throws some light upon a subject which has not unfrequently excited the wonder and the attention of the learned. It affords, also, a good illustration of the way in which remarkable phenomena were popularly accounted for two centuries ago.

Through the whole of this year [1608] nothing gave M. Peirsec greater pleasure than his observations upon the *bloody rain*, said to have fallen the beginning of July. Large drops were seen both upon the walls of the cemetery of the greater church, which is near the walls of the city, upon the city [Aix, it is presumed], and likewise upon the walls of villas, hamlets and towns, for some miles round the city. In the first place, M. Peiresc went to examine the drops themselves, with which the stones were reddened, and spared no pains to obtain the means of conversing with some husbandmen beyond Lambese, who were reported to have been so astonished at the shower as to leave their labour and fly for safety into the neighbouring houses. This story he ascertained to be without foundation.

To the explanations offered by the philosophers, who said that the rain might come from vapours, which had been raised out of *red* earth, he objected that evaporated fluids do not retain their former hues, as is plainly exemplified in the colourless water distilled from red roses. Nor was he better satisfied with the opinion of the vulgar, countenanced by some of the theologians, who maintained that the appearance was produced by demons, or witches, shedding the blood of innocent babes. This he thought was a mere conjecture, scarcely reconcilable with the goodness and providence of God. In the mean time, an accident happened, which discovered to him, as he thought, the true cause of the phenomenon. He had found, some months before, a chrysalis of a remarkable size and form, which he had inclosed in a box. He thought no more of it until, hearing a buzz within the box, he opened it and perceived that the chrysalis had been changed into a beautiful butterfly, which immediately flew away, leaving at the bottom of the box a red drop of the size of a shilling

As this happened about the time when the shower was supposed to have fallen, and a vast multitude of those insects were observed fluttering through the air in every direction, he concluded that the drops in question were some kind of excrementitious matter emitted by them when they alighted upon the walls. He therefore examined the drops again, and remarked that they were not upon the upper surfaces of stones and buildings, as they would have been if a shower of blood had fallen from the sky, but rather in cavities and holes where insects might nestle. Beside this, he took notice that they were to be seen upon the walls of those houses only which were near the fields, and not upon the more elevated parts of them, but only up to the same moderate height at which the butterflies were accustomed to flutter. In this way he explained the story, told by Gregory of Tours, of a bloody shower seen at Paris in the time of Childebert, at different places, and upon a house in the vicinity of Seulis; and another, said to have fallen in the time of King Robert, about the end of June, the drops of which could not be washed out by means of water, when they had fallen upon flesh, garments or stones, but might be washed out from wood; for the time there stated was the season for the butterflies, and he showed that no water could wash out these red marks from stones.

After discussing these and similar arguments in the presence of much company, at the house of his friend Varius, they determined to inspect the appearance together; and as they wandered through the fields, they saw many drops upon the stones and rocks, but only in hollows, or upon sloping surfaces, and not upon those which were presented to the sky. It is perhaps only necessary to observe, that the phenomenon here described was no doubt correctly accounted for. The butterfly observed by Peiresc is supposed to have been the common butterfly of our own fields. It has been observed to deposit the same red sort of fluid in England.

But although Peirsec satisfactorily explained the appearance which came under his own observation, it is not to be taken for granted that all such blood-like phenomena are caused by the sloughing of in sects. In the Philosophical Journal for 1830, there is a translation from the German of Mr Ehrenberg, of an elaborate essay, in which the author shows that the appearances which have at different times been observed in Egypt, Arabia, and Siberia, and other places, are not to be attributed to one, but various causes. Beginning with the most ancient account of blood-coloured water in the books of the Jewish legislator, he succinctly notices the various descriptions of the phenomenon which are given us in the works of ancient and modern writers, ending with the red and orange-coloured snow of Captains Parry, Ross, and Scoresby, and his own observations of the blood-red waters of Siberia.

From his statement it appears there is sufficient evidence for believing that rivers have flowed suddenly with red or bloody water, without any previous rain of that colour having fallen: that lakes or stagnant waters were suddenly or gradually coloured without previous blood-rain: that meteoric substances, which are usually colourless—dew, rain, snow, hail, and what are called shot-stars, fall from the air red-coloured, as blood-dew, blood-rain, and clotted blood, without the atmosphere being obscured by the red dust. And lastly, that the atmosphere is occasionally loaded with red dust, by which the rain accidentally assumes the appearance of blood-rain, in consequence of which, rivers and stagnant waters assume a red colour. Into the author's various details we need not enter.

The blood-red colour which pools sometimes exhibit was first satisfactorily explained by Girod Chantran about the close of the last century. Observing the water of a pond to be of a brilliant red colour, it occurred to him not only to prove the colour of the water chemically, but also to observe it with the microscope. He found that the sanguine hue resulted from the presence of innumerable animalculæ not visible to the naked eye.

A German philosopher of the name of Weber, who had witnessed the same phenomenon, had accounted for it in the same manner a few years before the Frenchman. But previously to the investigations of either, several philosophers, among others Linnæus, had shown that red infusoria were capable of giving that colour to water which in early times was supposed to forebode great calamities, and to throw whole districts and communities into the greatest alarm. One of the latest instances of this superstitious dread occurred in 1815, when an appearance of the above description was seen in a lake near to Lubotin, in the south of Prussia. Red, violet, or green spots, were observed in the lake, about the end of harvest. In winter the ice was coloured in this manner three lines in thickness on the surface, while beneath it was colourless. The inhabitants in the neighbourhood, like the Greeks and Arabians of former times who had witnessed something of the same kind, prognosticated great misfortunes from the appearance. It fortunately happened that the celebrated chemist Klaproth was then actively engaged in his researches, and he took an opportunity of ascertaining the chemical ingredients of the colour. He found that an albuminous vegetable matter, with a particular colouring matter very similar to indigo, caused the appearance, and concluded that these were produced by the decomposition of vegetables in harvest. The transition of colour from green to violet and red, this philoospher explained by the absorption of more or less oxygen. Thus both animals and vegetables are concerned in giving a particular tinge to water

Scoresby mentions, that in 1820 he observed the water of the Greenland Sea striped alternately with green and blue, and that the particular colours were produced by small animalculæ. The red snow seen by Captain Ross, during his northern voyage in 1818–20, excited much attention at the time, but it now ceased to be a marvel. In Baffin's Bay he found red mountains six miles in length and six hundred feet in height, the colour of which was caused by large flakes of snow resting upon them. The colouring matter was collected, and on experiment found to be a vegetable substance; and botanists unanimously declare that it is not a decomposed dead substance, but a living vegetable organisation How it came there, is not so easily settled; the most plausible supposition is, that these minute plants are foreign bodies wafted from another situation and deposited in the snow, &c., by the melting of which they collect in masses, and thus produce the red coloured patches. The cases in which atmospheric dust colours the earth as well as water, are less satisfactory, and need not be described. The blood-red waters of a Siberian lake were carefully examined by Mr Ehrenberg, and found to contain multitudes of infusoria, by the presence of which this very striking phenomenon is accounted for.

SKETCHES OF SUPERSTITIONS.

GREEK SUPERSTITIONS.

Mankind have in all ages been prone to the most lamentable superstitions. The enlightened nations of antiquity were no more exempted from them than the most ignorant. The Jews, as we are repeatedly informed in Scripture, could with difficulty be restrained from idolatrous and superstitious practices, and confined to the worship and service of the only true God. This remarkable tendency of the Hebrew nation was in all likelihood caused by their sojourn for the space of four hundred years among the Egyptians, whose whole system of religion was a mass of idolatrous observance. They had a number of ideal gods to whom they erected temples of prodigious size and architectural splendour; the principal of these deities were Osiris and Isis, which are thought to have been typical of the sun and moon. But they also offered worship to various animals, as the ox or bull (hence the golden calf of the Hebrews), to which they gave the name of Apis; the dog, the wolf, the hawk, the ibis or stork, the cat, and other creatures; they likewise paid adoration to the Nile, personifying it in the crocodile, to which temples were erected, and priests set apart for its service. The Egyptians, notwithstanding their learning, also believed in dreams, lucky and unlucky days, omens, charms, and magic. In a word, they were grossly superstitious, and seem to have had but a feeble conception, if any, of the laws which regulate the ordinary phenomena of nature

The absurdities of Egyptian superstition formed a basis for what followed in Greece and Rome. The colonisation of the Grecian states occurred about the period that Moses led forth the Jewish host from the land of the Pharaohs (1490 years before Christ), and Egypt at that period was at the height of its civilisation and its superstition. The mythology and superstitious observances of the Greeks deserve to be particularly noticed, both as a matter of amusement and instruction. In the first place, they had no idea of an omnipresent and omnipotent God, the creator and ruler of the universe. Their notions of divinity, like those of other pagans, were grovelling and contemptible. The gods whom they adored were imagined to have been at one period rulers or heroes on earth, and still had their habitation somewhere within the Grecian territory, or at no great distance from it. It may be premised that we should have known little of this monstrous system of belief but for the numerous allusions to the gods, their character and pursuits, in the works of the Greek and Roman poets, and also the various sculptured figures and representations which have been brought to light in modern times. Of the innumerable imaginary beings who were thus held in religious reverence, Jupiter was the chief. According to the stories told of him, Jupiter was the son of Saturn, a god who had been compelled by a powerful and tyrannical brother, named Titan, to promise that he would destroy all his male children. This promise Saturn for some time fulfilled, by devouring his sons as soon as they were born; but, at last, Rhea, his wife, contrived to conceal the birth of Jupiter, Neptune, and Pluto, who thus escaped the fate of their brethren. On discovering that Saturn had male offspring alive in contravention of his engagement, Titan deposed him from his authority, and cast him into prison. But Jupiter, having grown up to manhood, overcame Titan in turn, and restored Saturn to his throne. These vicissitudes, it is to be observed, and others that befell the early divinities, were the result of the decrees of Fate: a power over which the heathen gods are represented as having had no control. Notwithstanding this filial conduct of Jupiter, he afterwards quarrelled with his father, whom he dethroned and chased into Italy, where Saturn is said to have passed his time in a quiet and useful manner, occupied solely in teaching the rude inhabitants to cultivate and improve the soil. He was afterwards known (under the name of Chronos) as the god of Time, and was usually represented under the figure of an old man holding in one hand a scythe, and in the other a serpent with its tail in its mouth, in allusion to the destructive influence of time, and the endless succession of the seasons. The rule of Saturn in Italy

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was productive of so much happiness, that the period ever afterwards was called the Golden Age. After Saturn had been driven into exile, his three sons divided his dominions amongst them. Jupiter reserved to himself the sovereignty of the heavens and the earth, Neptune obtained the empire of the sea, and Pluto received as his share the sceptre of the infernal regions. Jupiter did not, however, enjoy unmolested his supreme dignity, for the offspring of Titan, a race of terrible giants, set the new deity at defiance, and by piling the mountains named Pelion and Ossa on the top of one another, endeavoured to ascend into heaven to pluck him from his throne. The gods, in great alarm, fled from their divine abode on Mount Olympus into Egypt, where they concealed their true character, by assuming the forms of various animals; but Jupiter, assisted by Hercules, at last succeeded in destroying the giants, and re-asserting his sovereign sway. Jupiter is always represented on a throne, with thunderbolts in his right hand, and an eagle by his side.

Jupiter took in marriage his sister Juno, who is described as a beautiful but ill-tempered goddess, and is usually depicted as seated in a chariot drawn by two peacocks. Neptune, the brother of Jupiter, and god of the ocean, is painted as a half-naked man, of majestic figure, with a crown on his head, and a trident or three-pronged fork in his hand, drawn in a car over the sea by water-horses. Pluto the remaining brother of Jupiter, and god of the infernal regions, was painted by the Greeks as seated on a throne with his wife Proserpine by his side, and the three-headed dog Cerberus before him. Nine of the most important of the deities were considered as the children of Jupiter. Apollo was the god of music, poetry, painting, and medicine: he was represented as a young man, of great elegance of person, with a bow in his hand, and a quiver of arrows at his back. Mars, the god of war, is drawn as an armed man in a car, with an inferior female deity, named Bellona, by his side. Bacchus was the god of wine, and was usually represented as a young man, with a cup in one hand, and a spear called a thyrsus in the other. His name has given rise to many phrases in our language, expressive of circumstances connected with drinking. Mercury was the messenger of Jupiter, and the god of oratory, of merchandise, and of thieving. He was represented as a youth flying along the air, with wings at his cap and heels, and a peculiar wand called a caduceus in his hand. Minerva, the goddess of wisdom, was painted as a female of severe aspect, armed on the head and breast, and bearing a spear and shield, while an owl sits by her side. Venus, the goddess of beauty and love, was depicted as a handsome woman, in undress. Diana, the goddess of hunting and of chastity, appeared as a beautiful female, with bow and arrow in her hands, buskins on her limbs, and a crescent on her forehead. Hebe, the goddess of youth, took the form of a blooming young girl, and was said to bear the cup of Jupiter. Another of the children of Jupiter was Vulcan, who, being of ungainly form, and disagreeable in the eyes of his father, was cruelly thrust by him out of heaven, so that he fell on the isle of Lesbos, and, breaking a limb, was lame ever after. On earth Vulcan employed himself as an artificer in iron, and hence he has been assumed as the patron of blacksmiths. Jupiter is said to have employed him in fabricating his thunderbolts. The gay goddess Venus is represented as married to this homely deity, to whom she occasioned much uneasiness by the levity of her conduct. The workshop of Vulcan was believed to be underneath the burning mountain Ætna, in Sicily; and the term *volcano* is derived from that circumstance.

Besides the other attributes and avocations of Apollo, he was the deity of the Sun, having the task confided to him of guiding that luminary in its diurnal course through the heavens. His sister, Diana, had a similar charge over the moon. Apollo, or Phœbus, as he was also named, had a son called Phaethon, who, being, like many other young people, self-confident and rash, took advantage of the indulgent disposition of his father to obtain from him the charge of the chariot of the sun for one day. But Phaethon had not travelled far on his journey up the heavens, when his fiery steeds became unmanageable, and, running away with the sun, they descended so close to the earth, that that body was set on fire. Jupiter perceived what had happened, and fearing that the whole universe would be consumed, he struck Phaethon dead with a thunderbolt; then, after a good deal of trouble, he extinguished the dangerous conflagration, and set the sun once more on its usual course. Notwithstanding Apollo's care of the sun, that luminary, on its rising, was the special charge of Aurora, who was called the goddess of the morning or dawn—hence the common flowery expression, "the beams of Aurora rising in the east, tipping the distant hills with their golden hues." None of the heathen deities is more frequently referred to than Cupid, the god of love. He was the son of Venus, and bore the aspect of a beautiful boy. He had a pair of wings, and was furnished with a bow and a quiver of arrows, which he shot into the hearts of those whom he wished to inflame with the tender passion over which he had control. So great was his power, that he could tame the most ferocious animals, and break in pieces the thunderbolts of Jupiter himself.

There was a number of divinities of minor importance. Hymen was the god of marriage, and was represented with a crown of flowers on his head, and a lighted torch in his hand. Æolus was the god of the winds, which he kept confined in caverns, except at such times as he chose to let them loose upon the world. Pan was the god of the country. He was flat-nosed and horned, and he had legs, feet, and a tail, resembling those of a goat. His favourite haunt was the vales of Arcadia, where he attracted the shepherds around him in admiration by the sweet sounds of his rustic pipe. Ceres was the goddess of agriculture, and had a beautiful daughter, named Proserpine, who was carried off by Pluto while she was gathering flowers on the plains of Sicily, and installed as the queen of the infernal regions. Ceres, in despair at the loss of her daughter, and uncertain as to her fate, lighted a torch at Mount Ætna, and sought for her over the whole earth. In the course of her wanderings she arrived in Attica, and, finding its inhabitants ignorant of husbandry, furnished them with grain, and taught them how to cultivate their fields. She at the same time instituted the secret religious ceremonies at Eleusis, which were afterwards known by the name of the *Eleusinian Mysteries*. Ceres then continued her search for her daughter, and at length obtained information of what had happened to her. She immediately ascended to heaven, and demanded redress from Jupiter, who promised to compel Pluto to restore Proserpine, provided she had eaten nothing since her descent into hell. On inquiry, it was ascertained that she had eaten some pomegranates, so that her return to the upper world was, according to the laws of the infernal regions, impracticable. But Jupiter, compassionating her disconsolate parent, ordained that Proserpine should divide her time between her mother and her husband, residing six months with each, alternately. Astræa was the goddess of justice, and during the golden age, when men were virtuous and happy, she dwelt, like many other deities, on earth; but after the world became wicked, she bade it a sorrowful farewell, and, ascending to heaven, was transformed into the sign of the zodiac which is named *Virgo*, or the Virgin. Themis was the goddess of law, and, after the departure of Astræa, she had also to sustain, as well as she was able, the character of the goddess of justice. We see in this, as in some other fables, no small degree of meaning.

Inexorable destiny, which governs all things, was personified by three sisters, called *The Fates*, who represented the Past, the Present, and the Future. They were poetically described as constantly employed in spinning the thread of human life. One held the distaff, another span, and the third cut the thread when it had reached its appointed length. To the decrees of these stern sisters even Jupiter himself was obliged to bend, and his thunders, which affrighted all the other divinities, were heard by them undisturbed. The *Furies* were also three in number, and to them belonged the task of punishing the guilty both on earth and in hell. Instead of hair, their heads were covered with serpents, and their looks were fierce and terrible. Each of these sister-furies waved a torch in one hand, while the other wielded a scourge. The latter instrument inflicted remorseless punishment on those who had incurred the anger of the gods. Wars, famine, and pestilence—the penalty of vice and crime—proceeded from these dread sisters, and *Grief*, *Terror*, and *Madness*, were painted as their inseparable followers. These avengers of guilt form a striking contrast to another sisterly trio, to whom the ancients gave the name of *The Graces*. The Graces were named Aglaia, Thalia, and Euphrosyne, and their aspect and attributes corresponded with the common name they bore. They were the daughters of Bacchus and Venus, and were usually represented as unattired, and linked in each other's arms. The nine *Muses* were named Thalia, Melpomene, Calliope, Clio, Erato, Euterpe, Polyhymnia, Terpsichore, and Urania. They were the patronesses of literature and the fine arts, and resided on Parnassus, a lofty mountain in the district of Phocis. Thalia presided over comedy; Melpomene over tragedy; Erato over amatory poetry; Polyhymnia over lyric poetry; Calliope over heroic or epic poetry and eloquence; Clio over history; Euterpe over music; Terpsichore over dancing; and Urania over the study of astronomy.

There was a class of demi-gods, who filled imaginary places in every corner both of earth and sea. The shady groves and flowery vales were peopled by Dryads or wood-nymphs, and Satyrs, a species of rural deities, who, like Pan, had the horns, legs, and feet of a goat. Mountains and streams possessed their guardian gods and goddesses, and every fountain had its Näiad or water-nymph. The lively imagination of the Greeks made them consider the thunder as the voice of Jupiter; the soft breezes of summer were to them the movement of the wing of Æolus; the echo of the forest was the voice of a goddess, and the gentle murmur of the streamlet sounded as the tones of its presiding deity. In short, wherever sound or sight in nature charmed their fancy, the Greeks ascribed the pleasure to the agency of unseen, but beautiful and immortal, beings. Even the meanest things and offices had their presiding deities; their was a goddess of common sewers and sinks. Beyond this it would be impossible to go.

Whether the deities of the Greeks were of superior or inferior importance, they were believed to mingle invisibly in the affairs of mortals, and frequently to lend their assistance in the promotion of schemes of vice and villany. They were animated by envy, malice, and all the evil passions to which men are subject, and they did not hesitate to adopt any measures, however base, to gratify their nefarious purposes. Even Jupiter, the king of heaven, is described as having acted a very profligate part. A belief in immortality, and of a future state of rewards and punishments, formed a part of the Greek religion. Immortality was figured in their temples by a butterfly (called Psyche), that animal by its transformations, being, as they thought, typical of the changes which the human being must undergo. They imagined, that, after death, the souls of men descended to the shores of a dismal and pestilential stream, called the Styx, where Charon, a grim-looking personage, acted as ferryman, and rowed the spirits of the dead across the melancholy river, the boundary of the dominions of Pluto. To obtain a passage in Charon's boat, it was necessary that the deceased should have been buried. Those who were drowned at sea, or who were in any other manner deprived of the customary rites of sepulture, were compelled to wander about on the banks of the Styx for a hundred years, before being permitted to cross it. After quitting the vessel of Charon, the trembling shades advanced to the palace of Pluto, the gate of which was guarded by a monstrous dog, named Cerberus, which had three heads, and a body covered with snakes instead of hair. They then appeared before Minos, Rhadamanthus and Acanthus, the three judges of the infernal regions, by whom the wicked were condemned to torments, and the good rewarded with heavenly pleasures.

Tartarus, the place of punishment, was the abode of darkness and horror. There Tantalus, for a vile crime done in life, remained perpetually surrounded with water, which fled from his lips whenever he attempted to quench his burning thirst, while over his head hung branches laden with the most inviting fruits, which shrunk from his grasp as often as he stretched out his hand to pluck them. There also was Ixion bound with serpents to the rim of a wheel, which, constantly revolving, allowed no cessation of his agonies. Another variety of punishment was allotted to Sisyphus, who was condemned to the endless task of rolling a huge stone up the side of a steep mountain, which he had no sooner accomplished than it rolled down again to its former place. On one side criminals were writhing under the merciless lash of the avenging furies, and on another were to be seen wretches surrounded with unquenchable flames. Elysium, the abode of the blessed, was a region of surpassing loveliness and pleasure. Groves of the richest verdure, and streams of silvery clearness, were to be met with on every side. The air was pure, serene, and temperate; the birds continually warbled in the woods, and a brighter light than that of the sun was diffused throughout that happy land. No cares nor sorrows could disturb its inhabitants, who spent their time in the enjoyment of those pleasures they had loved on earth, or in admiring the wisdom and power of the gods.

The Greeks were pre-eminently an imaginative people, and, accordingly, both their mythology and their religious rites were calculated rather to amuse the fancy than to interest or improve the understanding. Their public worship was altogether ceremonial. In magnificent temples they invoked and offered sacrifices to the gods, and the solemn festivals of their religion consisted of pompous processions, public games, dramatic entertainments, feasting, and masquerading. To these were added, in the worship of Bacchus, drunkenness, indecency, uproar, and every species of licentiousness. It was no business of the priests to inculcate lessons of morality; the only doctrine taught by them was, that the gods demanded slavish adulation, and an outward show of reverence from their worshippers, who would be rewarded with the divine favour in proportion to the abundance and costliness of their offerings. Besides the public services of religion, there were certain secret rites, performed only by the initiated, in honour of particular divinities. The most remarkable of these mystical observances were the feasts celebrated at Eleusis, in Attica, in honour of the goddess Ceres. They were called, by way of eminence, *The Mysteries*; and all who were initiated in them, were bound by the most solemn oaths never to reveal them. The Athenians alone were admissible to the Eleusinian rites, and they were very careful to avail themselves of their peculiar privileges, believing that those who died without initiation would be condemned to wallow for ever in mud and filth in the infernal regions. The penalty of death was denounced against all who should divulge these mysteries, or who should witness them without being regularly initiated; but, notwithstanding the rigorous manner in which this law was enforced, sufficient disclosures have been made concerning them, to prove that they consisted principally of such mystical ceremonies, and optical delusions, as were fitted to excite the superstitious veneration and dread of the bewil-

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dered votaries. Processions, gymnastic contests, music, and dancing, constituted an indispensable part of this religious festival, as of others, and the nocturnal orgies of the devotees were scarcely less extravagant and immoral than those of the Bacchanalians.

The gods were supposed to communicate with men, and to reveal the secrets of futurity by means of oracles, several of which existed in various parts of Greece. An account of these oracles, and other parts of the Greek, as well as the Roman, superstition, will form the subject of another sketch.

ANIMAL COTTON.

In an age when fine loaves of bread are manufactured from sawdust, and superior wine from rhubarb and turnips, it is surprising that but little advantage has been taken of the natural production of an insect very common and much dreaded in the West Indies, the Capada worm or insect fly-carrier. It is a deadly enemy to the indigo and capada plantations, sometimes destroying whole fields in a night; a circumstance which gave rise to a saying once current in the western hemisphere, that the planters of indigo go to bed rich, and rise in the morning beggars. Attention has been turned more to the most efficient methods of destroying the animal, than to turning it some useful purpose. Yet this might easily be done, for in a certain state it produces a substance which appears to be equal, if not superior, to the finest silk or cotton. It is of the most dazzling whiteness and the greatest purity, answering the purpose of lint in the hospitals of the negroes, when silk and vegetable cotton serve only to inflame wounds, by the asperities of their filaments. We abridge an account of it from Burt's "Observations on the Curiosities of Nature," a very bad title for an ingenious book.

The capada worm, or insect fly-carrier, is produced, like the silk-worm, from the eggs which its mother scatters every where, after she has undergone her metamorphosis into a white butterfly. It begins to live at the end of July, and at its birth is arrayed in a robe of the most brilliant and variegated colours. When on the point of undergoing its metamorphosis in August, it throws off this superb livery, and puts on another of an admirable sea-green hue. This fundamental colour reflects all its various shades, according to the different undulations of the animal, and the different accidents of light; but this new decoration announces the approach of a period when it is doomed to undergo great tortures It is immediately assailed by a swarm of ichneumon flies, one of which inserts itself into each of the pores of its body, not an opening being left unoccupied. All its struggles to get free of its tormentors are in vain. These flies, which are so small that they can only be studied by the microscope, drive their stings into the skin of their victim, over the whole extent of its back and sides. Afterwards, and all at the same moment, they slip their eggs into the bottom of the wounds which they have inflicted. No sooner is this operation performed, than the ichneumon flies disappear, and the patient remains for an hour in a drowsy and even motionless state, out of which it awakens to feed with its former voracity. It then appears much larger, and its size increases every day. Its green colour assumes a deeper hue, and the tints produced by the reflection of the light are more strongly marked. About a fortnight after the worm has been encumbered with this factitious pregnancy, the prospect of a numerous progeny begins to be apparent. By the aid of a microscope the eggs may be seen hatching in the body of the animal; and as they are all produced at the same instant, a single glance reveals the capada worm covered with a living robe of ichneumon flies. They issue from every pore, all the body being covered with them, only the top of the head appearing bare. Its colour then changes to dirty white, and the little worms assume a black appearance to the eye, although their true colour is a deep brown. This operation lasts about an hour, and it is followed by another, which is not much more protracted, but still more singular.

Immediately that the ichneumon worms are hatched, without quitting the spot where they separate themselves from the eggs, they yield a liquid gum, which becomes solid on exposure to the air. At the same time, and by a simultaneous motion, they elevate themselves on their lower extremities, shake their heads and one half of their bodies, and swing themselves in every direction. And now they commence a very curious operation. Each of these animalcules works himself a small and almost imperceptible cocoon in the shape of an egg, in which he wraps himself up. The formation of these cocoons occupies only about two hours, and myriads of them being crowded close together, form a white robe, with which the capada worm appears elegantly and comfortably clothed; but while they are thus busily arraying him in his new attire, he remains apparently unconscious of their assiduities—he is then in a state of insect paralysis. As soon as this covering has been completed, and the little artists who wove it have retired to their cells, the worm endeavours to rid himself of his officious guests, and of the robe which contains them. but he does not succeed in the attempt without the greatest efforts. At length he contrives to get rid of the encumbrance; but instead of his former fat and shining appearance, he presents all the decrepitude of extreme old age. He is flaccid and dull; his skin is wrinkled and dirty; and, in short, symptoms of approaching dissolution begin to show themselves. He still makes a desperate attempt to gnaw a few leaves, but he no longer devours them with that voracity which indicates a vigorous constitution. Shortly afterwards he passes into the state of a chrysalis, and in giving life to thousands of eggs, he relinquishes his own. The cotton produced in this remarkable manner may be used without any preparatory process, as soon as the flies have quitted the cocoons, which is generally eight or ten days after their seclusion. Indeed, there is no need for the precautions which the silk-worm requires, the robe which covers the fly-carrier being worked every where so perfectly well, and in such abundance, that in less than two hours the quantity of one hundred pints has been collected. This highly interesting animal certainly deserves some attention, for we are not aware that any has been given to it, except in so far as its destruction was concerned. We know not that experiments have been made to weave this silky substance into a wearable tissue, but if the description which we have given above be correct (and there is no reason to doubt but it is), there seems no obstacle to its being used for this purpose.

We may here notice a singular fact, established by Dr Mitchell of New York, that vegetable fungi grow on the bodies of living insects. He states that these vegetable productions are not peculiar to one insect, but are to be found on the bodies of the wasp, sphynx, and others; that the bodies of insects nourish more than one species of vegetable fungi; that some of these parasitical plants begin their work of annoyance, like the larvæ of the ichneumon, in the body of the living insect, and continue it till the animal is killed by its destructive operations; that these mixed associations of vegetable with animal life are not prone to rapid putrefaction, but remain long enough to be collected by naturalists, and become the objects of scientific investigation. Dr. Mitchell seems to be of opinion that vegetable fungi, in attaching to the insect class of animals, perform an important purpose in the economy of nature, by preventing the inordinate increase of such animals.

INDIAN ANECDOTES.

A curious anecdote was cited in one of our late numbers from "Forbes Oriental Memoirs," and occasion was then taken to mention the high merits of this work, which was first published a good many years ago. A new edition appeared in 1834, under the superintendence of the author's only daughter, the Countess de Montalembert, and we take the liberty of again making an extract or two from the ample store of entertaining anecdotes which this publication contains.

In various pages of his Memoirs, Mr. Forbes notices the ordeal trials, of which nine different kinds are practised by the Hindoos, and which the British authorities are compelled in some cases to sanction. The trials are often successful in detecting guilt, and that in so striking a manner that it is only by calling to mind the slight-of-hand dexterity of the Hindoos, and the potent influence of imagination, that we can explain some of the cases of this nature. "Residing in a family in Surat, (says Mr. Forbes), my sister lost a gold watch, on which she set a particular value. Several modes of divination were practised to discover the thief; one was similar to that used among the ancient Chaldeans, and Egyptians, and perhaps not unlike the cup of divination belonging to the viceroy of Egypt found among the shepherds of Canaan. On this occasion the name of every person in the house was placed in a separate ball of paste or wax, and thrown into a vessel of water. One only swam on the surface; the rest fell to the bottom and there remained. On opening the floating ball, it contained the name of an unsuspected female, who immediately confessed she had stolen and secreted the watch. Supposing this to be like all other Asiatic juggles, I thought little about it; but afterwards, at Baroche, I attended minutely to an ordeal in which myself, and my head gardener Harabhy, were more immediately concerned.

On removing from our country house at Baroche to Surat, we packed up most of our things, and placed them in the front verandah. An iron chest was, for greater security, deposited in an inner room, near that where the family slept: we saw it there when we retired to rest, and in the morning it was missing. The contents being valuable, and the time of our departure near, we used every means to discover so extraordinary a robbery, in which, from the weight of the chest, three or four persons must have been concerned. Promises and threatenings were of no avail; the delinquents were concealed. I suspected an individual, but not knowing how he could have accomplished the robbery, I remained silent. The public officers belonging to the court of Adawlet not being able to discover the robber, at the earnest solicitations of all our servants, Hindoos, Mahommedans, and Parsees, we had recourse to divination by balls in water, and our own names were included with the rest. On forming a circle round the vase, I observed the man I suspected to change colour, and become a little agitated: no other person remarked it, until on the balls being immersed in water, one only rose to the surface; his confusion was then evident; still more so when, on opening the ball, it contained the name of Harabhy. This person had lived with us several years as head gardener, without our having any reason to suspect his honesty; he positively *denied* the robbery, and we had no other proof than the ordeal, which, although fully satisfactory to the Indians, was not so to us They requested that neither Harabhy nor any other person might leave the spot until we had gone through the rice ordeal; to this we submitted, though by no means palatable to Harabhy. He reluctantly complied, and with all the rest of us put a few grains of unboiled rice into his mouth; it was previously intimated that from the mouth of the innocent, after mastication, it would come out a milky liquid, from the guilty a dry powder, We were all of the milky party except Harabhy; mingling with the saliva, it became a white fluid with us; with him it remained a dry powder, notwithstanding a number of fruitless efforts to liquify it. He was compelled thus to spit it out; his complexion changed from a rich brown to a livid blue, his lips quivered, and his altered countenance plainly indicated guilt; he would make no confession, and on this evidence we could only put him in confinement under the court of Adawlet, until we obtained further proof. The next day a little slave boy, whom I afterwards brought to England, discovered the bent iron hasp of the plate-chest just appearing out of the steep bank of the Nerbudda, at the end of our garden, about twenty feet above the river, and as much below the summit of the cliff; there we found the chest, buried in the earth. The robbers had attempted to wrench it open, and the clasps fastened by padlocks had given way; but the lock occasioning greater difficulty, they waited for a more favourable opportunity. When the culprit found the chest had been recovered and restored to the owners, and that he had no chance of benefiting by its contents, he confessed that in concert with three other men he had carried it off in the night while our people were asleep, and was in hopes we should have departed without finding it. Profane history abounds with similar ordeals; the bitter water of chastity, and many similar trials in the sacred page, prove their prevalence among the Jews."

Ancient writers give an account of a tree of India, which grew to a marvellous size, sometimes covering a circumference of five acres, and capable of sheltering ten thousand men under its branches. This is no fable. The tree alluded to is the *banian*, one of which is in itself a grove. They are continually increasing in size, and, contrary to most other animal and vegetable productions seem to be exempted from decay; for every branch from the main body throws out its own roots, at first in small tender fibres, several yards from the ground, which continually grow thicker, until, by a gradual descent, they reach its surface, where, striking in, they increase to a large trunk, and become a parent tree, throwing out new branches from the top. These in time suspend their roots, and, receiving nourishment from the earth, swell into new trunks. A banian tree, with many trunks, forms the most beautiful walks, vistas, and cool recesses that can be imagined. I have spent many delightful days, with large parties on rural excursions, under one tree supposed by some persons to be that described by Nearchus, the Admiral of Alexander the Great. High floods have at various times swept away a considerable part of this extraordinary tree; but what still remains is near two thousand feet in circumference, measured round the principal stems; the over hanging branches, not yet struck down, cover a much larger space; and under it grew a number of custard-apple and other fruit-trees. The large trunks of this single tree amount to three hundred and fifty, and the smaller ones exceed three thousand; each of these is constantly sending forth branches and hanging roots, to form other trunks, and become the parents of a future progeny. This magnificent pavilion affords a shelter to all travellers, particularly to the religious tribes of Hindoos, and is generally filled with a variety of birds, snakes, and monkeys; the latter has often diverted me with their antic tricks, especially in their parental affection for their young offspring, by teaching them to select their food and to leap from bough to bough. On a shooting party under this tree, one of my friends killed a female monkey, and carried it to his tent, which was soon surrounded by forty or fifty of the tribe, who, making a great noise, advanced to it in a menancing posture. On presenting his fowling-piece, they retreated, and appeared irresolute; but one, who from his age and station in the van, seemed the head of the troop, stood his ground, chattering and menancing in a furious manner; nor could any efforts less cruel than firing drive him off. He at length approached the tent door, when finding his threatenings were of no avail, he began a lamentable moaning, and by every token of grief and supplication, seemed to beg the body of the deceased. On this, it was given to him. With tender sorrow he took it up in his arms, embraced it with conjugal affection, and carried it off with a sort of triumph to his expecting comrades. The artless behaviour of this poor animal wrought so powerfully on the sportsmen, that they resolved never more to level a gun at one of the monkey race." Under this same banian tree a great chief of the district used frequently to encamp on his excursions in a magnificent style, having a saloon, dining-room, drawing-room, bedchambers, bath, kitchen, and other accommodations, all in separate tents, while his carriages, camels, horses, guards, and attendants, were all sheltered under its "wilderness of shade." Indeed, during the march of an army it has been known to give a covering to *seven thousand* men, without any inconvenient huddling.

Mr. Forbes gives many curious particulars relative to the birds and beasts of Hindostan. The secretary-bird, a large fowl about three feet high, is extremely useful in destroying snakes, which, strange to say, are usually swallowed alive by it, yet, though of a most poisonous nature, appear to be incapable of injuring the coats of the stomach with their fangs. "An English gentleman, being out on a shooting excursion, killed a secretary-bird, which he carried home with the intention of having an accurate drawing made of it. He threw it on the floor of the balcony near the house, where, after it had remained some time, and been examined and tossed about, one of the company observed the head of a large snake pushing open the bill, ont of which it speedily crawled in perfect vigour, and free from any injury. On the supposition that others might still be in the stomach, the bird was suspended

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by the legs, and presently a second made its appearance, as large and as lively as the first. The bird was afterwards opened, when the stomach was found to contain seven dead snakes, with a half digested mass of lizards, scorpions, scolopendræ, centipedes, and beetles." This passage is quoted by Mr. Forbes from another traveller, "A beautiful bird of Hindostan, the baya, forms its nest in a very ingenious manner, by long grass woven together in the shape of a bottle, with the neck hanging downwards, and suspended by the other end to the extremity of a flexible branch, the more effectually to secure the eggs and young brood from serpents, monkeys, squirrels (their most deadly enemy), and from birds of prey. These nests contain several apartments, appropriated to different purposes; in one the hen performs the office of incubation; another, consisting of a little thatched roof, and covering a perch, without a bottom, is occupied by the male, who with his chirping cheers the female during her maternal duties. The Hindoos are very fond of these birds, which they teach to fetch and carry; and at the time when young women resort to the public fountains, their lovers instruct the baya to pluck the tica, or golden ornament from the forehead of their favourite, and bring it to their expecting master."

THE GOVERNMENT CLERK.

[From "Heads of the French," now pubishing.]

In France there are as many varieties of Clerks as naturalists ascribe to the *Lepidoptera*; but notwithstanding the thousand shades of difference, there are amongst them, to the keen and careful observer, great points of resemblance and striking analogies; in whatever grade of administrative department they may be engaged, they have all in view one single object, one fixed idea, one common destiny.

Let us explain in a few words the routine of the Clerk's life. At thirty, having a salary of eighteen hundred francs a-year, he marries an heiress with a fortune of six or eight hundred more; he takes a lodging, which must not cost him more than four hundred francs, at the farther extremity of the Marais, or in one of the suburbs of Paris. He walks every day five miles to go to his office, and there fill up registers, copy letters, sort and arrange heaps of papers, deliver game-licences, passports, receipts, and warrants—or again, to register those who arrive and those who depart; to make out the conscription lists; to plan a bridge for this town, a school for the other, and a cavalry-barrack for a third; to circulate the thoughts and stories originating in Paris over France and Europe; from his leathern arm-chair, to keep a vigilant watch on the motions of such a gambler or such a criminal, or the progress of such a conspiracy, and what not besides. Others must have an eye on the thirty-eight thousand French boroughs, to ascertain and provide for their wants, their wishes, their opinions, or all that relates to politics, trade, the public good, religion, morals, the preservation of health, and a thousand other things. Such are the Clerk's multifarious duties six hours of six days of the week. Sunday comes, on which day he does not rise till ten, and shaves much later than usual. Towards three he quits his dull suburb, and starts with his wife for Paris, where they walk two hours for an appetite, and dine for two francs at Richefeu's, on *perdrix aux choux*, a *salade de homard*, a *sole au gratin*, with a *meringue a la creme* for a dessert. After dinner they go in summer to the Champs Elyées, and in winter to Musard's Concert. At half-past ten they walk home, where they scarcely arrive before midnight—the poor wife almost dead with fatigue—and thus ends the day.

The class of unmarried Clerks is much more numerous than that of the married. "What is the use of marrying?" say they. "if we marry for love, what misery not to be able to offer to the woman of our choice the thousand amusements, the charming nothings, the jewels, ribbons, and flowers, which go for so much to constitute female happiness! If, on the contrary, we marry, like too many others, merely for convenience, why thrust ourselves, without any compensation whatever, into the hornet's nest of nurses, doctors, and dress-makers' and milliners' bills? Let us try if it be not possible to live otherwise." Thus, alas! it is from poverty that the greater number doom themselves to celibacy, and, perhaps, are thus even more unhappy than those of their brethren who have ventured on matrimony. It is true that the single Clerk is free, and proud of his liberty till he is forty. He dines at the table-d'hôte at thirty-two sous, frequents the public walks, concerts, theatres, *bals champetres*, and otherwise, and is occasionally animated by the fleeting excitement of an adventurous existence. But gradually the scene changes; his hair turns grey, he numbers forty-five winters, and the age of illusions passes away, never to return. Concerts, balls, and plays, amuse him no longer. What is to be done? To what innocent passion can he devote himself? How must he fill up his long summer mornings, his interminable winter evenings? Important questions these! Dining at tables-d'hôte is moreover become insufferable to him. He can no longer endure to meet each day new faces, which he may never see again. Then, if he compare the flavourless soup, and the harmless liquids in which swim the meats at his table-d'hôte, with the delicious dishes and sauces so exquisitely prepared in private families, what a difference suggests itself to his mind! From this time a great change takes place in the single Clerk's life; he renounces the world, its amusements, its brilliant assemblies, to study a science, or devote himself to some quiet mania. He takes either to ornithology or numismatics, collects, minerals, classes butterflies or shells, stuffs to the best of his abilities all his neighbours' dead canary birds, and subscribes to five or six illustrated editions. He ends by engaging a housekeeper, takes his meals at home, and settles down for life as comfortably as he can.

There are shades in the varieties of Clerks, which to dwell upon would be useless, their designation being a sufficient description. Such are the idler, who contrives to work only an hour a-day; the plodder, who is scrupulous of losing an instant; the *malade imaginaire*, who for thirty years fancies himself threatened with serious illness, expecting which he solicits frequent leaves of absence, and is bled and takes medicine regularly every fortnight; the joker, who is always propounding riddles and playing tricks; the flatterer, who is sometimes nicknamed by his fellow-clerks "The Spy," &c. &c. The Pluralist demands a sketch to himself.

The hours of business in a public office are usually from ten to four o'clock. As long as the Clerk remains unmarried, he sleeps or otherwise idles away the eighteen hours' leisure afforded him by government; but when he marries, and children bring poverty, he tries to make the best possible use of his spare time. Then, indeed, his life is the most laborious and varied imaginable. It is hardly six o'clock, when he is already up and copying deeds and abstracts for solicitors; he colours prints, gives lessons in drawing, or on the French horn, or perhaps writes articles for the pictorial magazines, or scribbles novels or compilations at fifty francs a volume, according to his intelligence or inclination. From ten till four he is at his office. His dinner over, at six he betakes himself to some theatre on the Boulevard, to play the bassoon; or, if he is no musician, he employs his evening in keeping the books of some tailor, grocer, or any other shopkeeper in his neighbourhood. Such is his daily existence till eleven o'clock. Poor victim to marriage!—what industry!—what self-denial! Setting these aside—thanks to his unremitting exertion for seventeen hours per diem—the pluralist Clerk succeeds in providing food and clothing for his wife and children, and adds eight or nine hundred francs to his government salary of fifteen hundred.

[The Government Clerk at length retires from the desk.] He has served thirty years: the period for his retirement has arrived; but, alas! here again are new grievances and fresh disappointment. In his youth, the Clerk is ever pining for the day when he shall retire, break his chain, recover his liberty, his independence, his freedom of speech, &c. When the time really arrives, his language is no longer the same. He resembles the Woodman in the presence of Death, in the fable. "What, already!" cries he. "What tyrannical injustice! I have scarcely began to reap the fruits of my labour, and now I am dismissed; and with the stroke of a pen goes the one-half of my income! I who took so much pleasure in framing reports, auditing accounts, writing dispatches, &c. What is to become of me?" The Clerk than invariably forgets that there was a time when he was indignant that the old should bar the road to the young. However, retire he must, willingly or unwillingly, in spite of all appeal; and if his children are all provided for, and there is nothing to keep him in Paris, he usually retires to some small town in its immediate vicinity, and not unfrequently lives till he is eighty—happy when his savings have enabled him to purchase an acre of land, and subscribe, conjointly with the mayor of the place, to the oldest of the opposition newspapers.

There are some sad exceptions to this resignation and longevity. "Have you heard the news?" says sometimes one of the clerks, as he mends his pen, to his comrades in the office. "Have you heard the news of old A——, our pensioned head clerk?"

"No. What of him?"

"You know that he retired to the environs of Chantilly, at the entrance of a charming village, surrounded by magnificent vegetation; but it was the verdure of his papers, not that of the fields, that he cared for, poor man! As soon as he had ceased to see them about him, his health began to decline; he lingered six months; he who used to be so contented and happy in his office! His spirits entirely forsook him; a slow disease gradually undermined his health, and wore his body to a shadow."

"And how is he now?"

"Very well: he died yesterday!"

TASTE FOR MUSIC IN GERMANY.

There exist in Germany particular bodies of craftsmen, among the members of which music is cultivated with more than common zeal. Such is the case, for instance, in some china manufactories at Echternach, at Metloch, on the banks of the Sarre. The miners are, in particular, distinguished by their knowledge of music. * * What seems more surprising is, to find the art cultivated in localities entirely deprived of the means of instruction. They told us of a man who, without having ever had the least instruction in music, had learned it alone, and seemed to have fed his children with it, at an age when most children are fed on milk only. We had great desire to know him, and prolonged our journey in Tyrol, as far as Berchtesgaden, in the neighbourhood of Salzburg.

* * On our road to the dwelling which had been pointed out to us, we heard some Tyrolean songs, often accompanied on the *Zitter* (cittern?). At last we arrived at the cottage; it was shut up. We knocked in vain; no one answered us. The whole family, Grassl, his wife, and children, was out on the mountains, occupied in their daily work—that of finding aromatic herbs and wood. This man who had no other means of subsistence than the sale of simples, procured with such hard labour by himself and family, had himself built, with the aid of his wife and children, the little cabin they inhabited: and at evening when they came home, bending under their burdens, they took a frugal meal, and then betook themselves to the study of music, by way of repose and diversion after the labours of the day. Grassl learned the gamut and the time-table, and fathomed the principles of art, without any other assistance than his own wonderful perseverance. Little by little he began to play on the violin, the bassoon, the clarionet, the flute, the octave flute, the trumpet, the keyed trumpet, the horn, and the trombone. Nor is that all: this naturalist in music has inoculated his children with all he knows. * * The Queen of Bavaria, who possesses estates in this district, wished, like ourselves, to know this interesting family. She arrived, with her suite, about six o'clock in the evening. The little family had not returned from its rural labours—some were foddering the cows, some digging up potatoes. The queen had them collected, and when they arrived, without taking time to change their clothes or clean themselves, they ranged themselves round their table; and the poor children, with earth on their hands and sweat on their foreheads, began to perform the "Bavarian Troops' March," the "Salzburg Waltz," the "Chamois Hunter's Air," some on stringed, some on wind instruments, sometimes on brass instruments only. A little boy on a chair, only five years old, played the double bass. Grassl subsequently made the tour of the continent with his family.—*Notice of Mainzer's Sketches of Music, in the Athenæum.*

MILITARY PARADE AND COSTUME.

On this subject we find the following observations in Dr. Channing's Lecture on War, recently published. "Men's sensibility to the evil of war has been very much blunted by the deceptive show, the costume, the splendour in which war is arrayed. Its horrors are hidden under its dazzling dress. To the multitude, the senses are more convincing reasoners than the conscience. In youth, the period which so often receives impressions for life, we cannot detect, in the heart-stirring fife and drum, the true music of war, the shriek of the newly wounded, or the faint moan of the dying. Arms glittering in the sunbeam do not remind us of bayonets dripping with blood. To one who reflects, there is something shocking in these decorations of war. If men must fight, let them wear the badges which become their craft. It would shock us to see a hangman dressed out in scarf and epaulette, and marching with merry music to the place of punishment. The soldier has a sadder work than the hangman. His office is not to dispatch occasionally a single criminal; he goes to the slaughter of thousands as free from crime as himself. The sword is worn as an ornament, and yet its use is to pierce the heart of a fellow creature. As well might the butcher parade before us his knife, or the executioner his axe or halter. Allow war to be necessary, still it is a horrible necessity, a work to fill a good man with anguish of spirit. Shall it be turned into an occasion of pomp and merriment? To dash out men's brains, to stab them to the heart, to cover the body with gashes, to lop off the limbs, to crush men under the hoof of the war-horse, to destroy husbands and fathers, to make widows and orphans, all this may be necessary, but to attire men for this work with fantastic trappings, to surround this fearful occupation with all the circumstances of gaiety and pomp, seems as barbarous as it would be to deck a gallows, or to make a stage for dancing beneath the scaffold. I conceive that the military dress was not open to as much reproach in former times as now. It was then less dazzling, and acted less on the imagination, because it formed less an exception to the habits of the times. The dress of Europe, not many centuries ago, was fashioned very much after what may be called the harlequin style—that is, it affected strong colours and strong contrasts. This taste belongs to rude ages, and has passed away very much with the progress of civilisation. The military dress alone has escaped the reform. The military man is the only harlequin left us from ancient times. It is time that his dazzling finery were gone, that it no longer corrupted the young, that it no longer threw a pernicious glare over his terrible vocation."

NOTICE.

The Publisher of the American Edition of this popular periodical avails himself of the commencement of a New Volume to express his acknowledgments to the Subscribers who have thus far patronised his undertaking. This work has now been reprinted during two years and, from the facilities afforded by Steam Navigation, is kept very close to the English dates, thus the first Number of the present year is printed during the month of January. The circulation of Chambers's Edinburgh Journal, in Great Britain has been steadily advancing with a rapidity unequalled in the history of periodical publication; in the United States, where such an ample field might fairly be supposed to exist, it has scarcely attained a sufficient growth to keep it in existence; but from the favourable manner in which it has been spoken of by those who have subscribed to it, and by the Press, without an exception, the publisher is induced to continue the experiment another year. The amount of Subscription is so very low that it will not admit of any expense in collecting; and as a multiplicity of such small accounts would be very perplexing, the Subscribers are earnestly requested to forward their Subscriptions, without which no papers can be sent. Any person forwarding Ten Dollars will receive Six Copies of the Journal weekly, mailed to the addresses of the parties. Complete Copies of the Work for the Years 1838 and 1839, can be had, either in Numbers, or neatly half bound, at the Office.

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LITERARY FORMULAS.

If a barbarian of good natural understanding were introduced into this country, and put through an extensive course of reading in its modern miscellaneous literature, he would probably be not a little surprised at some of the features of that literature, which we daily pass over as matters of course. For example, it would appear to him very strange that almost every novel should contain some two or three persons of excessively wicked character, and about an equal number who are nearly faultless; while, to make the wonder still greater, the virtues and the vices invariably go in association with certain peculiarities of personal appearance, professional occupation, and even relationship. Thus the best looking young lady and young gentleman are always paragons of moral goodness—dull a little, perhaps, but always very *good*. There is always an ill-looking (perhaps deformed) fellow, who entertains the most atrocious designs against some one, in which, however, he is entirely baulked. If this gentleman be uncle to any body, he is sure to be the worse for it; and this must appear the more wonderful, as the consideration is apt to arise that, if he be uncle to some one, he may be, or have been, nephew to some body else, who ought to have brought him up. Fathers generally are very harsh, and mammas very absurd and designing; that is to say, when they are mammas of some standing, for if they be young mammas, they are the most delightful creatures in the world, being then angels of maternal tenderness. Monks are always sad wretches, unless they be old and grey, in which case they are sometimes amiable and interesting. A baron, especially if his castle be in a forest, is sure to be a detestable monster; but a young nobleman who hunts, is generally a very tolerable person. If there be any person about a family mansion who is dependent, an orphan, and of the feminine gender, mark that person—she *must* be all that is amiable. The eldest son will be extremely apt to fall in love with her, and then she will be persecuted by all except the old housekeeper. In the long-run she is sure to triumph. P. S. A young orphan lady in such a dependent situation is invariably pretty: hence all the mischief. These things, we say, would astonish an acute barbarian, who, even in his limited intercourse with the world, would probably have remarked that goodness and wickedness are not limited to human beings of any denomination, or relation in life, or place in the social scale. The mystery would be in some degree explained to him, when he was informed that these were mere fashions or formulas observed by writers of fiction.

If our barbarian were to spend a few years in the country, and nevertheless maintain all the original simplicity of his mind, he would also be surprised, as he went on reading, to observe how the literary republic is always finding out something that is excessively wrong, and excessively to be sympathised with, and very much to be declaimed about—that is to say, for a certain time, but which by and bye falls entirely out of notice, as if the thing had either ceased to be, or been completely corrected—neither of which events, however, ever takes place. Thus, for example, we have had many ingenious persons tormenting themselves for some years past, respecting the condition of the poor in the English workhouses, which they have convinced themselves is the most wretched imaginable, though, if they would only be at the trouble to step into any one workhouse, they would find the inmates in the enjoyment of rather more than the amount of food which the best physiologists deem necessary for health, and that of a nutritious kind, prepared with all due care. Workhouses are to be found scattered thickly enough over England, and there is no objection any where to their being inspected. Yet, instead of going into them, or into any one of them, to ascertain the real state of the case, these gentlemen go on year after year bewailing the supposed hard fate of the poor, and launching forth their indignation at those persons who are actually doing all they can to make that fate tolerable. We would have our barbarian friend not to be surprised if he were to find that these clamorous philanthropists never give themselves the least personal concern about any poor person, and systematically practise a breeches-pocket-buttoning policy against the whole generation of mendicants. There would be nothing to wonder at in that, for their declamations about workhouses are merely a matter of fashion, in which there is no real feeling concerned. They have only got hold of an idea, of which they think that something can be made. The public has a vague imppression that there is something very horrible about a workhouse, and that the guardians and overseers of all workhouses must be tyrants. This is the way in which they are always represented in fiction, just as German barons living in forests are always villains. In such an industrious nation, few can inquire for themselves, so as to correct these vague notions originally impressed by fiction. The clamorous philanthropist, therefore, finds the miseries of the workhouse a good subject, and determines to improve it to the utmost. It is brought forward in all shapes and forms—that of the truth alone excepted. Sometimes we have the puling woes of starved and stunted childhood, and sometimes the tearless hardships of withered old age. The young are innocent and interesting, the old are excellent people, who have seen better days, and practised every virtue. Such they are by a sort of prescriptive right vested in the very relation they hold towards the rest of society. The whole picture is affecting in the extreme, and every body wonders that such things should be allowed to exist. Here we have the touchstone of the matter. How should such things be in a civilised land? Quite so. It would be very wonderful if they were so. But the simple fact is, that such things *are not*, and therefore do not need to be tolerated. They exist only in the imagination of a set of sentimentalists, real or affected, who find they can have something to say which will obtain attention, if they write upon this subject in the particular way described, and who would write in any way upon any subject, if only sure of an audience. The only remedy ever found for such awful tyrannies and lamentable miseries, is when the public begins to be tired of the subject, or some other thing equally awful and lamentable can be got up to take its place. The instantaneousness of the reforms thus apparently achieved is beyond all admiration.

The condition of the people who work in factories is another subject on which our supposed barbarian would find a strange difference between the reality and the favourite kind of description. Were he to inspect an ordinary cotton-mill in Manchester, he would find a great number of people of both sexes, all neatly dressed, engaged in a work so light as to seem a kind of amusement, enjoying the advantage of being in a well-ventilated and moderately warm room, and not in general working for a greater length of time every day than is consistent with good health. He would see as neat-looking young women as any village maidens in the country, and learn from their masters that they are in general not less careful about their behaviour. He would find boys and girls engaged in work, and thus doing a good deal to promote the comfort of their parents. The whole scene would be pleasing for its very regularity. In many such works he would find the persons employed to be decidedly better off than the generality of working-people. He might also ascertain from statistical returns, patent to every one, and forming an evidence perfectly incontrovertible, that there is less crime in manufacturing than in rural districts But when he turned from the actual scene, or from the scarcely less faithful portraiture of statistics, to the pages of the class of writers already pointed out, how very different a view would be presented! In the very first place, the younger workers would be represented as *stunted*—not half the size that children ought to be, though it happens to have been ascertained by fair experiment that "factory children," as they are called, are just about the same weight and stature with other children. Our philanthropist never peruses statistics, and in all probability detests them. The working-rooms would be represented as the scene of constant faintings from exhaustion and starvation, though perhaps that incident is in reality a rare one, and chiefly takes place amongst women in certain predisposing circumstances. The workers would be represented at meal-hours as creeping slowly and dully to food which they had lost all appetite for, though in fact there are few more jocund or lively scenes than that of a factory dismissing for a meal. Then, somehow, when young people begin their attendance at mills, it is sure to be an excessively dark, cold, drizzly morning in the month of January. The wind howls, and the bitter sleet dashes against the window pane. "The child rises, and, with its scanty covering pulled about it, descends shivering to the street. Poor little wench! her blood is frozen under her very finger-nails [the most likely place for it to freeze, we should think]. Her foot, too (for her shoes have been patched past further patching, and yawn in half a dozen places), is galled with a nasty chilblain, and she limps most painfully. Her father, bound to the same factory, lifts her upon his back, and, checking an oath, groans from between his teeth. The girl is nine years old; and half-clad, in a desolating January morning, is carried—through cold and darkness carried—to work!" This is actually the description given, by a very clever man, in a recent work, of a child's first going to a factory. Another dexterous writer for amusement has thought it worth while to spin the fiction out into a long book, designed apparently for the amiable purpose of holding up the class of manufacturers to the ridicule and execration of their fellow-countrymen, and thus truly making our community a house divided against itself, these same manufacturers being, in fact, speaking generally, an ingenious, industrious, and humane class of men, elevated in many instances by their own merit from a humble origin, and whose wealth-creating powers are acknowledged to have been the chief means of keeping Britain afloat under a pressure of difficulties which must have otherwise made her the prey of a foreign spoiler. But the whole is only a similar delusion to that which prepares us to expect a creditor in fiction to be hard-hearted, and a debtor a worthy but unfortunate fellow.

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The manufacturer is looked on as *necessarily* a severe task-master, the workman as a poor servile drudge, whom the master uses in any way he pleases; the one as a grasping money-maker, the other as a poor wretch who asks only bread. Whereas the real state of the case is, that the two parties make a fair bargain according to the market rate of labour; that the workman is as independent as the master, and has as keen a sense of his own interests; and that, so far from being indifferent about the welfare of his labourers if he only can squeeze the desired work out of them, the master has every where sought for and adopted expedients for rendering the business healthy, and promoting the moral and physical weal of those employed by him. The writers adverted to never take the least pains to ascertain such things. They do not need to care for truth. Their whole object is to write for a certain formula of popular belief which they think will "pay." The class whom they address live in drawing-rooms, and personally know nothing of factories; they therefore run no risk of detection there.* But it would be amusing to see a Birmingham workman, who often has green peas before his master, reading a work in which he was described as a poor stunted forlorn wretch, who never, from morn to eve of life, knew a single comfort —or a stout Dundee lass hearing herself described as a poor shred of humanity, doomed to linger out a miserable and degraded life, when she knows that her nine shillings a-week place her in food, clothes, and even independence, above most of her labouring compeers in that or any other district.

A sharp eye may detect a few other formulas of sentimentalism rising at present in the literary world, but among a class of writers whose ideas are generally of a philosophical cast, and whose aims, at least, are manifestly good. By these writers the commercial spirit is condemned as one altogether selfish, and to this are traced many evils supposed to be afflicting the commonwealth. All is struggle and scramble; the old social ties are no more. A general uneasiness pervades the mercantile classes: hard necessity pushes them on behind: at the same time, the ambition of high living draws them on before, and there is a general extravagance, or living above income. Now, the fact is, though the commercial spirit has reference to personal advantages, that those who entertain it are as benevolent as any other class of the community, and perhaps more so than most, their anxiety for their own provision not necessarily precluding a regard to the claims of their fellow-creatures. The general effect of commerce upon the mind of a people, instead of being unfavourable, has always been remarked to be the reverse: wherever commerce prevails, *there* is generally to be found liberality of mind in proportion. It may be that many mercantile persons apply too industriously, and injure their health; but this error is apart from the evil pointed out. As to all being a struggle and a scramble, it may in like manner be pointed out that, where competition seems to run highest, great amity prevails among individuals. It is only in narrow scenes, where there is little business, that the feeling of competition becomes a bitter one. The feeling of uneasiness said to prevail among the mercantile classes is probably only that sense of uncertainty as to prospects, inseparable from all except an absolutely independent condition, and which is unquestionably useful, in as far as it gives a constant motive to exertion. The notion of a general extravagance we believe to be not less visionary. No doubt, we occasionally find individuals, who, from over-hasty ambition, have exceeded their means; but this is just the occasional exception of evil from a thing upon the whole good. Were there not a general wish to attain a higher point in the social scale, we should see nothing but stagnation and inactivity, where now we see the reverse. The wish or ambition is not only excusable, but laudable; and to it in a great measure are we indebted for the superiority which our country now exhibits over the regions where habits and classes are in eternal fixity. The notion of a general system of living above means is obviously absurd, for the thing is as impossible in nature, as for more rain to fall from the sky than the sun has raised from the sea. These are also, then, as we take it, literary formulas, though probably not set forward with any intention of deceiving.

And how long, inquires our sensible barbarian, may we expect to see this difference kept up between the realities of obvious things, and the way they are spoken of and described in literature! "As long, good sir, as it is easier to write than to inquire, easier to lament supposed woes than to relieve real ones, and as long as the article truth shall not be in particular request amongst the bulk of readers."

* The ignorance of one class respecting the condition of another in this country, is very remarkable. A friend of ours once heard a district of Manchester, which is chiefly occupied by the working men, described by ladies and gentlemen in that town as extremely wretched, and not even safe for a stranger to pass through. He had the courage to go and use his own eyes, when he found that the dwellings were generally comfortable, and the people to all appearance decent. He went and went again to that district, at various hours of the day, and always found every thing quiet. Notions in the same degree erroneous probably exist in every large city respecting the occupants of certain districts. Popular notions in general, are apt long to survive any basis of fact which they originally had. There is a disagreeable disease, supposed by the lower orders in England to be particularly prevalent in Scotland: what prevalence it may have had ages ago we cannot tell; but it is a curious fact that, though we have spent all the years of our life in Scotland, we never once saw a person known to be afflicted with that disease.

WALKS OUT OF TOWN.

BY HUGH MILLAR.

AUTHOR OF THE TRADITIONARY HISTORY OF CROMARTY.

No. III.

I HAD passed the three first milestones after leaving Forres, when the clouds began to lour on every side of me, as if earth and sky were coming together, and the rain to descend in torrents. The great forest of Darnaway looked shaggy and brown through the haze, as if greeting the heavens with a scowl as angry as their own; and a low, long wreath of vapour went creeping over the high lands to the left, like a huge snake. On the right, the *locale* of Shakspeare's witch scene, half moor, half bog, with the old ruinous castle of Inshoch standing sentry over it, seemed ever and anon to lessen its area as the heavily laden clouds broke over its farther edge like waves of the sea; and the intervening moras—black and dismal at all times—grew still blacker and more dismal with every fitful thickening of the haze and the rain. And then, how the furze waved to the wind, and the few scattered trees groaned and creaked! The thunder and the witches were alone wanting.

I passed on, and the storm gradually sank. The evening, however, was dark and damp, and more melancholy than even the day, and I was thoroughly wet, and somewhat fatigued to boot. I could not, however, help turning a little out of my way to pause for a few minutes amid the ruins of the old farm-house of Minitarf, just as I had paused in the middle of the storm to fill my mind with the sublimities of the Har-moor, and do homage to the genius of Shakspeare. But why at Minitarf? Who is not acquainted with the legend of the "Heath near Forres"—who knows any thing of the history of the Farm-House? Both stories, however, are characteristic of the very different ages to which they belong; and the moral of the humbler story is at once more general in its application, and the more obvious of the two.

Isabel Rose, the gudewife of Minitarf, was a native of Easter-Ross, and having lost both her parents in infancy, she had passed the first eighteen years of her life with a married sister on the hill of Nigg. She had been famed for her beauty, and for being the toast of three parishes; and of all her lovers, and few could reckon on more, she had been lucky enough to lose her heart to one of the best—a piece of good fortune nearly as rare as the first prize in a showman's raffle. The favoured suitor was a handsome young farmer of the province of Moray—a person somewhat less shrewd, perhaps, than many of his countrymen, but inflexibly honest, and perseveringly industrious; and as he was a namesake of her own, she became his wife and the mistress of Minitarf, and remained Isabel Rose as before. The wife became a mother—the mother of two boys. Years passed by; the little drama of her life, like one of the dramas of antiquity, had scarce any change of circumstance, and no shifting of scenes; and her two sons grew up to maturity, as unlike one another in character as if they had not been born to the same parents, nor brought up under the same roof.

John, the elder son, was cautious and sensible, and of great kindliness of disposition. There was nothing bright or striking about him, but he united to his father's integrity and firmness of purpose much more than his father's shrewdness, and there was a homely massiveness in the character that procured him respect. He was of a mechanical turn; and making choice of the profession of a house-carpenter—for he was as little ambitious as may be—he removed to Glasgow, where his steadiness and skill recommended him to the various contractors of the place, until in the course of years he became, a good deal to his own surprise, a contractor himself. Sandy, the younger son, was volatile and unsettled, and impatient of labour and restraint, and yet no piece of good fortune could have surprised Sandy. He had somehow come to the conclusion that he was born to be a gentleman, and took rank accordingly, by being as little useful and dressing as showily as he could. His principles were of a more conventional cast than those of his brother, and his heart less warm; still, however, there was no positive vice in the character; and as he was decidedly cleverer and a great deal more genteel, his mother could not help sharing with him in the hope that he was born to be the gentleman of the family; a hope which, of course, was not lessened when she saw him bound apprentice in his seventeenth year to a draper in a neighbouring town.

Sandy's master was what is termed a clever man of business; one of those smart fellows who want only honesty, and that soundness of judgment which seems its natural accompaniment, to make headway in the world. He had already threaded his way through the difficulties of three highly respectable failures; he had thrice paid his debts at the rate of fifteen shillings per pound, and had thus realised on each occasion a profit of twenty-five per cent. on the whole. And yet, from some inexplicable cause, he was not making more money than traders much less fertile in expedient than himself. His ordinary gains were perhaps the less considerable, from the circumstance, that men came to deal with him as completely on their guard as if they had come to fight with him, and though a match for any single individual, he was somehow no match for every body, even though, after the manner of Captain Bobadil's opponents, they came only one at a time. His scheme, too, of occasionally suspending his payments had this disadvantage, that the oftener it was resorted to, the risk became greater and the gain less.

The shop of such a person could not be other than a rare school of ingenuity—a place of shifts and expedients, and where, according to the favourite phrase of its master, things were done in a business-like manner; and Sandy Rose was no very backward pupil. There are ingenious young men who are a great deal too apt to confound the idea of talent itself with the knavish exercise of it, and who, seeing nothing very knowing in simple honesty, exert their ingenuity in the opposite tract, rather out of a desire of doing clever things than from any very decided bias to knavery; and Sandy Rose was unfortunately one of the number. It is undoubtedly an ingenious thing to get the possession of a neighbour's money without running the risk of stealing it, and there can be no question that it requires more of talent to overreach another than to be overreached ones-self. The three years of Sandy's apprenticeship came to their close, and with the assistance of his father, who in a long course of patient industry had succeeded in saving a few hundred pounds, he opened shop for himself in one of the principal streets of the town.

Sandy's shop, or warehouse, as he had termed it, for the latter name was deemed the more respectable of the two, was decidedly the most showy in the street. He dealt largely in fancy goods, and no other kind in the "soft way" show equally well in a window. True, the risk was greater, for among the ordinary chances of loss he had to reckon on the continual changes of fashion; but then, from the same cause, the profits were greater too, and Sandy had a decided turn for the more adventurous walks of his profession. Nothing so respectable as a large stock in trade; the profits of a thousand pounds are necessarily greater than the profits of five hundred. And so, that between the ready money advanced to him by his father, and the degree of credit which the money procured him, Sandy succeeded in rendering his stock a large one. He had omitted only two circumstances in his calculation—the proportion which one's stock should bear to one's capital, and the proportion which it should bear to the trade of the place in which one has settled. When once fairly behind his counter, however, no shopkeeper could be more attentive to his customers, or the appearance of his shop; and all allowed that Sandy Rose was a clever man of business. He wrote and figured with such amazing facility, and made such dashes at the end of every word! He was so indefatigable in his assertions, too, that he made it a rule in every case to sell under prime cost! He was, besides, so amazingly active—a squirrel in its cage was but a type of Sandy! He was, withal, so beautifully genteel! His finest cloths did not look half so well on his shelves as they did on this dapper little person; and it was clear, from his every-day appearance, that he was one of his own best customers.

Sandy's first half year of business convinced him that a large stock in trade may resemble a showy equipage in more points than one: it may look as respectable in its way, but then it may cost as much. Bills were now falling due almost every week, and after paying away the money saved during the earlier months, the every-day custom of the shop proved too little to meet the every-day demand. Fortunately, however, there were banks in the country—"*more banks than one;*" and his old master was content to lend him the use of his name, simply on the condition of being accommodated with Sandy's name in turn. Bill, therefore, was met by bill, and the paper of one bank pitted against the paper of another; and as Sandy was known to have started in trade with a few hundreds, there was no demur for the first twelvemonth or so on the part of the bankers. They then, however, began to demand indorsations, and to hint that the farmer, his father, was a highly respectable man. Sandy expressed his astonishment that any such security should be deemed necessary; his old master expressed his astonishment too; nothing could be more unbusiness-like, he said; but the bankers, who were quite accustomed to the astonishment of all their more doubtful customers, were inflexible, notwithstanding, and the old man's name was procured. The indorsation was quite a matter of course, he was told; a thing "neither here nor there;" but necessary just for form's sake; and from that day forward all the accommodation bills of Sandy and his master bore the name of the simple-minded old man.

I have said that Sandy was one of the most indefatigable of shopkeepers. It was but for the first few months, however, when all was smooth water and easy sailing; in a few months more, when the tide had begun to set in against him, he became much less

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attentive. Some of his fancy goods were becoming old-fashioned, and in consequence unsaleable, and his stock, large at first, was continuing large still. What between the price of stamps, too, the rate of discount, and the expense of travelling to the several banks in which he did business, he found that the profits of his trade were more than balanced by the expenditure. Sandy's heart, therefore, began to fail him; and, setting himself to seek amusement elsewhere than behind his counter, he got a smart young lad to take charge of the shop in his absence; and as it could not add very materially in the inevitable expense, he provided himself with a horse. He was now every day on the road doing business as his own traveller. He rode twenty miles at a time to secure a five shilling order, or crave payment of a five shilling debt. He attended every horse-race and fox-hunt in the country, and paid the king's duty for a half-starved greyhound: Sandy was happy outside his shop, and his lad was thriving within. Matters went on in this train for so long as two years, and the hapless shopkeeper began to perceive that the few hundreds advanced him by his father had totally disappeared in the time, and to wonder what had become of them. Still, however, his stock in trade, though somewhat less showy than at first, was nearly equal in value to one-third his liabilities; the other two-thirds were debts incurred by his old master; and at worst there lay no other obstacle between him and a highly respectable settlement with his creditors than the unlucky indorsations of his father. He rose, however, one morning to learn that his master had absconded during the night, leaving the shop key under the door sill; in a few days after, Sandy had absconded too; and his poor father, who had paid all his debts till now, and had taken a pride in paying them, found that his unfortunate indorsations had involved him in irretrievable ruin. Bankruptcy was a very different matter to the rigidly honest old man from what it was to either Sandy or his master

For the first few days after the shock, he went wandering about his fields, muttering ceaselessly to himself, and wringing his hands. His whole faculties seemed locked up in a feeling of bewilderment and terror, and every packet of letters which the postman brought him—letters urging the claims of angry creditors, or intimating the dishonour of bills—added to his distress. His son was in hiding no one knew where; and though it was perhaps well that he should have kept out of the way at such a time, poor Isabel could not help feeling that it was unkind. He might surely be able to do something, she thought, to lighten the distress of which he had been so entirely the cause, were it but to tell them what course yet remained for them to pursue. It was in vain that, almost broken-hearted herself, she strove by soothing the old man to restore him to himself: he remained melancholy and abstracted as at first, as if the suddenness of his ruin had deprived him of his faculties. He hardly ever spoke, took scarce any food during the day, and scarce any sleep during the night; and, finally, taking to his bed, he died after a few days' illness—died literally of mental anguish. On the evening after the interment, his son John Rose, the carpenter, arrived from Glasgow, and found his mother sitting alone in the farm-house, wholly overwhelmed with grief for the loss of her husband, and the utter ruin which she saw closing around her.

Their meeting was a sad one; but after the widow's first burst of sorrow was over, her son strove to comfort her, and in part succeeded. She might yet look forward, he said, to better days. He was in rather easy circumstances, employing about half a dozen workmen, and at times finding occasion for more. And though he could not well be absent from them, he would remain with her until he saw how far it was possible to wind up his father's affairs, and she would then go with him, and find what he trusted she should deem a comfortable home in Glasgow. Isabel was soothed by his kindness; but it did not escape the anxious eye of the mother, that her son, at one time so robust and strong, had grown thin, and pale, and hollow-eyed, like a person in the latter stages of consumption, and that, though he seemed anxious to appear otherwise, he was evidently much exhausted by his journey. He rallied, however, on the following day. The sale of his father's effects was coming on in about a week; and as the farm-house at such a time could be no comfortable home for the widow, he brought her with him across the firth to her sister's in Nigg, and then returned to Minitarf.

Rather more than a week passed and Isabel's nephew, a person not very unlike her elder son, who managed the farm for his mother, was seated beside his aunt, striving as he best could to dissipate the melancholy which he saw preying on her spirits, when a young man, bespattered with travel, and apparently much fatigued, entered the apartment. Isabel started from her seat, and clasping her hands, with a fearful presentiment of some overwhelming calamity, tumultuously inquired of him what had happened at Minitarf! He stood speechless for a few seconds as if overcome by some fearful emotion, and then bursting into tears, "Your son John," he said, "died this morning." The poor woman fainted away.

"For the two last days of the sale," said the messenger, "there was a marked alteration in John's manner and appearance. There was a something so fixed-like in his expression, and so mournful in his way of looking at things; and then his face was deadly pale, and he took scarce any food. It was evident that the misfortunes of his family preyed deeply on his mind. Yester evening," continued the lad, "he complained for the first time of being unwell, and retired to bed before the usual hour. The two servant-maids rose early in the morning to prepare for leaving the place, and were surprised, on entering the 'ha,' to find him sitting in the great arm-chair fronting the fire. His countenance had changed during the night; he looked much older, and very like his father; and he was so weak that he could hardly sit up in the chair. The girls would have called for assistance, but he forbade them. 'My watch,' said he, 'hangs over my pillow; go tell me what o'clock it is.' It was just twenty minutes past four. 'Well,' he said, when they had told him, 'it is the last hour to me! there is a crook in my lot; but it is the doing of God, not of man.' And, leaningback in the chair, he never spoke more." The messenger had seen the corpse laid on the bed, and wrapped up in a winding-sheet, before setting out on his melancholy journey. Need I say aught of the feelings of Isabel! The farmer and his mother strove to persuade her to remain with them till at least after the funeral, but she would not; she would go and take one last look of her son, she said, of her only son—for the other was a murderer. Early, therefore, on the following morning, the farmer hired a small yawl to bring her across the firth, and, taking his place in the stern beside her, the boatmen bent them to their oars, and the hill of Nigg soon lessened behind them.

After clearing the bay, however, their progress was much impeded by adverse currents; there came on a chill drizzling rain, and the wind, which was evidently rising, began, after veering about oftener than once, to blow right ahead, and to raise a short tumbling sea. Grief of itself is cold and comfortless, and the widow, wrapped up in her cloak, sat shivering in the bottom of the yawl, drenched by the rain and the spray. But she thought only of her son and her husband. The boatmen toiled incessantly till evening; and when night came on, dark and boisterous, they were still two long miles from their landing-place—the effluence of the Nairn. Directly across the mouth of the river there runs a low dangerous bar, and as they approached, they could hear the roaring of the breakers above all the hoarse sighings of the wind, and the dash of the lesser waves that were bursting around them. "There," said the farmer, as his eye caught a few faint lights that seemed twinkling along the beach; "there is the town of Nairn right abreast of us; but has not the tide fallen too low for our attempting the bar?" The boatmen replied in the negative, and in a minute after they were among the breakers. For a single instant the skiff seemed riding on the crest of an immense wave, which came rolling from the open sea, and which, as it folded over and burst into foam, dashed her forward like an arrow from the string. She sank, however as it receded, till her keel grated against the bar beneath. Another huge wave came rolling behind, and, curling its white head like the former, rushed over her stern, filling her at once to the gunwale, and at the same instant propelling her into the deep water within. The farmer sprang from his seat, and raising his aunt to the hinder thwart, and charging her to hold fast, he shouted to the boatmen to turn the boat's head to the shore. In a few minutes after, they had landed.

Poor Isabel, well nigh insensible — for grief and terror, added to cold and fatigue, had prostrated all her energies, bodily and mental—was carried to the town, and lodged in the house of an acquaintance. When morning came, she was unable to leave her bed. The farmer, therefore, had to set out for Minitarf alone, on his return, he found her in the delirium of a fever, from which she never recovered. Her younger son was seen in the West Indies ten years after, a miserable slave-driver, with a broken constitution and an unquiet mind. And there he died—no one caring where or how. I am not fond of melancholy stories; but "to purge the heart, by pity and terror" is the true end of tragedy—an end which the gorgeous creations of the poets are not better suited to accomplish than the domestic tragedies which we see every day acting around us. It is well too, to note how immensely the folly and knavery of mankind add to the amount of human suffering, and how, according to the wise saying of the Preacher, "One sinner destroyeth much good."

REASON FOR MENTAL CULTIVATION.

It was said, with truth, by Charles the Twelfth, of Sweden, that he who was ignorant of the arithmetical art was but *half a man*. With how much greater force may a similar expression be applied to him who carries to his grave the neglected and unprofitable seeds of faculties, which it depended on himself to have reared to maturity, and of which the fruits bring accessions to human happiness—more precious than all the gratifications which power or wealth can command.—*Dugald Stewart.*

SPECIMENS OF THE ENGLISH SONNET WRITERS.

Scorn not the sonnet; critic, you have frowned,
Mindless of its just honours; with this key
Shakspeare unlocked his heart; the melody
Of this small lute gave ease to Petrarch's wound;
A thousand times this pipe did Tasso sound;
With it Camoens soothed an exile's grief;
The sonnet glittered, a gay myrtle leaf;
Amid the cypress with which Dante crowned
His visionary brow; a glow-worm lamp
It cheered mild Spenser, called from Faery-land
To struggle through dark ways; and when a damp
Fell round the path of Milton, in his hand
The thing became a trumpet, whence he blew
Soul-animating strains—alas, too few!

WORDSWORTH.

We have here, in the language of its great modern master, at once a beautiful specimen of the little poem called the sonnet, and some outline of its *history*. It may be described as a form of poetical composition, limited to fourteen ten-syllable lines, containing in the best models from four to six rhymes, and marked by great closeness of thought and diction. Practised originally by Dante, Petrarch, and others of those who revived letters in southern Europe, it found its way to England in the sixteenth century, when the works of the Italian poets first became popular amongst us.

The first writer of English sonnets was the Earl of Surrey, a graceful amatory poet of the reign of Henry VIII., whose works, after a long interval of obscurity, have of late years again been brought a good deal under notice. His compositions of this kind, and indeed most of what he ever wrote, were the breathings of an ardent but apparently unrequited affection, which he bore for a lady named by him Geraldine, supposed to have been Lady Elizabeth Fitzgerald, daughter of the Earl of Kildare, and second cousin of the Princesses Mary and Elizabeth, with whom she was educated at Hunsdon House. Our first example of the sonnet, shall be his lordship's account of this lady:—

From Tuscane came my lady's worthy race;
Fair Florence was, sometime, her ancient seat;
The western isle, whose pleasant shore doth face
Wild Camber's cliffs, did give her lively heat.
Foster'd she was with milk of Irish breast;
Her sire an earl; her dame of princes' blood:
From tender years, in Britain she doth rest,
With king's child, where she tasteth costly food.
Honsdon did first present her to mine ey'n;
Bright is her hue, and Geraldine she hight;
Hampton me taught to wish her first for mine,
And Windsor, alas, doth chase me from her sight!
Her beauty of kind; her virtues from above;
Happy is he that can obtain her love.

The compositions of this noble poet are all in that style of affected distress, under the pains of love and disdain, which has been long abandoned by English poets; yet there is something about it which, if not poetry in the best sense of the word, is at least very elegant, and very remote from vulgar associations. We give another specimen:—

The sweet season, that bud and bloom forth brings,
With green hath clad the hill and eke the vale;
The nightingale, with feathers new, she sings;
The turtle, too, her mate hath told her tale;
Summer is come, for every spray forth springs;
The hart hath hung his old head on the pale;
The buck in brake his winter coat he flings;
The fishes flit with new repaired scale;
The adder all her slough away she flings:
The swift swallow pursueth the flies small,
The busy bee her honey now *shemyngs*;
Winter is worn, that was the flowers' vale.
And thus I sit among these pleasant things,
Each care decays, and yet my sorrow springs.

There is more poetry in some parts of Surrey's life than in most of his verse. He proceeded upon the tour of Europe, in chivalric guise, every where proclaiming the unparalleled charms of his mistress Geraldine, and challenging any knight to depreciate or deny them. Passing some time at the court of the Emperor of Germany, he became acquainted with the magician Cornelius Agrippa, who showed him, in a mirror of glass, a living image of Geraldine, reclining on a couch, sick, and reading one of his sonnets by a waxen taper. His imagination was heated anew by the sight, and he hastened to Florence, the original seat of the ancestors of the lady. On his arrival there he published a defiance against any person who should presume to dispute the superiority of her beauty. A challenger appeared; the Duke of Tuscany permitted a combat to take place; and Surrey came off victor. When he returned to England, he was universally admitted to be the most polite lover, the most learned nobleman, and the most accomplished gentleman of his age. Yet all this did not save him from the jealousy of his sovereign, who caused him to be beheaded on Tower-hill, January 19, 1546–7.

Wyatt, a contemporary of Surrey, also cultivated the sonnet, and it was adopted as a form of composition by the accomplished Sir Philip Sidney, who, both in his mind and in his history, a good deal resembled the chivalric lover of Geraldine. From him we quote a sonnet to the Moon, the first, as far as we are aware, of the many poems which have been addressed by English bards to that planet:—

With how sad steps, O Moon, thou climb'st the skies,
How silently and with how wan a face!
What! may it be, that, even in heavenly place,
That busy Archer his sharp arrows tries?
Sure, if that long-with-love-acquainted eyes
Can judge of love, thou feel'st a lover's case;

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I read it in thy looks: thy languished grace,
To me that feel the like, thy state descries.
Then, even of fellowship, O Moon, tell me—
Is constant love deemed there but want of wit?
Are beauties there as proud as here they be?
Do they above love to be loved, and yet
Those lovers scorn whom that love doth possess?
Do they call virtue their ungratefulness?

Spencer appears to have delighted in this form of poetry, if we are to judge by the many specimens of it—no fewer than eighty-eight—which he has sent down to us. These things he well calls his *Amoretti:* they are all of them expressions of his love for his mistress, and almost all characterised by the same peculiarities which mark the similar productions of Surrey. The eternal complaints of these old rhymers as to the iciness and cruelty of their inamorates are incomprehensible, for we never hear of any such things from modern poets. Is human nature thus far changed, or is there only a change in the fashion of the poet's thoughts? It is only, we suspect, a *literary formula.* Spenser's sonnets are full of these complaints; yet their rich poetical diction reconciles us to all drawbacks. We give one of the pieces most free from affected feeling, and most remarkable for beautiful language, being, however, only a version of a well-known thought of Horace:—

Fresh Spring, the herald of love's mighty king,
In whose coat armour richly are displayed
All sorts of flowers which on earth do spring,
In goodly colours gloriously arrayed;
Go to my love, where she is careless laid,
Yet in her winter's bower not well awake,
Tell her the joyous time will not be stayed,
Unless she do him by the forelock take;
Bid her, therefore, herself soon ready make,
To wait on Love, amid his lovely crew,
Where every one that misseth than her maik*
Shall be by him amerced in penance due.
Make haste, therefore, sweet love! whilst it is prime,
For none can call again the passed time.

Wordsworth has spoken of the sonnet in our motto as "the key with which Shakspeare unlocked the heart." He alludes to what has been made clearly out within the last few years, that, in his long series of sonnets, the wondrous bard of Avon gave a revelation of his inmost feelings, first, respecting some unhappy passion, and secondly, respecting his position in society, as a despised player and furnisher of dramatic pieces for his own stage. Shakspeare's sonnets are the moanings of a most noble nature, at issue with fortune and the common run of the world's feelings.

Alas, 'tis true, I have gone here and there,
And made myself a motley to the view,
Gor'd mine own thoughts, sold cheap what is most dear,
Made old offences of affections new.
Most true it is, that I have look'd on truth
Askance and strangely; but, by all above,
These blenches gave my heart another youth,
And worse essays prov'd thee my best of love.
Now all is done, save what shall have no end:
Mine appetite I never more will grind
On newer proof, to try an older friend,
O God in love, to whom I am confin'd.
Then give me welcome, next my heaven the best,
E'en to thy pure and most most loving breast.

No longer mourn for me when I am dead,
Than you shall hear the surly sullen bell
Give warning to the world that I am fled
From this vile world, with vilest worms to dwell:
Nay, if you read this line, remember not
The hand that writ it; for I love you so,
That I in your sweet thoughts would be forgot,
If thinking on me then should make you woe.
O if (I say) you look upon this verse,
When I perhaps compounded am with clay,
Do not so much as my poor name rehearse;
But let your love e'en with my life decay:
Lest the wise world should look into your moan,
And mock you with me after I am gone.

Oh, lest the world should task you to recite
What merit liv'd in me that you should love
After my death, dear love, forget me quite,
For you in me can nothing worthy prove;
Unless you would devise some virtuous lie,
To do more for me than mine own desert,
And hang more praise upon deceased I,
Than niggard truth would willingly impart:
Oh, lest your true love may seem false in this,
That you for love speak well of me untrue,
My name be buried where my body is,
And live no more to shame nor me nor you.
For I am 'sham'd by that which I bring forth,
And so should you, to love things nothing worth.

That time of year thou may'st in me behold
When yellow leaves, or none, or few do hang
Upon those boughs which shake against the cold,
Bare ruin'd choirs, where late the sweet birds sang.
In me thou seest the twilight of such day,
As after sun-set fadeth in the west,
Which by and by black night doth take away,
Death's second self, that seals up all in rest.
In me thou seest the glowing of such fire,
That on the ashes of his youth doth lie,
As the death-bed whereon it must expire,
Consum'd with that which it was nourish'd by.
This thou perceiv'st, which makes thy love more strong,
To love that well which thou must leave ere long.

One more beautiful specimen, less composed of personal feeling:—

Oh, how much more doth beauty beauteous seem,
By that sweet ornament which truth doth give!
The rose looks fair, but fairer we it deem
For that sweet odour which doth in it live.
The canker-blooms have full as deep a dye
As the perfumed tincture of the roses,
Hang on such thorns and play as wantonly
When summer's breath their masked buds discloses:
But for their virtue only is their show,
They live unwoo'd and unrespected fade;
Die to themselves. Sweet roses do not so;
Of their sweet deaths are sweetest odours made;
And so of you, beauteous and lovely youth,
When that shall fade, my verse distils your truth.

William Drummond, the Scottish contemporary and friend of Shakspeare, has left us many sonnets, conceived in a style of refined sentiment, and constructed in the most approved form of this kind of composition With two specimens we complete the present section of our paper:—

Sleep, silence, child, sweet father of soft rest,
Prince whose approach peace to all mortals brings,
Indifferent host to shepherds and to kings,
Sole comforter of minds which are oppress;
Lo, by thy charming rod all breathing things
Lie slumb'ring, with forgetfulness possest,
And yet o'er me to spread thy drowsy wings
Thou spar'st (alas!) who cannot be thy guest.
Since I am thine, O come, but with that face
To inward light which thou art wont to show,
With fained solace ease a true-felt woe;
Or if, deaf god, thou do deny that grace,
Come as thou wilt, and what thou wilt bequeath:
I long to kiss the image of my death.

DRUMMOND TO HIS LUTE.

My lute, be as thou wert when thou did grow
With thy green mother in some shady grove,
When immelodious winds but made thee move,
And birds their ramage* did on thee bestow.
Since that dear voice which did thy sounds approve,
Which wont in such harmonious strains to flow,
Is reft from earth to tune the spheres above,
What art thou but a harbinger of woe?
Thy pleasing notes be pleasing notes no more,
But orphan wailings to the fainting ear,
Each stroke a sigh, each sound draws forth a tear,
For which be silent as in woods before:
Or if that any hand to touch thee deign,
Like widow'd turtle still her loss complain.

* Match, or lover.

* Warbling, from *Ramage*, French.

WOMEN IN AMERICA.

In the North American States, women occupy a position in society very different from that which females of any class are accustomed to in this country. Among us, women are treated with delicacy and consideration, but always as if they were rational beings; they are neither depressed to the condition of inferiors, nor exalted to that of goddesses; besides, for the attentions and general respect shown towards them, it is expected that they will act with considerable politeness in return, so that by their affability and agreeableness of manners they may command the esteem as well as the admiration of all who approach them.

In America, the position of women, as we say, is entirely different. There, they seem to be viewed as a kind of superior beings—something more than mortal. All their caprices must be listened to with deference, all their whims satisfied, even though among strangers, and for all the attentions shown towards them, it is not expected that they should offer any thanks or show any condescension in return. American women are, in fact, spoiled children; they do as they like, and the men are their slaves. This remarkable condition of things is noticed by almost every traveller. Mr. Grund, in his late work, "Aristocracy in America," thus speaks of it.

"American ladies occupy from mere courtesy, a rank in society which is not only opposed to that which they hold in private life and in their own families, but which is actually incompatible with the exercise of discretion on the part of the gentlemen. 'The ladies must be waited upon;' 'the ladies must be helped;' 'the ladies must be put into the carriage;' 'the ladies must be taken out of the carriage;' 'the ladies must have their shoe-strings tied;' 'the ladies must have their India-rubber shoes put on;' 'the ladies must be wrapped up in shawls;' 'the ladies must be led up and down stairs;' 'the ladies must have their candles lit for them when they go to bed.' On every occasion they are treated as poor helpless creatures, who rather excite the pity than the admiration of men; and as the services they require are numerous, just in proportion to the scarcity of hired servants, the gentlemen are obliged to officiate in their stead."

"The American gentlemen," he continues, "approach women with the most indubitable consciousness of their own inferiority, and, either from modesty or prudence, seldom open their lips except to affirm what has been said by the ladies. One is always reminded of poor Candide's honest prayer, 'Hélas! madame: je répondrai comme vous voudrez' [Alas, ma'am, I will answer just as you wish]. I have seen one of the most distinguished old gentlemen in the United States, one who held the highest rank in the gift of the American people, and whose learning and knowledge on most subjects rendered him a most pleasing and entertaining companion of men, betray as little self-possession in the presence of women, as if he had been making his *debut* in society, and this too in the house of one of his most intimate friends.

This excessive awkwardness in the men, to which even the most distinguished of the race make no exception, must be owing to something radically wrong in the composition of American society, which places men as well as women in a false position. The conviction of this fact must force itself on the mind of every impartial observer who has had an opportunity of making himself familiar with the customs and manners of the higher classes. There appears to be a singular mixture of respect and want of sincerity on the part of the men with regard to the women, produced, I believe, by the unnatural position which the latter hold wherever they are brought into contact with the former."

Miss Sedgwick notices this remarkable trait in the position and manners of her countrywomen. In one of her late productions, "Means and Ends," she makes the following observations:—"The most striking and prevailing defect in the manners of Americans is, I believe, a want of courtesy. This has probably arisen from the general equality of rights, condition, and education. And it arises in part from that *mauvaise honte*, or shyness, characteristic of our English ancestors, from whom we inherit it. A little reflection and moral cultivation would soon remedy this defect. What do I mean by courtesy, and how is the want of it shown, do you ask? A few winters since, a well-bred young foreigner came to the interior, and took lodgings at a village inn, for the purpose of learning the English language. To facilitate its acquisition, he generally preferred remaining in the receiving-room of the tavern, where travellers were passing in and out. His writing-table was placed before the fire. When the women came shivering in from a long, dreary drive in the stage-coach, he moved his table to the coldest corner of the room, mended the fire, drew chairs near it, and, if they brought in foot-stoves or blocks, he found the best place to heat them. He then returned to his own uncomfortable seat, and pursued his writing or reading.

The women profited by his civilities, without appearing to notice them. During the whole winter he never received one word of acknowledgment—not one 'Thank you, sir,' or, 'You are very kind, sir,' or, what would have seemed inevitable, 'Pray, don't take that cold seat, sir.' What was the polished stranger's inference? Certainly, that the Americans were a most discourteous, if not a cold-hearted people.

Cold-hearted we are not. These women were probably generally impressed with the young man's attentions—one of them, I know, in relating her travelling experience at her own fire-side at night, said, she 'never should forget a young man at the tavern in S——. She thought she should have died with the cold before she got there; and when she went in, he moved away from the fire, and gave her the rocking-chair—hung her cloak over the back of another, and warmed her block for her, and did everything just as if he had been her own son!' And yet this good woman had not indicated in her manners to the young man that she even saw him. Here there was no expression of the real feeling, no *courtesy*.

I have often seen men in steam-boats, in stage-coaches, in churches, and other public meetings, rise and give their seats to women, and the women seat themselves quietly, without a look or word of acknowledgment. And so with a thousand other attentions which are rendered, and are received without any return. Avoid such discourtesy, my young friends—it is not only displeasing, but unjust. We actually owe some return for such civilities, and a courteous acceptance is, in most cases, the only one that can be made. These little chance courtesies are smiles on the face of manners, and smiles are like sunshine—we can scarcely have too much of either."

STAGE-COACH JOURNEY TO THE TOURNAMENT.

[The following is from a lively account of the Eglintoun tournament, in the November number of Tait's Magazine. It seems to us creditable to this work, considering the well-known severity of its politics, that it should take a pleasant view of the late beautiful and most interesting spectacle presented in Ayrshire, when so many other very wise journalists have seen fit to treat it with ridicule.]

* * * We left our home, with a merry friend, one fine morning, a few days previous to that fixed for the commencement of the tournament, in order to take our departure by the coach. Arriving at the office in Prince's Street, a little before the hour at which it should have started, we were astonished at the immense pile of luggage which we saw heaped on the street. In order to be packed upon the carriage. When Mr. Croal, the coach proprietor, came up, he was so much appalled by the sight, that, apologising for the delay which he must inevitably occasion, he informed us that he must send back the coach to the yard, and get out a stronger one, that might be more certainly able to bear such a load without risk of breaking down. When this more potent vehicle arrived, any impatience that might have been excited in us by the delay, was subdued by the interest which we could not help taking in the ingenuity which the coachman and his assistants displayed in packing and piling the various articles in and upon it; till I, and my companion, and two officers of our acquaintance, who had all of us placed ourselves comfortably on the hinder seats, could no longer see those in front, even when we stood up to try to do so. We felt some comfort in thinking that the superior construction of coaches, now-a-days, admits of this being done with more safety than was formerly the case. Besides all the ordinary kinds of trunks, portmanteaus, band-boxes, and carpet-bags, which are usually attendant upon a coach full of passengers inside and outside, there were innumerable white deal boxes of all manner of shapes and sizes. Most of these were ingeniously suspended like sausages, on strings all round the carriage; and, to crown all, on the very top was perched a wicker cage, containing a great, long-legged, large-bodied, awkward-looking, pair of Chittagong fowls, belonging to a curried Indian, who had a seat in the interior. The cock not only seemed to know that he was going to the tournament, as well as other people, but to think that he was to be triumphant there; for much to the amusement of all who beheld him, and especially to the great entertainment of the idlers who were looking on in the street, he crowed so loudly that he brought some of the sleepy citizens of Princes' Street, in their night-caps, from their beds to their windows, to wonder at so unwonted a summons. Such was the appearance of the coach after its packing was completed, that no one could have well guessed that it really was any such four-wheeled vehicle, if he had seen it creeping along the road thus burdened and smothered up.

At length we found ourselves in motion, and we began to beguile the way with chat and cigars. Our facetious

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friend, who had lately lost two valuable silk umbrellas, by their having been stolen from him one after the other, had been just boasting to us of a bran new cotton one which he had bought, on the principle that no one would think any thing so common worth the purloining. This umbrella he had laid down on the uppermost box of a string of those that hung behind the back seat, and were thus most marvellously *built downwards*, till they nearly touched the road. As we were journeying on, one of the officers began to snuff up his nose, and to wonder where the smell of burning and of smoke was proceeding from. We all became immediately sensible of it. The alarm spread among us, when, suddenly, the other officer, who sat with his face to the rear, roared out to our friend, "Good heavens, sir, your umbrella is on fire!" and there, to be sure, it was, blazing up like a volcano, not only to the manifest peril of the box, on which it lay, and on which the fire had already caught hold, but of all the boxes of the string, yea, even to the risk of the coach itself. The confusion and the bustle amongst us of the rearward of the coach, to get the fire extinguished, was indescribable. One gentleman, whom we believe to have been a baillie of a town, or in some way connected with the police, began to vociferate for the fire engines; whilst another, who, we have reason to think, was a reporter, took out his pen, paper, and ink-horn, and began, with the philosophy of a stoic, to note down the circumstances attending the progress of the conflagration, altogether forgetful that, if it went on, he and his record must perish together. The fowls who looked down upon us, fluttered and screamed, and more than one of us shouted; but the intervening pile of luggage on the roof, which left us as "*Britannos toto orbe divisos*," together with the noise of the coach, shut out both the scene and the cries from those who were sitting in front unconscious of our danger. At last, after various ineffectual attempts to extinguish the flames, our friend bethought himself of rubbing the blazing umbrella against the wet wheel; and he thus most fortunately succeeded in subduing the conflagration, but not until the deal box on which the umbrella had lain had been nearly burned through, nor until each section of the parapluie itself displayed a huge square window between the whale-bone spars, that gave it the most ludicrous effect. After thanking our stars that we had not been all consumed, and thinking how much surprise the coachman, and those with him, would have manifested on arriving at the next stage, if they had found that the tail of the coach, and all upon it, had been burned off, we began to inquire into the cause, and found that the accident must have been owing to a stray piece of ignited German tinder having found its way into the folds of the umbrella. The adventure, then, furnished us with much merriment at the expense of our friend's parapluie; and when an occasional shower compelled him to hoist the uncouth-looking instrument, it furnished no less entertainment to the population of the different villages we passed through, where every one had turned out to look at the various coaches and carriages that were, even thus long before the day fixed, passing through, laden with guests bound to the tournament.

We had no sooner got fairly into Ayrshire, than we became much interested in the many pretty young persons whom we found anxiously waiting by the wayside for the coming up of the coach. We do not mean those nice-looking servant-girls who are generally pretty numerously planted at the different hedge inns and half-way houses, who come out, conscious of the power of their own charms, with what we call in Scotland—and our Scottish poet, Allan Ramsay, too, calls—"a *thieveless* errant," that is *Anglice*, a pretended errand, to inquire for some parcel which "the mistress," either truly or falsely, did or did not expect; and all this for the purpose of having a leer or a joke with the coachman, or with any pleasant fellow of *an outside* who may be disposed to enjoy a fractional part of half a minute's small flirtation with her. No! We mean something very different from all this: we mean handsome, well-dressed young ladies, married and spinsters, who, *all along of the* tournament, were found by the wayside—some on foot, and others in carriages—some attended by husbands, some by fathers, and some by brothers—and who were anxiously waiting at the lodge or gate of every gentleman's seat we passed, and at the embouchures of many of the bye-roads which led to gentlemen's seats, and who all of them opened in succession, as the coach drove up towards them, in eager and clamourous inquiries after their boxes.

"Oh, coachman! coachman! have you a box from Mr. Blackwood's for me?" cried one.

"Coachman! coachman! my box from Madame Meyer!" cried another.

"Haven't you a box from Madame Devy for me?" modestly vociferated a third.

"You've got a box from Maclennan and Sproat, have you not?" shouted another.

"Mademoiselle Cercleron's box, addressed to me, coachman," authoritatively demanded another.

"A box from Miss Wotherspoon for the two Misses ——? I'm sure you have it, coachman," lisped out two sisters at once, each with a great emphasis on the word *sure*; whilst the brother, a manifest dandy, twirled a pair of mustachios, and said, "I say, coachee, have the goodnese to hand downe my box from the Albion Cloth Company—it is of the last importance."

"No sitch boxes here!" replied coachee.

The exclamations of the two ladies and the gentleman being in soprano, contre-alto, and a sort of a kind of bass, made what musicians would call a splendid crash. It is beyond the power of mere types, without the aid of musical notes, to give any idea of it. But before we could well catch the tune, coachee was off. The coach appeared to us to be a sort of lottery wheel, so far as these good people were concerned; some were sent home from it filled with wretched disappointment and despair, and we imagined the dreadful night they were doomed to spend; whilst others, who had all the luck, were rendered supremely blessed by the arrival of their boxes, and could so little contain their joy, that they clapped their hands, and danced upon the very road; and we thought that we saw among them some, whose impatience seemed to be so great that we doubted not they would stop, ere they were half way up the avenue, to open the precious box, that they might have one peep, *en passant*, at the splendid fancy dress which it contained.

SKETCHES OF SUPERSTITIONS.

GREEK SUPERSTITIONS CONTINUED—ORACLES, SACRIFICES, OMENS.

The Greeks believed in the possibility of foretelling future events. The wisest among them were in this respect not more advanced in intelligence than those ignorant beings in the present day who put faith in fortune-tellers. The practice of divining what would be the result of important enterprises, was connected with the religion of the country, and therefore countenanced and supported by the state. In all matters of importance, the desired knowledge of futurity was sought for from certain oracles, or, as we should now call them, fortune-telling establishments. By far the most celebrated of the Grecian oracles was that of Apollo at Delphi, a city built on the slopes of Mount Parnassus, in Phocis. At a very remote period it had been discovered, that, from a deep cavern in the side of that mountain, an intoxicating vapour issued, the effect of which was so powerful as to throw into convulsions both men and cattle. The rude inhabitants of the surrounding district, unable to account for this phenomenon, conceived that it must be produced by supernatural agency, and regarded the incoherent ravings of those who had inhaled the noxious vapour as prophecies uttered under the inspiration of some god. As the stupifying exhalation ascended out of the ground, it was at first conjectured that the newly discovered oracle must be that of the very ancient goddess, *Earth*, but Neptune was afterwards associated with this divinity, as an auxiliary agent in the mystery. Finally, the whole credit of the oracle was transferred to Apollo. A temple was soon built on the hallowed spot, and a priestess, named the *Pythoness*, was appointed, whose office it was to inhale, at stated intervals, the prophetic vapour. To enable her to do so without the risk of falling into the cavern, as several persons had previously done, a seat, called a tripod, from its having three feet, was erected for her accommodation, directly over the mouth of the chasm. Still, however, the Pythoness held an office which was neither safe nor agreeable. The convulsions into which she was thrown by the unwholesome vapours of the cavern, were in some instances so violent as to cause immediate death, and were at all times so painful that force was often necessary to bring the official to the prophetic seat. The unconnected words which the Pythoness screamed out in her madness, were arranged into sentences by the attendant priests, who could easily place them in such an order, and fill up the breaks in such a way, as to make them express whatever was most suitable to the interests of the *shrine*, which was the main object. Lest the oracle should be brought into discredit, care was, in general, taken to couch the response in language so obscure and enigmatical, that, whatever course events should take, the prediction might not be falsified, or rather might appear to be verified. It may be observed that, in the course of time, the plan of simulating convulsions was most probably adopted by the chief agent in these impositions.

The fame of the Delphic oracle soon became very extensive, and no enterprise of importance was undertaken in any part of Greece, or of its numerous colonies in the islands and along the coasts of the Ægean and Mediterranean seas, without a consultation of the Pythoness. The presents received from those who resorted to it for counsel, not a few of whom were princes or influential and wealthy leaders, formed a source of great and permanent revenue to the institution, and not only afforded the officiating priests a comfortable maintenance, but furnished also the means of erecting a splendid temple instead of the rude edifice which had been originally constructed. The high veneration in which the Delphic oracle was held, gave its directors a large share of influence in public affairs; an influence which they sometimes exerted in a most commendable manner, in sanctioning and furthering the schemes of the statesman, legislators, and warriors, who undertook to improve the political systems, reform the laws and manners, or defend the liberties of Greece. Like the Olympian Festival, it also formed a bond of union among the numerous independent communities of Greece, and, by lending the authority of the gods to measures of general utility, often repressed petty jealousies and quarrels, and excited all to study the common welfare. Even when the rest of Greece was vexed by civil war, the chosen territory of Apollo was undisturbed by the din of arms; and the security which it enjoyed, on account of its sacred character, caused Delphi to become a place of deposit for much of the wealth of the states.

It is understood that the Greeks derived their superstitious belief in oracles, as they did many of their arts, from the Egyptians. In the deserts of Lybia, in a direction west from Lower Egypt, was situated the temple of Jupiter-Ammon, one of the most magnificent structures in the world, and celebrated for the oracular responses of its imaginary deity. Alexander, on the occasion of his conquest of Egypt, paid a visit of ceremony to this famed oracle, and consulted it respecting the fortunes of his family. Romans, as well as Greeks, reverenced the distant fortune-telling establishment. After the battle of Pharsalia, Labrenus besought Cato to consult so celebrated an oracle, but that great man, who seems to have possessed sentiments of more exalted piety than his countrymen, made the following memorable reply:—"On what account, Labrenus, would you have me consult Jupiter? Shall I ask him whether it be better to loose life than liberty? Whether life be a real good? We have within us, Labrenus, an oracle that can answer all these questions. Nothing happens but by the order of God. Let us not require of Him to repeat to us what he has sufficiently engraved on our hearts. Truth has not withdrawn into these deserts; it is not engraven on the sands of Lybia. The abode of God is in heaven, in the earth, in the sea, and in virtuous hearts. God speaks to us by all that we see, by all that surrounds us. Let the inconstant, and those that are subject to waver according to events, have recourse to oracles. For my part, I find in nature every thing that can inspire the most constant resolution. The coward, as well as the brave, cannot escape death. Jupiter can tell us no more."

The oracles of Greece, like those every where else, in time fell into disrepute; their predictions were laughed at, and exposed as either equivocal or false; and, finally, as the light of Christianity spread over the Roman provinces, they became altogether dumb.

While the oracles continued to act the part of public and accredited prophets, there were various other means of looking into futurity, and procuring tokens of good or bad fortune. Of these, the most remarkable were certain signs or marks in the intestines of victims, slain as sacrifices at the altars. The mode of sacrificing is worthy of explanation. Bulls, goats, sheep, pigeons, cocks, and other creatures were immolated to the gods of the country. Sometimes there was a hecatomb or sacrifice of a hundred animals at a time, to appease the manes or restless spirits of the deceased. A notion prevailed that the animals to be sacrificed would show signs of satisfaction on being brought to the altars, if the gods to whom they were offered felt pleased with the oblation. On bringing forward a bull or goat, the officiating priest drew a knife from the forehead to the tail, at which, if the victim struggled, it was rejected as not acceptable to the gods; but if it stood quietly at the altar, then they thought the gods were pleased with it; yet a bare non-resistance was not thought sufficient, unless it gave its assent, by a gracious nod; to try if it would nod, they poured water or barley into its ear. We should imagine that these tests seldom failed in making the animal plunge with its head. Being satisfied with the sign, the priest proceeded to pour wine, and sometimes fruits or frankincense, between the horns of the victim, and afterwards struck it down and bled it to death. Great dexterity was requisite in striking down and bleeding a victim, for if it did not fall at once upon the ground, or stamped or kicked, or struggled to be loose, or did not bleed freely, or seemed to die with pain, it was thought unacceptable to the gods; all these being unlucky omens. To the celestial gods, sacrifices were made in the morning about sunrise; but to the deities of the lower regions, who were supposed to hate the light of day, they were made at midnight. It was customary on some occasions to dance round the altars whilst they sang the sacred hymns, which consisted of three stanzas or parts. The first of these parts, called *strophe*, was sung in turning from east to west; the other named *antistrophe*, in returning from west to east; then they stood before the altar, and sang the *epode*, which was the last part of the song.

The sacrifice being ended, the priest had his share, and another portion was given as a due to the magistrates; the remainder was usually carried home by the offering party, for the sake of good luck and the preservation of health. Sometimes portions were sent as presents to absent friends. Important ceremonies of this kind were terminated with feasts, and these were concluded by the whole party adjourning to the temple of Jupiter or some other god, and there pouring out a libation of wine at the altar.

Besides the sacrifices, there were also other sorts of presents offered by the Greeks to their gods, either to pacify them when angry, or to obtain some future benefit, or as a grateful acknowledgment of some past favour. These consisted of crowns and garlands, garments, cups of gold, or any other thing that conduced to the ornament or the enriching of the temples. When any person changed his employment or way of life, it was customary to dedicate the instruments belonging to it, as a grateful commemoration of the divine favour and protection. Thus, a fisherman dedicated his nets to the nymphs of the sea; shepherds hung up pipes to Pan or some other of the country deities; and a lady, decayed with age, dedicated her mirror to Venus.

Divination by inspection of the intestines of the animals slain as sacrifices, was a business of a very grave kind, calling for the most earnest attention on the part of its professors. If there were any ap-

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pearance of disease or injury, or any discoloration in the entrails, if the liver was dry, or if the heart palpitated, or was shrivelled, the sacrifice was unpropitious, and bad luck was to attend the proposed enterprise; if the gall was large and ready to burst there were to be bloody wars or fights. The death of Alexander was foretold because his victim's liver had no lobes. On the day that Pyrrhus was slain at Argos, his death was prognosticated by the heads of the sacrifices, which, being cut off, lay licking their own blood. It was also a very unlucky omen when the fire applied to the victim did not ascend calmly and in a straight line, or when the smoke curled and spread abroad. There was also a mode of divination by dreaming. Its professors threw themselves at will into a trance, during which, it was pretended, they visited in spirit the celestial regions, whence they returned with supernatural knowledge. In Athens a professed dreamer was kept at the public expense.

Divination by watching the motions and cries of birds was a superstition of great antiquity. It was observed that certain kinds of these animals disappeared in flights at particular seasons, and again returned, in a manner equally mysterious and incomprehensible, to their wonted haunts. In the present day, we know that such migrations take place from quite a natural cause—the instinctive desire of the animals to seek a climate conformable to their wants. But it was no part of the Greek, or, we may add, the Roman, philosophy, to attribute any event whatever to proximate natural causes; the meaning of every thing was sought for in the supernatural. The periodical flight and temporary absence of birds was therefore a phenomenon which served to invest these creatures with something like a supernatural character. When the birds left the land towards the approach of winter, to seek warmer skies, they were believed to retire from our earthly sphere, and to visit the heavenly regions, there to enter into communication with the gods, and receive from them a knowledge of future events. As birds could not disclose their information by language, it was customary to watch their flight, and also to kill them, for the sake of omens. If an eagle wheeled in its flight, or flew upwards, or perched on the ground, or if a flock of smaller birds settled on a temple, or was seen flying in a particular manner or direction, *something*, either good or evil, was betokened. There were also lucky and unlucky birds. Both Aristotle and Pliny, two great men of antiquity, reckoned vultures to be very unlucky, because they were generally seen before any great slaughter. Owls were, for the most part, looked upon as unlucky birds, but at Athens were omens of victory and success, being sacred to Minerva, the peculiar tutelary goddess of that city. The dove was thought to be lucky; so also was the swan, especially to mariners, being an omen of fair weather. Ravens were believed to receive a power of portending future events from Apollo. When they appeared about an army, it was a bad omen; if they came croaking upon the right hand, it was a tolerably good omen; if on the left, a very bad one; the appearance and chattering of magpies were unlucky omens. When Alexander entered Babylon, and Cicero fled from Anthony, their deaths were foretold by the noise of ravens. Pliny affirms that the worst omens were given by these birds when they made a harsh sort of noise, rattling in their throats, as if they were choked. Cocks were also accounted prophetical, especially in matters of war, for they were sacred to Mars, and were usually sacrificed to him, and pictured with him. The crowing of cocks was an auspicious omen, and presaged the victory of Themistocles over the Persians; in memory whereof, he instituted an annual feast, which was celebrated with exhibitions of fighting-cocks in the theatre. It was thought to be a token of a dreadful judgment, if a hen was heard to crow.

The superstitious beliefs of the Greeks and Romans were without number. Bees, ants, and various reptiles and beasts, were imagined to have the power of giving omens of good or bad fortune. Before Pompey's defeat, a swarm of bees settled upon the altar. This was a dreadful omen. Yet bees were not unlucky in all circumstances. When Plato was an infant in the cradle, bees are said to have come and sat upon his lips, whereupon the augurs foretold that he should be famous for sweetness of language and delightful eloquence. The death of Cimon, a Greek warrior, was presaged by a swarm of ants, which, on the occasion of a sacrifice, crept in a cluster round his great toe. Toads were accounted lucky omens. Snakes were likewise ominous, as appears by the serpent mentioned in Homer's Iliad, which devoured a brood of nine sparrows, and was interpreted to signify that the siege of Troy should continue nine whole years. To meet a boar was reckoned very unlucky. When a hare appeared to an army in time of war, it signified defeat and running away; the flight of Xerxes's army was predicted by a hare.

The phenomena of the atmosphere and planetary bodies were likewise a fertile source of superstitious delusions. The appearance of comets, and also eclipses, were ominous of great public disasters, it being the general belief that they were special signs made by the gods to warn mankind of approaching troubles. Nicias, the Athenian general, being surrounded on every side by his enemies, was struck with such consternation by an eclipse of the moon, that he commanded his soldiers to lay down their arms, and so with a numerous army tamely yielded himself up to slaughter. Lightning and thunder were lucky or unlucky according to the point from which they proceeded. If seen or heard on the right hand, they were believed to be good omens, and if on the left, the reverse. Both lightning and its accompanying thunder were supposed to proceed from Jupiter, and were the most awful tokens of his pleasure or displeasure. It was a common belief that danger from lightning might be averted by hissing or whistling to it. When a thunder-storm commenced, all Athens fell to whistling. At Rome, places struck by lightning were held sacred, and enclosed from ordinary use. Not a wind could blow, but it was attributed to Æolus; not a meteor could appear in the sky, but was imagined to be ominous of some approaching event of good or evil. When two meteors appeared together, they were supposed to be torches held out by Castor and Polux to light the mariner to port, and to forebode good weather; but if a third meteor happened to appear, it was declared to be Helena with a fiery dart chasing away Castor and Polux, and portended storms, shipwrecks, and disasters. Among a people so superstitious as the Greeks and Romans, it will readily be conceived that earthquakes were ominous of signal national evils. These agitations of the ground now traced to simple natural causes, were attributed to Neptune, and to avert his fury, sacrifices were made at his altars, and he was sung to in loud and fulsome pæans. When the ground was rent and laid open by earthquakes, the fears of the people, of the highest as well as the lowest rank, exceeded all bounds, and the subterranean deity was believed to be so wrathful, that nothing short of the most valuable offerings, thrown into the gap would appease his anger. Thus, Midas, king of Phrygia, on one occasion cast valuable jewels, and also his own son, into a gap caused by an earthquake; and when a gulf opened from a similar cause in Rome, Curtius leaped into it on horseback, as a voluntary sacrifice to Neptune, who was supposed to be gratified with the offering, for the gulf immediately closed upon and swallowed its heroic victim. In these superstitious beliefs and observances we see a lamentable proof of the follies to which even a refined people may be exposed, if ignorant of the laws of nature

A LESSON IN GOOD HUMOUR.

In a number of the New York Mirror for January last, we are presented with a rather clever sketch of a character in real life, Jeremiah Carey by name, who in all his fortunes and misfortunes exhibited the picture of a happy and contented man.

Jerry's countenance was *plainness* to the fullest extent, "Never mind," said Jerry, "I shall not be troubled by the petticoats. My face is my ægis." In ninety-nine cases out of a hundred such a conclusion would have been correct, but Jerry was fated to stumble over the solitary exception; inasmuch as a young and rather handsome heiress, forgetting his defects of phiz, and seeing only his contented disposition and intellectual worth, fell in love with him one day, and he, very goodnaturedly reciprocating the compliment, married her.

Proceeding home in a carriage from the church where the union had just been performed, the vehicle upset, spilled the bride and bride's-maid, and broke a leg of the bridegroom.

It was, especially, *mal-apropos*—to break a limb upon such an occasion, and Jerry had as much reason to repine at the accident as any one, similarly situated, could have, but he bore it with his usual good nature.

"Ah!" said he, one day in the last quarter of his damaged honeymoon, in answer to an expression of regret, endearment, and sympathy, which had escaped his interesting spouse, "'tis all for the best, Susy! I *desired* a little in-door life. Besides, but for this accident, my love, business would not have allowed me so much of your company. So, ha! ha! upon my word I look upon it as one of the most fortunate events of my life. I do indeed!"

Susan's first child was, unfortunately, born blind. "Not so very unfortunate, after all!" said Jerry. "It might have been worse. Let us thank an omniscient Providence that the dear little fellow is not club-footed. Surgery may perhaps remedy his sight; and if it can't why—why, after all, the faculty of seeing is so often abused—so often a curse to its possessor! It changed Lot's wife to a lump of salt, you know!"

Such is Jeremiah's philosophy; and for all trials, great or small, he makes it applicable.

His wife broke a pitcher—a costly one.

"Dear me! what a pity!" said she, provoked at her own carelessness.

"Not a whit!" responded Jerry. "I *never* liked that pitcher. Such an awkward handle! I'll get another."

His chimneys were contrary. There are few who can keep their patience in smoky rooms; Jeremiah, however, after fully ascertaining that with his house the nuisance was incurable, forthwith began to extol the *virtues* of smoke, and it was not until after he had sold his bacon-making residence, and purchased an abode more conducive to comfort, that he would allow that smoke was *not* an indispensable necessary to civilised life.

His little blind boy withered and died like a sunless rose, ere he could lisp "father?" Susan had been a second time a mother, but her love for her first born burned brightest, for to the pure flame of maternal love was added interest for the darkness which shrouded his vision like a continual night. Even so was the poor boy endeared to the heart of his father. Sad indeed, then, was the ceremony with which the little sufferer was consigned to the grave, where all are blind alike.

They returned to their dwelling. The prattle of the sightless one no longer greeted their foot-fall—all seemed cheerless and desolate to Susan, and sitting down, she hid her face in her hands and wept. The heart of Jeremiah was sad, but not to abandonment, like that of his wife. He opened the Bible given him by his mother on her death-bed, and, drawing his chair near to Susan, read aloud that beautiful chapter wherein our Saviour asks for little children to be brought unto him, "for of such is the kingdom of heaven."

When he had concluded, he closed the book, and clasped the hand of his wife affectionately within his own.

"Susan," said he and his voice sounded like gentle music in her ears, "let us not murmur. God is just—is merciful. If *he* had lived, it would only have been to grope through the world. *Now* he is in heaven, where to all, all is light. Let us deserve to meet him there."

Only a few years afterwards Jeremiah was reduced to comparative poverty. The bulk of his property had been invested in the stock of the bank, which failed, unable to pay a shilling on the dollar. Thus compelled to dispose of his expensive establishment, change his style of living altogether, and, with his wife and four children, take to "short commons," his spirits did not desert him.

Said Jerry, "Never mind!" two words which he never failed to throw at the teeth of every mishap which he encountered; "never mind! I like variety. I'm tired of riding in a carriage, I once broke my leg in one. Walking is an exercise that I need very much. Come, come, this is not so bad an affair after all—it will test the value of my friends. Besides, now I can earn the bread we eat. Ah! it will be a labour of love, and that enriches the soul! I can almost say that I am glad this accident has happened. I can, indeed!"

Let no one think that our patient friend's philosophy is the apathy of the stoic. It arises from no lack of sensitive and acute feelings, but from a benevolent determination to *make the best of every thing*. This is the secret of his contentment under a load of mishaps and reverses. Ever striving to render all around him happy, he is a sterling friend; never repining at the decrees of Providence, he is a true Christian.

STATE OF THE EGYPTIAN PEOPLE.

We lately presented a playful and pleasing account of Mehemet Ali, the wondrous viceroy of Egypt, from Dr. Bowring's "Minor Morals." We need not say how many such notices of Mehemet Ali have appeared of late years in the works of British travellers. If we are to believe a new journal, entitled "The European," of which we have seen an able first number (being a more universal kind of Literary Gazette or Athenæum, at the price of sixpence), the picture has a different side, which British observers are not apt to see, but, which, if generally known, would forbid the utterance of another soft or respectful word respecting this extraordinary ruler. The writer in the European, whose immediate object is to notice some late papers by Prince Puckler Muskau, respecting Egypt, represents himself as one who has seen what he speaks of; and if such be the case, and he be at all a faithful observer, we must say that his statements form one of the most striking portraitures of widespread misery as a result of despotic government, which have ever met our eyes. We extract some portions of it:—

"Egypt was never more miserable than at the present moment. . . . Mehemet Ali would give up his game for lost, if his subjects had once a good coat to their backs, a shilling in their pockets, and enough to eat for dinner. He knows how difficult it is for a ruler to press the inhabitants of such a fertile tract as the valley of the Nile, down to the level of the poverty required by a Turkish government, and to keep them from ever emerging from it; and he holds that it is impossible for the most refined and ingenious tax-gatherer to plunder them thoroughly. To a certain extent he is right. Such is the exemplary patience and long sufferance of the Fellahs (the native Egyptians), that even whilst smarting from blows, and languishing, naked, and hungry, in a land of fertility and abundance, they will be heard to exclaim, with an expression of hope and confidence, 'Leave us for three years master of the Nile, and we will pay the Miri, and soon be rich again.' Mehemet has an extraordinary source of plunder which is not easily exhausted. Under his predecessors, the Mamelukes, the people, notwithstanding their capricious and unceasing oppression, contrived to amass considerable sums of money, which, according to an old custom, were consigned to the ground, and often not dug up, until, at the death of the possessor, they were dragged to light, divided, and instantly reinterred; on occasion of a sudden catastrophe, they were not unfrequently altogether lost sight of. The discovery of these treasures, whether lost or still owned by some of his Fellahs, is one of the principal cares of the present governor of Egypt. He has agents in every village, whose eyes, ears, and hands, are all active in tracing out the secret savings of his subjects, which, when discovered, are instantly officially denounced to the government. It not unfrequently happens that a Fellah who has been plundered, betrays out of envy his neighbour, who has hitherto been so fortunate as to elude research. The aid of the bastinado is then called in to

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render the discovery complete, and every thing that is found is of course confiscated for the benefit of the government and its worthy agents. It happened not very long ago, that the authorities were erroneously informed that two Fellahs had dug up in their field a pitcher full of gold, which they had divided between them. The accused denied the fact, and for this impertinence each of them received in the court of the palace five hundred blows on the soles of his feet, so severe that the nails came off, and that their toes were reduced to mangled shreds. After this the poor creatures were carried before the priest, in whose presence they had to swear, according to the ritual of their church, that they had found no money on their land. . . In the valley of the Nile, under his [Mehemet's] paternal government, the population has decreased a million! It has been calculated that in France one in thirty of the inhabitants lives on the budget; but in Egypt not less than one-sixth of the population are employed in the administration, and live on the sweat of the rest. It is the grand aim of these respectable individuals to push the fertility of the country as rapidly as possible to a point, where it can be made available by their rapacity, and to work the peasant to the utmost stretch of his powers. The ground which the Nile every year renews cannot be exhausted, but its tiller, taxed beyond the capabilities of nature, must at length faint and perish. The absence of all pity, of every feeling of humanity, of every natural tie between sovereign and subject, is the proper character of the Turkish government of Egypt. Of course, Mehemet Ali has to pay well his confederates in his tyrannical career. Let me describe the kind of life they must be suffered to lead to ensure the continuance of the system. As an example, may be taken Sherif Pacha, who was formerly minister of the interior, and governor of Upper Egypt. In the first capacity, he drew annually from the public treasury, like all his colleagues, more than a million of francs. For his governorship he had 150,000 more. This was his regular income; but he managed, *per fas et nefas* [by foul and fair means], to extract as much again as this from the pockets of his subjects. He passed, nevertheless, in comparison with his predecessors, and with many other high officials, for a very moderate and reasonable man. His court at Siut was royal; his harem was especially rich in beauties, both black and white; there was no end to his feasts and festivals; and his slaves and servants were innumerable. The whole province, with the lives and fortunes of all its inhabitants, were unreservedly placed at his disposal. He ruled by his nod the army of officials under him, and all their servants and servants' servants; of his stewardship he had no account to render, if he only sent recruits, gold, and provisions to Cairo, the instant he received the order. As he was accountable only to his sovereign, so his subordinate officials were accountable only to him, and each Egyptian official in his little sphere, be it only a miserable village, is as uncontrolled a despot as the lord of the entire province. They all steal and squander; all squeeze, torment, beat, and plunder the unprotected peasantry, in order to live as dissolutely as possible amongst low villains and female slaves, and at the same time to hoard up something for the future.

But has the mass of the people supported this state of things without murmuring, and with unceasing patience? Far from it. During the first twelve years of Mehemet Ali's government, revolts were continually breaking out, as, in different parts of the country, the bitterness of oppression goaded the people to madness. The hirelings by whose aid the pacha overthrew the Mamelukes, remained under arms throughout Egypt, to complete the conquest for their master. The banks of the Nile are infested with these vagrant military bands, who pass the whole year under tents, and have always some of their horses saddled, in order in an instant to be able to suppress every attempt at opposition. Who can tell the crowds of Fellahs who have fallen in the last thirty years in partial insurrections? Though some of the statements current in the country may be exaggerated, still there is no doubt that the population of entire parishes has been exterminated, that in the Nile villages not a weapon is now to be met with, and that the possibility of combating oppression no longer exists. Egypt is like a country held by a foreign army, and every single village may be said to be in a state of permanent siege. Flight is the only resource left to the miserable inhabitants.

But where to fly from the tyranny of Mehemet Ali? Egypt is only a long oasis in an interminable waste of sand. As long as Palestine was free, the peasants of the Delta, like the children of Israel of old, had at least one prospect of escape, and in a short time not less than 10,000 fugitive Fellahs colonised a portion of Galilee. It was these desertions in which the late misunderstandings between Egypt and Turkey originated. Now the valley of the Nile is completely closed like the cavern of Polyphemus, and fate seems to have leagued itself with the oppressor against the pent-up race of Fellahs, unless the present oriental crisis terminate in their relief. 'When will the Inglis (English), when will the Frenki (French), come to put an end to our unsupportable sufferings?' is a question which the European must repeatedly hear on the journey between Cairo and Wadi-halfa. The Egyptians know that the Christians, though they are not of the faithful, still do not envy the peasant his coarse food and scanty raiment. Prince Puckler, it is true, had no time to attend to such questions; he was always seated by the side of his princely patron, smoking out of the same pipe, and feasting on the fat of the land. In Monfalut, the very palace where the prince is quite sentimental in his feelings of respect and affections towards the pacha, because the latter 'turned round and took him so graciously, seductively, and irresistibly by the arm,' the writer of this article was but a few years ago the witness of a scene, which caused in him very different feelings to those here produced by the pressure of a satrap's hand. From seven villages in the neighbourhood, the inhabitants had all fled in the night into the Lybian desert, because they could no longer bear up against labour, hunger, exaction, and despair, combined. Their draught-cattle, ploughs, and other agricultural instruments, had already been taken from them to satisfy the demands of the tax-gatherer. Clothes, furniture, and provisions, they had already none, and still without these they were expected to till their ground, and pour fresh sums into the exchequer. Although the Egyptian peasants know that the large and frequented oases to the east are under the power of Mehemet Ali, they still hope to find somewhere in the expanse of sand, an island with wells and palm-trees as yet unreached by their oppressor, where they may find refuge from his prosecution. Only a short time, however, elapsed before the fugitives were pursued and overtaken by a band of the vagrant military above alluded to. I myself saw several divisions of them driven into the court-yard of the house of the Nasir of Monfalut. They were all bare-foot; the women only had a few rags round the waist; the men and boys were quite naked; some few only had a small linen cap pressed close to the head. But who shall depict the misery expressed on the countenances of these unfortunate beings? After having been fed with bread, and locked up in the yard all night like cattle, they were whipped back again the next morning to their deserted huts, to recommence their daily tasks, which were now as a punishment made heavier than before. If any observation is made by a foreigner on these tortures and hardships, the reply is, that it is true the people have much to endure, and much to pay; but that such treatment is quite good enough for a race so ignoble and so inferior to their conquerors as that of the Fellahs. Has the German Prince ever seen how canals are dug or cleaned in Egypt? Men, women, and children, when wanted for this purpose, are driven together from the neighbouring villages, or perhaps from out the entire district, and are made to work by the whip, from morning till evening, without tools, food, or pay. The work is not done as in the west, slowly and regularly, but in violent haste. In palm-baskets or rags the poor wretches carry away the earth as it is thrown up, and are kept in a perpetual run by the sticks of their task-masters; for the Turk never thinks that enough is being done, and a Fellah, he says, can never have too many blows. The panting women and the little children run to and fro in silence, with the palm-scuttle on their shoulders, and with the fear of the whip before their eyes, which, however, drivers, placed at certain intervals, regularly apply to their backs with mechanical indifference, whether they lag behind or not. To such an extent are carried, especially in Upper Egypt, the cruelty of the tyrant and the patience of the slave, that Fellahs, unprovided with even the coarsest food, are sometimes seen to perish from hunger, fatigue, and ill treatment, under the walls of a magazine well stored with provisions. The idea never occurs to a corpulent Turk, that a Fellah can be in want of nourishment. It is very probable that the pacha does not himself order these atrocities to be committed; but he does nothing to prevent them, which is all the same for the people. There is no reason to doubt the accuracy of an assertion commonly made in Egypt, that two thirds of the deaths which occur annually in the valley of the Nile, have their origin either in hunger or ill usage.

Who believes that on such elements as exist in Egypt a permanent empire can be founded? The spirit of the age will no longer tolerate a dominion exercised by slave-drivers. Even the long suffering people of the east are tired, and their doctrine of fatality has lost its power of reconciling them to oppression. The worst lot that can be reserved to Egypt is the continuance of the tyranny of Mehemet Ali—a tyranny which scorches and destroys, like the sirocco of the African desert."

REPORT OF BIRTHS, MARRIAGES, AND DEATHS IN ENGLAND.

The First Annual Report of the Registrar-General of Births, Marriages, and Deaths, recently published, contains a mass of statistical information of the most valuable kind, and which is destined to become more valuable by comparison with similar statistics relating to subsequent years, which the Registrar-General will be enabled henceforth to furnish annually. As this Report, in its present shape, is not likely to come within the reach of many of the readers of the Journal, we beg leave to string together a few extracts from it.

It appears that the total number of marriages solemnised in England, according to the rites of the established church, during the year ending June 30, 1838, is 107,201; and the number solemnised during the same period, *not* according to the rites of the established church, is 4280; making the total number of marriages which have taken place in England, during the year, to be 111,481. Out of this number there were 5575 males and 16,563 females married *below the age of twenty-one years*.

The number of births registered in England and Wales during the year ending Juue 30, 1838, is 399,712, namely, 204,863 males, and 194,849 females. The number of deaths registered, during the same period, is 335,956, namely, 170,965 males, and 164,991 females.

The following table shows the proportion out of 1000 registered deaths which have occurred at various ages during the year in England and Wales:—

Ages.	Males.	Females.	Total.
Under 1 year	234·66	193·72	214·54
1 and 2	127·17	128·85	128·
3 — 4	47·57	49·47	48·51
5 — 9	45·89	46·27	46·07
10 — 14	24·57	27·3	25·91
15 — 19	30·96	37·48	34·16
20 — 24	39·02	43·5	41·22
25 — 29	35·	39·97	37·44
30 — 34	33·05	37·42	35·2
35 — 39	32·38	34·25	33·3
40 — 44	32·91	32·69	32·8
45 — 49	32·6	30·65	31·64
50 — 54	32·12	30·8	31·47
55 — 59	33·54	31·42	32·5
60 — 64	40·51	40·64	40·57
65 — 69	41·05	41·83	41·43
70 — 74	42·95	44·95	43·93
75 — 80	40·3	43·46	41·85
80 — 84	30·48	34·89	32·63
85 — 90	16·97	20·86	18·88
90 and upwards	6·26	9·51	7·86

In allusion to the value of this table, the Registrar-General says, "In the abstract of deaths (the registration of which even for the first year has been effected with signal success) I have entered into more minute details exhibiting enumerations of the deaths of persons of each sex at every successive year of age. Such details are of acknowledged value, as data for determining the laws of mortality, as bases for calculations materially affecting the interests of millions. Tables exhibiting the proportion of deaths at every successive year of age are among the most important materials from which are deduced the true principles on which should be founded the systems of life-annuities and of life-insurance, and the rules of friendly societies established for the use of the poorer classes."

Besides the above abstract of deaths for the whole of England and Wales, the Registrar-General has contrived, by dividing the kingdom into twenty-five divisions, to exhibit the difference which prevails in the proportions in different parts of the kingdom, and to compare town with country—agricultural districts with manufacturing and mining districts—the hilly with the low and level—the maritime with the inland—the eastern and northern with the western and southern parts. "Nor (says he) are these divisions matters of merely curious speculation, but may be made the source of important benefits, especially to the poorer classes. It was stated in evidence before the Committee on Parochial Registration in 1833, by the Actuary of the National Debt Office, that the extent of difference which then existed was utterly unknown; that tables for the use of the poor, in reference to sickness and mortality, and in reference to the regulation of their friendly societies, could not then be constructed for two districts differing in character, from the want of such information as an improved system would afford; and that if two societies of poor men residing in districts of a totally different character were, at the same time, to apply for tables to guide them in preserving their societies solvent, he 'should be under the necessity of giving the same tables to both, though knowing perfectly that the rates which were adequate in one case were inadequate in the other.'" All this information, however valuable and important as it unquestionably is, is but a subordinate result of the national system of registering births, marriages, and deaths, lately come into operation in England—the great and primary object of that system being henceforward to collect information as to the date and every other circumstance connected with the birth, marriage, and death of every individual in England and Wales, and to deposit and preserve such information, in a systematic manner, in one central office in London, where, at all times, and under proper regulations, it will be easily accessible to all classes of the people.

We shall, in conclusion, briefly describe to our readers the method adopted by the Registrar-General for registering births, marriages, and deaths. He has divided the kingdom into districts, to each of which he has assigned a superintendant-registrar, and one or more registrars. Under the Poor-Law Amendment Act, the whole of England and Wales has now nearly been formed into distinct unions for the administration of relief to the poor; and these divisions of the country for parochial purposes have generally been found convenient for the purpose of registration likewise. Generally speaking, the clerks of those poor-law unions, who are for the most part solicitors and men of respectability, have been appointed to the office of superintendant-registrar of births, marriages, and deaths, for their respective unions, as have also the relieving officers of those unions been appointed the registrars, who act under the direction of the superintendant-registrar. These local registrars are required to inform themselves carefully of every birth and death which shall happen within their respective districts. It is left to their discretion to employ such lawful means of procuring this information as may to them appear best. Having received intelligence of a birth or death, the registrar proceeds to the house where it has occurred, and enters it in a register-book kept for that purpose. Every registrar is required, quarterly, to make and deliver to the superintendant-registrar of his district a true copy of all the entries of births and deaths registered by him in the register-book of births and of deaths, upon blank forms furnished to him for that purpose, which copies, after having been examined and compared by the superintendant-registrar with the register-books, and certified

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by him, are transmitted by post to the Registrar-General in London. The process which these certified copies undergo in London is thus described by the Registrar-General: "The duties performed under my more immediate direction upon the receipt of the certified copies, after the termination of each quarter, at the general register-office, are, 1st, the examination; 2d, the arrangement; 3d, the formation of alphabetical indices; and, 4th, the compilation of abstracts (to which last we have already alluded).

1. After such preliminary arrangement as shall prevent the confusion and intermixture of papers, each leaf of the certified copies, and each entry thereon, is subjected to a strict examination. If any erasure, interpolation, informality, omission, or error, or defect of any kind, is thereby detected in any entry, it is immediately noted, with a reference to the entry, in a form furnished for that purpose; and all such defects as require explanation, or may at any future time cast doubt on any matter recorded in the register, are made the subjects of immediate inquiry; a letter is addressed to the person who registered the defective entry, and his explanatory reply is preserved in the office, ready to be referred to in the event of explanation being deemed requisite at any future period. * * *

2. After the examination of the certified copies of a quarter of a year, the leaves are arranged, paged, and bound in volumes, for preservation and reference, regard being had in such arrangement to locality, so that entries registered in the same district shall never be far apart, and those which belong to the same county shall, with few exceptions, be found in the same volume. * * The certified copies so arranged and bound are kept deposited in fire-proof cases.

3. A separate alphabetical index is made for reference to the births of each quarter, another for the marriages, another for the deaths, being twelve separate indices for reference to the births, marriages, and deaths of the whole year, containing for the first year of registration, ending June 30th, 1838, 958,630 entries. The alphabetical arrangement is that of *surnames*, and it is carried out even to the last letter of each word; and where the surname recurs often, the alphabetical arrangement has been extended to the name also. * *

I need not enlarge upon the advantages derivable from the facilities afforded by such indices. Obviously desirable as it is that important records like the certified copies of registers of births, marriages, and deaths, should be placed in one central public repository, the advantage of such accumulation would be comparatively slight, if easy reference to any of the millions of entries which will be collected in a few years were not afforded by a systematic arrangement, and a complete method of alphabetical indexing. The immense saving of time, labour, and expense, which is thereby effected, cannot be appreciated by a mere comparison with those cases in which (the place of the register of baptism, burial, or marriage, under the old system, being known and accessible) little trouble was incurred in obtaining a copy of the entry required. But it must be remembered, that cases have occurred where the register of a baptism, burial, or marriage, being required for legal purposes, no person living has been able to state in which of all the parishes in the kingdom the baptism, burial, or marriage, had been registered, or whether it had been registered at all. * * * In such a case, with no indication but the surname sought, and the probable period of the birth, marriage, or death, the search, which previously was a hopeless task, may, with respect to entries in the new registers, be accomplished in a few minutes."

The old parochial system of registration in England was in many respects exceedingly defective. In the first place, the registers kept by the parochial clergy were registers of *baptisms* and *burials* only, and furnished no evidence whatever of the precise time of the birth or death of an individual. They were also, for the most part, kept in a careless manner, and in numberless instances they were found materially obliterated or destroyed. Mr. Matthews, a barrister, in his evidence on this subject before the Parochial Registration Committee in 1833, said, at the last York assizes he happened to be present on the trial of the cause of "Doe and Hungate," a case of considerable notoriety in that country, where a large estate was at stake; and upon Mr. Sergeant Jones stating that an obliteration appeared in a register which was produced, Mr. Justice Alderson, who tried the cause, observed, "Are you surprised at that, brother Jones? I am not at all surprised, I have had much experience, and I never saw a parish registry book in my life that was not falsified in one way or other; and I do not believe there is one that is not."

The expense and delay, too, consequent on procuring the certificate of a birth, marriage, or death, in cases where the parish where the event occurred was not known, were enormous, and formed not the least of the evils of the old system. In such cases a search has frequently been abandoned as fruitless, after having been made in half the parishes of England.

All these objections, however, will now, for the future at least, be completely removed by the operation of the new system of registration.

In concluding this notice, we would wish to impress upon the English readers of the Journal the necessity and propriety of their affording every facility in their power to the local registrars in the work of registration, for we are aware that some degree of prejudice towards the measure exists in England, and that some persons have carried this feeling to so great an extent as to refuse the necessary information when called upon by the registrar; an offence which the law has made a misdemeanour, punishable with a pecuniary fine. There cannot be the slightest doubt that it is the interest of all classes, more or less, that such important events as the births, marriages, and deaths of the population should be correctly registered and preserved; and we are wholly at a loss to conceive on what grounds any individual can refuse to comply with the provisions of a law which has in view objects of such national benefit and importance, more especially as he can fulfil those provisions at no expense, and at the most trifling amount of trouble possible. We indeed regard the English people as highly favoured by the establishment of such an efficient system of registration amongst them. Scotland has nothing of the kind. Nobody can tell how many children are born, how many persons are married, or how many die, annually in Scotland. There are, of course, parish books, but these are on a most imperfect scale. Of births no date is taken, and only such persons as please, register baptisms. There is a register of *proclamations* of regular marriages, but no corresponding record of the solemnisation of these marriages, except at the pleasure of the parties. Of irregular marriages, no note whatever is taken. We verily believe that not above one in ten of the marriages which take place in Scotland could be legally proved, except by litigation before a supreme court, in which collateral evidence might possibly be produced. A register of burials is kept at every burying ground, but no register of deaths. Thus, in Scotland, the whole matter of registration may be considered as on the worst possible footing.

A WEDDING AT SEA.

A CORRESPONDENT of the New England Review gives the following sketch of an interesting scene which occurred on board the ship in which he sailed from America:—

"A novel circumstance took place, while on our passage, which I must relate. There was a Mr. H. on board, who was formerly a merchant in Massachusetts, since in Connecticut, and late of New York. He was a kind, open-hearted fellow, full of fun, and withal very intelligent as well as handsome. His age was twenty-seven. He came on board an entire stranger to us all, but as we made it a point to have but one family on board, and as we soon discovered his amiable qualities, he very soon made a welcome member. On our sixth day he came to me, and inquired the name and circumstances of an elderly gentleman passenger, who was accompanied by his daughter, with whom Mr. H. seemed deeply smitten. For my own part, I could see nothing exceedingly attractive about Miss J., save that she was very agreeable in her manners, and highly intelligent. I informed him, and, at his request, gave him a formal introduction, which terminated in the following manner:—Soon after the introduction, it became evident that a mutual liking and affection existed between Mr. H. and Miss J., who, from their open expressions of fondness, began to attract the attention of all, and the admiration of many of the passengers. They were frequently observed in their close conversations, and a game of whist was scarcely ever played in which they were not partners. On the second Sunday of our passage, we solicited the Rev. Mr. G., who was on his way to Italy, to preach a sermon. By the politeness of the captain, a large awning was spread over us, seats were prepared, and a congregation of 76 persons, including the steerage passengers and sailors, was collected to participate in the religious exercises. A small desk was formed into a pulpit, and a choir was formed by 'going into a committee of the whole.' The text was read and the sermon delivered, of which I need not speak. At the conclusion of the sermon, our minister rose and read the following card, which lay on the desk:—'William Benetly H——, Esq., of New York, *intends marriage* with Miss Maria Louisa J——.' We were more surprised at the novelty of the thing than the fact itself, and, indeed, such was the feeling created by the sudden and unexpected announcement made, that we all forgot the serious impressions made on our minds by the minister, in our hearty and vociferous congratulations of the happy pair. But it did not end here. A proposition was made to the parties to have the affair consummated that evening, which was cheerfully acceded to by them, to the great pleasure of all on board. Accordingly, things were arranged in order, the best state-room was given up to them, and every one felt gay and happy as the hour approached which should witness the consummation of their nuptial vows. The evening was calm and delightful; not a sail fluttered in the breeze, not a voice was heard, not the least stir or bustle about the deck, and the moon looked down in loveliness on that tranquil scene. At noon, every soul gathered to the temple which had been erected for religious worship, and in less than fifteen minutes the marriage ceremony was performed by our worthy minister, who made a few remarks, and closed with prayer. The scene was truly as sublime as romantic. The fair bride came out, dressed in a robe of pure white satin, leaning on the arm of her lover, bound to the altar, and heard her marriage vow pronounced where, only an hour or two before, she had uttered her vows to God. Many a tear of joy stole down the cheeks of those who looked on, and not a care cast the shadow of its wing across that scene of triumph, love, and bliss. The novelty of this affair had thrown us all into an excitement, and nothing was to be talked of but weddings, wedding parties, marriages at sea, love, honeymoon, &c., &c., and I was at times half tempted to make a similar proposition myself to the queen-like Miss C., if for nothing else but the purpose of having the joke pass round."

SCENE IN THE MANAGER'S ROOM.

"(A knock at the door:)—'Come in; what is it?' cried the manager. 'Can you see Mr. Fatton?' 'What Mr. Fatton?' 'The master of the supernumeraries.' 'Send him in.' 'Now, Fatton what is the matter? Make haste, for I am busy.' "Sir, there is a strike with the children in the theatre.' 'So there ought to be, Mr. Fatton, if you did your duty properly, and kept a birch rod.' 'Yes, sir; but all their fathers and mothers come on me, and threaten to punch my head; now, you know it is not my fault.' 'Well, what is the strike, as you call it?' 'The girls who are to fly in the new ballet won't have the wires affixed to them, unless they are raised to eighteenpence a-night; their mothers won't let them endanger their lives under that sum! Now, sir, we should be in a great scrape at night, if this were to happen; worse than we were in at the other house, with the boys in the storm.' 'What was that, Fatton?' 'Didn't you hear that, sir? Oh, there were sixty boys, who stood on the stage under a very large canvass, painted to represent the sea. Now, these boys were placed alternately, and were to rise and fall, first gradually, and then violently, to represent the motion of the waves in a storm; and in the three first nights of the piece it had a powerful effect; but after that, the manager reduced the water-rate, that is to say, he lowered the salary of each wave to sixpence per night. The boys took their places under the canvass sea; and when the prompter gave the signal for the storm, the water was stagnant; instead of the ship striking, it was the waves that *struck*. The sub-manager, in a fury, inquired the cause, when the principal billow said, "We won't move a peg unless you pay us a shilling a-night, for it wears out our corduroys so."' "Well, Fatton, promise the girls the eighteenpence; but I will be even with them; I will keep them dangling in the sky-borders in a thorough draught all the night. Tell them so.'—(Exit Fatton.)"—*Heads of the People.*

BANKING IN EARLY TIMES.

A banker in early times pursued a very different trade from that which occupies the attention of the opulent and influential class so called at the present day. It is well known that the latter derive their profits from the employment of fluctuating sums of money deposited in their hands for convenience and safety by the public, and for the security of which the respectability of the banker is a sufficient guarantee. But this is a refinement of comparatively recent introduction, with which our forefathers were wholly unacquainted. As late as the time of Swift, bankers gave and took a bond on receiving and lending money, and made their profit by obtaining a high rate of interest, or usuary as it was called, on the latter operation, than they allowed on the former. Ten or twelve per cent. was the customary rate of interest during the reign of Queen Elizabeth, at which period, we mean no disrespect to the banker when we say that he united in his person the trades of the usurer, the pawnbroker, the money-scrivener, the goldsmith, and the dealer in bullion. A German traveller who visited England in 1593, says that he saw in Lombard Street "all sorts of gold and silver vessels exposed to sale, as well as ancient and modern coins, in such quantities as must surprise a man the first time he sees and considers them." It is a curious circumstance that Lombard Street should have retained its character as well as its name for at least five centuries and a half; and it may not perhaps be out of place to mention, that within the last thirty years several gold and silver lacemen lived there, a link between the ancient and modern occupants of the street, which has now almost wholly disappeared.—*Life and Times of Sir Thomas Gresham.*

CURE FOR DRUNKENNESS.

A man in Maryland, notoriously addicted to this vice, hearing an uproar in his kitchen one evening, had the curiosity to step without noise to the door, to know what was the matter, when he beheld his servants indulging in the most unbounded roar of laughter at a couple of his negro boys, who were mimicking himself in his drunken fits; showing how he reeled and staggered, how he looked and nodded, and hiccuped and tumbled. The picture which these children of nature drew of him, and which had filled the rest with so much merriment, struck him so forcibly that he became a perfectly sober man, to the unspeakable joy of his wife and children.—*Anatomy of Drunkenness.*

IMPORTANCE OF CORRECT PUNCTUATION.

The contract made for lighting the town of Liverpool, during the year 1819, was thrown void by the misplacing of a comma in the advertisements—thus:—"The lamps at present are about 4050, and have in general two spouts each, composed of not less than twenty threads of cotton." The contractor would have proceeded to furnish each lamp with the said twenty threads; but this being but half the usual quantity, the commissioners discovered that the difference arose from the comma following instead of preceding the word *each*. The parties agreed to annul the contract and a new one was ordered.

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☞ A few Copies of the Numbers for the years 1838 and 1839 may be had by an early application.

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